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CHAPTER 16

ALEXANDER THE GREAT PART I: THE EVENTS OF THE REIGN

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I. THE ACCESSION, 336–335 B.C.

This and the following chapter are intended to provide an outline survey of the reign of Alexander.[1] The king himself is central to the narrative, for the vast preponderance of the source tradition deals explicitly with his actions. Events, however important, in which he was not the protagonist depend on chance testimonia. The subject of this first chapter is the campaign and court history of the reign, the details of the process of conquest. That provides the thread of continuity for the historical interpretation of the reign and records the imperial expansion of Macedon, the most obvious – and important – aspect of the period, as well as the increasing autocracy and elimination of dissent around the person of Alexander. The next chapter deals more with the effect of Alexander: the impact of the new universal empire upon the traditional world of Greek city states and the organization of the territories and peoples acquired by conquest. The approach is encapsulated in the final section, where I examine Alexander's claims to divine status, possibly the starkest illustration of the gulf which he had created between subject and sovereign. Although the exposition is by necessity centred around Alexander, I have tried to avoid value judgments and psychological speculation. The besetting sin of traditional Alexander scholarship has been an obsession with the person of the king, who becomes less a historical figure and more a symbol of contemporary aspirations. In Droysen's hands he was the embodiment of Prussian imperialism, in Tarn's a liberal humanitarian. The dangers of distortion and subjective evangelism are pervasive and insidious, and in my opinion they can only be avoided by concentration upon the historical context. I have therefore attempted to explain the career of Alexander strictly as a phenomenon of the fourth century, leaving the reader to draw the analogies (which are legion) with the modern world.

[1] For a more general appreciation of Alexander within the fourth century see the Epilogue, pp.876 ff. I would also refer the reader to my recent monograph, Bosworth 1988 (D 159) for fuller discussion and documentation than is possible here.

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The reign began with crisis, swiftly resolved. After his father's assassination Alexander succeeded to the throne in tantalizingly obscure circumstances.[2] The sources hint at civil war, narrowly averted by ruthless massacre. Whether or not they were involved in the murder of Philip, two of the sons of Aeropus (princes of the mountain canton of Lyncestis) were immediately arrested and executed at the funeral some days later. A third brother, Alexander, attached himself to the crown prince and helped him secure the palace at Aegae. That may have been the key event. The seizure of the palace was probably followed by a meeting of the commons at which Alexander was saluted as king. A public meeting certainly followed at which Alexander presented himself as king, underlining his inheritance from Philip and promising to act as his father's son. His filial piety was publicized directly at the funeral, when his father was cremated and interred in state and the assassins were duly punished.[3]

More personal acts of vengeance followed. In particular the family of Attalus, Alexander's avowed enemy, was eradicated. Attalus himself was murdered in Asia Minor with the connivance of his fellow-commander, Parmenion. His niece, Cleopatra, the tragic last bride of Philip, was also done to death along with her infant daughter. In this instance the murder was perpetrated not by Alexander but by his mother, the vindictive and jealous Olympias. The young king expressed horror at the deed, but he had done nothing to protect the victims and their demise made his position more secure. It was more secure still after the elimination of his cousin. Amyntas, son of Perdiccas III, had been the ward of Philip and had some entitlement to the kingship. He certainly had a faction and was potentially dangerous. Soon after Alexander's accession he was killed (his wife was available for remarriage by summer 335), and the only male survivor in the royal house was the mentally incapacitated Arrhidaeus, who was to live out Alexander's reign in peaceful obscurity. There will have been lesser casualties of the accession, men who were simply suppressed or, like Amyntas, son of Antiochus, went into exile to serve with Persian forces against the man they regarded as an usurper. For

[2] For the background see Badian 1963 (D 62); Bosworth 1971 (D 66); Ellis 1971 (D 28), 1981 (D 82); Kraft 1971 (D 207), 11–42; Fears 1975 (D 86); Hammond 1978 (D 47); Develin 1981 (D 76).

[3] Diod. XVII.2.1; Plut. *Alex.*10.7. The scene is described in the fragmentary papyrus epitome *POxy.* 1798 (for improved text see Parsons 1979 (D 108)). Much has been written on the magnificent Tomb II of the Great Tumulus which many have identified as Philip's burial chamber (Andronikos 1979, 1980, 1984 (D 4,5,6); Hammond 1982 (D 48); Green 1982 (D 40); Borza 1981–82 (D 15). Prag *et al.* 1984 (D 59) give a very adventurous reconstruction of the head of the male occupant, complete with damaged eye socket.) Doubts, however, subsist and have tended to become more insistent. The identification of the female remains in the antechamber has posed an intractable problem. If it was Cleopatra who shared the tomb, it was a surprising legitimization of a union which Olympias and Alexander had opposed and abhorred. The question is as yet unresolved but fortunately it has no repercussions upon the historical interpretation of Alexander's reign.

many the new reign had produced death or alienation. For others it brought promotion. The senior statesman and the senior general of Philip's reign, Antipater and Parmenion, had both backed the rising star. Parmenion indeed had helped eliminate Attalus, his own son-in-law (Curt. VI.9.17), and it is not surprising that he and his sons dominated the command structure of the army in the early years of the reign. Similarly Antipater was the natural choice as regent of Macedonia in Alexander's absence.

After the eradication of his immediate rivals Alexander felt secure enough to leave the kingdom for prolonged campaigns. The winter of 336/5 saw the suppression of unrest and dissidence in southern Greece (see below, pp.847–8). A bloodless campaign resulted in his confirmation as his father's successor, both *hegemon* of the Corinthian League and supreme commander in the war of revenge against Persia. His authority established in the south, he could turn to unfinished business, in particular the subjugation of the Triballian kingdom, centred around the confluence of the Danube and Oescus rivers. That was where Philip had been wounded and defeated in 339,[4] and there was prestige to be restored. In the spring of 335 Alexander led a Macedonian expeditionary force from Amphipolis, forging north through the Rhodope range to the Hebrus valley and then to the passes of the central Haemus range, where there were still tribes (perhaps the Treres and Tetrachoritae) which were free of Macedonian control. These passes (either the Trojan or the Shipka)[5] were forced with little effort and minimal losses, and Alexander continued inexorably northwards into Triballian territory. A preliminary encounter with Triballian forces at the river Lyginus resulted in another victory; the lightly armed Triballians were helpless against the massed cavalry and phalanx assault from the Macedonians. The Triballian king, Syrmus, had evacuated his non-combatants to the large island of Peuce, where the combination of steep banks and rapid current frustrated direct ship-borne attacks. But he had evacuated the countryside and the ripening harvest was at the mercy of the invaders. That was a lesson Alexander was quick to impart. A threatening demonstration by the Getic peoples north of the Danube gave him the pretext to transport a substantial number of troops across the river under cover of night. He then used the phalanx to ravage the maturing grain and looted a small town in the vicinity before recrossing the river without a single casualty. The invading army was demonstrated to be irresistible, and capitulation inevitably followed. Syrmus was duly

[4] Justin IX.3.1–3; Didymus *in Dem.* col.13, lines 1–7; cf. Hammond and Griffith 1979 (D 50) II.559, 583; Gerov 1981 (E 124).

[5] On the route see Neubert 1934 (D 217); Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 54; Gerov 1981 (E 124) 488; *contra*, Papazoglou 1977 (E 82) 29–30.

enrolled among the friends and allies of the Macedonian king and submitted a contingent to Alexander's invasion army in 334. Other peoples in the region followed his example, notably the Celtic tribes which were pressing eastwards from the Adriatic coast to the Danube valley. Even they felt it prudent to conciliate the young king.

The central Danube lands were now a Macedonian protectorate, virtually an annexe of Thrace. But the success was immediately imperilled by events in the south, as the enemies of Macedon attempted to exploit the absence of its king. The most serious danger was a joint invasion of northern Macedonia by two Illyrian tribes, the Taulantii from the north west and the people of Cleitus (probably the Dardani) from the north. That threatened to repeat the events of 359 when Cleitus' father had destroyed a Macedonian army and overrun the upper provinces. Alexander heard the news on his march south from the Danube, while he was being entertained by his ally, Langarus, king of the Agrianians. From Langarus' realm in the upper Strymon valley, he marched at speed to the Axius and continued westwards to the upper reaches of the Erigon (Crna). Somewhere in the Macedonian borderlands Cleitus had occupied a fortress. The topographical details given by Arrian are vague[6] and do not permit a precise location; but it seems to have been in the vicinity of Eordaea and its occupation imperilled the whole of north-west Macedonia. Alexander began operations by confining Cleitus' army in the captured fortress but he was forced to withdraw in the face of the Taulantian reinforcements. For a moment he was on the defensive, his army placed between the invaders and the Macedonian lowlands. Two days after his retreat he launched a meticulously planned night attack against the Illyrian camp and massacred the invaders. The survivors either made their way into the fortress or attempted to reach the western mountains under constant harassment. That marked the effective end of troubles with the Illyrian kingdoms, and the Triballian contingent of 334 was matched by one of Illyrians.

The Theban crisis (see below, p.848) curtailed the mopping-up operations. At the news of the revolt and the attack upon his garrison on the Cadmea Alexander left Cleitus to limp home with his surviving forces. He himself, his army intact, drove south over the plateaux of Upper Macedonia. He reached Pelinna in northern Thessaly within a week, and five days later arrived at Onchestus, three hours march from Thebes, before the rebels were aware of his approach. That effectively isolated the Thebans from any support from potential allies, and, once they had rejected his overtures, they were doomed. Even though slaves and metics were enlisted (Diod. XVII.11.2), the Thebans could not expect

[6] Arr. *Anab.* 1.5.5. The main crux, the location of the fortress that Arrian names 'Pellium', is discussed by Bosworth 1982 (D 157) (*contra*, Hammond 1974 (E 73); 1980 (D 190) 49–57).

to defeat Alexander's Macedonian troops outside the city. Their only hope was to defend the city and prevent the Macedonian garrison on the Cadmea joining forces with Alexander. The south side of the citadel formed part of the defensive circuit of Thebes and that sector was the major problem for the defenders. Outnumbered and desperate, the Thebans established a double palisade south of the Cadmea and prepared at all costs to prevent liaison between Alexander and the garrison. The attack that followed was ferocious and, at first, the Theban defences held. Thanks to the palisades the cavalry could not be used and the phalanx could not advance *en masse*. But ultimately the resistance was futile. It ended either when Alexander took the field in person and forced the defenders back into the city (Arrian) or when a diversionary force made a surprise irruption through an unguarded postern (Diodorus).[7] Once the walls were breached there was general carnage, as the garrison joined the action from the Cadmea and helped break the Theban last stand at the Ampheiôn, immediately north of the citadel. Six thousand defenders fell at a cost of 500 Macedonians and 30,000 survivors were enslaved. The city ceased to exist, and its destruction effectively suppressed the unrest in southern Greece (see below, p.848). It was late September. Alexander could now return home and prepare for the full-scale invasion of Asia the following spring.

II. THE CONQUEST OF THE AEGEAN COAST, 334–333 B.C.

The invasion of 334 came at a crucial moment. The time of troubles that had reached its climax in Persia when Darius III seized the throne in 336 had now passed. Darius rapidly secured his position by the tactical execution of Bagoas, the Grand Vizier who had procured him the throne, and proceeded to suppress native revolts in Egypt and (probably) Babylonia. By the end of 335 the dynasty of Khababash was terminated and Egypt again suffered occupation after some three years of independence. Darius could turn his attention further west, and by the summer of 334 an armada of 400 warships was mobilized in the Levant for action in the Aegean. In that sector the Macedonian expeditionary force, strikingly successful in 336, had been largely confined to the Troad and Hellespont during the campaign of 335. There was a gradual mobilization of Persian satraps throughout Asia Minor, and there was increasing military activity. Memnon of Rhodes, son-in-law of the great

[7] Arr. *Anab.* 1.8.1–5; Diod. XVII.11.3–12.4 (cf. Polyaen. IV.3.12). Arrian's account is explicitly based on Ptolemy and may be biased against his later rival, Perdiccas, who is represented leading an unauthorized and unsuccessful attack (Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 80–1; *contra*, Roisman 1984 (B 97) 374–6). In Diodorus (XVII.12.3) it is Perdiccas who makes the decisive manoeuvre, occupying the side postern.

Persian noble, Artabazus, operated with great effectiveness at the head of a small mercenary army, attacking Cyzicus unexpectedly and driving Parmenion himself from his siege of Pitane in the Elaitic Gulf.[8] The advent of 334 saw the crossing points secured at the Hellespont but little or no territorial gains in the interior.

Alexander began his march east in early spring. With him was an invasion army comprising 32,000 infantry and some 5,000 cavalry. If one adds the contingent in Asia with Parmenion, his forces came close to 50,000.[9] Twenty days and 500 km of marching brought them to the Hellespont, after symbolically retracing the invasion route of Xerxes via Philippi, Abdera and Maronea. The symbolism continued more explicitly at the Hellespont, where the main army was slowly transported across the narrow strait (seven stades wide) between Sestus and Abydus. Alexander and his immediate entourage diverged to Elaeus at the southern tip of the Chersonese, where he sacrificed at the shrine of Protesilaus, which had been plundered during Xerxes' invasion. That sacrifice was followed by solemn libations in mid-crossing and a sacrifice to Poseidon and the Nereids (a far cry from the scourges and fetters of Xerxes), and then with his royal squadron Alexander made a landfall at the Achaeans' Harbour near Ilium, the scene of the greatest previous panhellenic expedition into Asia. He leaped ashore like Protesilaus and, according to Diodorus, he made a spear cast into the beach, claiming Asia as spear-won territory.[10] If authentic, the story proves what is obvious, that he had territorial ambitions, but it gives no hint how comprehensive those ambitions were. At Ilium he enlisted the support and sacred armour of Athena and commemorated both sides of his ancestry, honouring both Achilles and Priam with offerings. The descendant of Neoptolemus and Andromache (thanks to the Molossian royal lineage) would lead all Hellenes against the common enemy, avenging the sacrilege of the past.

The enemy forces were waiting, conveniently assembled at Zelea, near the mouth of the Aesepus river. A council-of-war had decided on a joint strategy. Against the urging of Memnon, who wished to avoid battle and deny the Macedonians the means of supply, the Persian commanders opted for a full-scale engagement and took a defensive position above the plain of Adrastea, blocking any Macedonian advance eastwards to Cyzicus. The exact movements were secret, even though Alexander was

[8] For details of the campaign see Diodorus XVII.7.3–10; Polyaen. V.44.4–5; with Badian 1966 (D 137) 40–2; Goukowsky 1969 (D 178); Ruzicka 1985 (D 116A).

[9] On the source divergences, which are complex, see Berve 1926 (D 146) I 177–8, Brunt 1963 (D 162) 32–6; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 98–9. For full discussion of the composition of the army see Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 259–66.

[10] Diod. XVII.17.2 (cf. Justin XI.5.10). For various interpretations see Schmitthenner 1968 (A 52); Mehl 1980–1 (A 36); Hammond 1986 (F 29).

aware that the Persian forces were concentrated in a single mass. He therefore proceeded cautiously to the head of the Hellespont, branching inland south of Parium to avoid the rough coastline.[11] A contingent of scouts (*prodromoi*) surveyed the ground ahead of his advance and reported the Persian army in the plain of Adrastea, occupying the foothills (near modern Dimetoka) which rose above the river Granicus. The river was the obstacle, sunk between steep banks some 3 to 4 metres high, which precluded a concerted assault by cavalry or infantry phalanx.

The Persian position is difficult to establish with accuracy, thanks to the vague and conflicting reports of our authorities. There is agreement that the Persian cavalry, allegedly 20,000 strong and the flower of the army, was placed ahead of the modest infantry force of mercenaries, which again numbered 20,000 and could not match the Macedonian forces either in manpower or fighting calibre. Arrian, however, represents the Persian cavalry lined up along the edge of the Granicus, where it was impossible to charge. Diodorus has them deployed along the foothills, 1½ km east of the river, but his account is brief and rhetorical, stating that Alexander crossed the river at dawn without opposition, whereas Arrian speaks of the *rejection* of Parmenion's advice to wait for the dawn. Alexander, Diodorus claims, attacked immediately in the face of the Persian army.[12] Both traditions are to some degree garbled by rhetorical oversimplification or propagandist exaggeration, and the truth is largely irretrievable. It does appear likely that the Persian cavalry was positioned away from the river, so as to generate a full-blooded charge violent enough to overrun the Macedonians as they regrouped after the crossing. That was elementary tactical logic and the general picture is confirmed by two passages of Arrian (*Anab.* 1.15.3,7) where the action seems to leave the banks and the Persians do charge at speed.

Alexander's strategy, according to Arrian, was simple. A contingent of cavalry (the scouts, Paeonians and a squadron of Companions) was sent across the river to advance as far as possible and sustain the Persian counter-charge while the bulk of the army crossed. This group forged diagonally across the Granicus, making use of the gravel slopes which, then as now, facilitated access to the stream bed.[13] It was followed by Alexander and the Companion Cavalry, and the rest of the army gradually filtered across in column as the cavalry battle raged on the opposite plain. Alexander's vanguard was forced back to the river, but

[11] Arr. *Anab.* 1.12.6 (a problematical passage). For the problems involved see Foss 1977 (D 174) 496–8; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 107–9; Seibert 1985 (D 233) 30–2.

[12] Arr. *Anab.* 1.13.2–7, 14.4–5; Diod. XVII.19.2–3 (cf. Polyaen. IV.3.16). Cf. Badian 1977 (D 140) 272–4; Hammond 1980 (D 192) 73–4; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 115–16.

[13] Arr. *Anab.* 1.14.7. Compare Badian 1977 (D 140) 286–9 with Hammond 1980 (D 192) 75–6. For the gravel banks, first pointed out by Janke 1904 (D 201), see Foss 1977 (D 174) 502; Badian 1977 (D 140) 281–2.

the Companions had the opportunity to form their battle order. Despite a desperate suicide attack on his person by a son-in-law of Darius and members of the satrapal family of Sardes, Alexander escaped death (thanks to the intervention of Cleitus the Black) and was able to force the Persian cavalry inexorably away from the river. The Macedonian lances of cornel wood were dramatically effective against the light javelins of the Persians, and the opposition was decimated. Eight commanders at least fell in battle and the line broke in the centre. As a result the entire Macedonian army crossed the river and reformed, infantry as well as cavalry. By this time the Persian horse was in full flight, but the mercenary infantry stood its ground, to parley for an armistice. They were disappointed (Plut. *Alex.* 16.13; cf. Arr. *Anab.* 1.16.2). Phalanx at the front, cavalry at the flanks, they were enveloped by the Macedonians in battle fury and massacred. Only 2,000 survived, to be sent in chains to forced labour in Macedon. They were punished for their defiance of the decrees of the Corinthian League, and the punishment had the predictable effect of stiffening the resolve of their fellows in Persian service to fight to the last.

The victory was quickly won and decisive. Hellespontine Phrygia lay open to Alexander, and its satrap, Atizyes, committed suicide to expiate his part in the disaster. The other satraps withdrew their cavalry contingents to defend their provinces. Alexander duly buried his dead, with especial honour to the men of the vanguard, the architects of his victory, and dedicated 300 Persian panoplies on the Athenian Acropolis. The first fruits of revenge went to the chief victim of Xerxes and were won, so the inscription ran, by Alexander and all the Greeks except the Spartans (Arr. *Anab.* 1.16.7; Plut. *Alex.* 16.18). But there was no time for extended celebration. The Persian fleet was expected imminently in the southern Aegean and it was vital to move south to counter the threat. Alexander quickly occupied Dascyleum, the satrapal capital of Hellespontine Phrygia and annexed the territory in his own name (see below, pp.859f.). The new Macedonian satrap would maintain control of the area with his modest mercenary army while he continued the campaign on the Aegean coast. From the Propontis he followed the inland route to the Hermus valley and the central fortress of Sardis, a march of some 270 km. Despite its strength (perched on an outlier of Mt Tmolus 200m above the city proper) the citadel of Sardes was surrendered without a blow by its Persian commander, Mithrenes, so that Alexander simultaneously acquired the strongest fortress and the richest treasury in Asia Minor. He imposed his own garrison and treasury officials and declared the native Lydians free under their own laws – to be governed directly by his satrap. That was a propaganda gesture which meant nothing in practice.

Similar gestures followed at Ephesus, four days later. Alexander entered the city in the wake of the Persian evacuation and intervened to stop the worst excesses of factional conflict, as members of the Persian-backed oligarchic junta were summarily lynched. He oversaw the restoration of democracy (see below, p.869) and endowed the sanctuary of Artemis with the tribute previously paid to the Great King. These were real benefactions, conceded in the face of the advancing Persian fleet, and they were echoed in the commission given to Alcimachus (Arr. *Anab.* 1.18.1–2) to establish democracy, restore autonomy and remit tribute in the northern areas of Ionia and Aeolis where there were still Persian garrisons. How successful Alcimachus was there is no way of guessing, but any short-term gains he made must have been lost later in the year, when the Persians were dominant in the area.

The two fleets at last made contact at Miletus. There Alexander arrived a matter of days before the Persians, and his fleet was able to establish a firm base on the island of Lade, denying access to the Persian fleet. Despite their numbers and the quality of the crews (from Cyprus and Phoenicia) the Persian commanders could not impinge on the action. Their base was 15 km from the city, on the foothills of Mt Mycale, and they could only follow the siege as observers, keeping their triremes at sea in a threatening but futile demonstration (Arr. *Anab.* 1.19.2). Meanwhile Alexander had blockaded Miletus, rejected an offer by the ruling oligarchy to open the city to both sides and began siege operations on the narrow isthmus connecting city and mainland. The combination of missile catapults and rams quickly stripped the walls of defenders and opened a breach. That brought immediate capitulation by the civilian population, which was spared the enslavement and destruction visited upon them after the Ionian Revolt. The predominantly Persian garrison bore the brunt of the capture, massacred to a man except for 300 who took refuge on an offshore islet. Now the humiliation of the Persian fleet was compounded, when a cavalry and infantry force under Philotas prevented the crews drawing water at the mouth of the Maeander and it was forced to revictual in Samos (Arr. *Anab.* 1.19.7–8).

As a result Alexander disbanded his own fleet, except for a small transport squadron.[14] It was obviously no match for the Persian fleet in open waters, and he considered that he could continue to frustrate the enemy naval operations by the tactical use of land forces. That was one of his few military blunders. It proved impossible to prevent the Persians landing, except in the immediate area controlled by his army; and in the spring of 333 he tacitly admitted his mistake by commissioning a new fleet. The error was soon apparent in the actions at Halicarnassus. There,

[14] Arr. *Anab.* 1.20.1; Diod. XVII.22.5–23.3. Cf. Hauben 1976 (D 194) 80–1; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 141–3.

in the natural theatre with its formidable Hecatomnid fortifications,[15] Memnon organized the land defence, concentrating all the local city garrisons. He was supported by sea from the island of Cos, and had no worries about provisioning. Alexander therefore had to take the city by storm. It was a vast and expensive exercise. The main attack focused on the north-east salient of the walls, around the Mylasa gate, and every contemporary refinement of siege technique was employed. The defenders countered a threatened breach with a secondary lunette of brick, bulging inward to entrap the attackers in a killing ground as they pressed through the outer wall. There were also a number of sorties by the Persian commanders which were technically unsuccessful but slowed the siege operations and inflicted heavy casualties.[16] Ultimately the defence was untenable. After the failure of the last great sortie and the death of the Athenian mercenary commander, Ephialtes, the Persian command set fire to the arsenals and their defensive outworks and left Halicarnassus to conflagration. The defending forces contracted to the two inner citadels, Salmacis at the western extremity of the walls and the island fortress of Zephyrium. Alexander could and did occupy Halicarnassus but the strategic situation was unchanged. The Persian forces remained in their citadels, held in check by a small garrison of 3,000 foot and 200 horse, but Memnon and his fellow commanders could deploy their fleet and attack the coast and islands almost at will.

The siege at Halicarnassus ended the campaigning season of 334. During the following winter Alexander's forces were dispersed. A group of Macedonians who had married immediately before the campaign was sent home for recreation and procreation, and their leaders, senior phalanx officers, were instructed to levy troops to compensate for the losses of the summer. The rest of the army left the Aegean coast; Parmenion went via the Hermus valley to campaign in Phrygia with the allied troops, while Alexander and the bulk of the army pushed through the interior of Lycia. Arrian (*Anab.* 1.24.3) suggests that his intention was to neutralize the area against the Persian fleet, but his operations in Lycia did not touch the sea. He moved inland from Xanthus through the mountain district of Milyas, only descending to the coast at Phaselis. No garrisons were apparently installed and the Persians operated with impunity on the Lycian coast. Alexander had other reasons for his actions. He had now certainly decided to challenge the Great King for his empire and he was annexing as much of his territory as he could before pressing east in the spring. At the same time the war-

[15] Cf. Bean and Cook 1955 (F 575) 89–91; Hornblower 1982 (F 644) 295–302.

[16] Diod. XVII.25.5–6, 26.3–27.4. Arrian's account minimizes the Macedonian setbacks and makes light of the difficulties (*Anab.* 1.20.9–10, 21.1–3, 22.1–6; cf. Bosworth 1976 (B 12) 21–2).

torn Aegean coast was spared the burden of sustaining his forces for the winter.

The two army groups moved separately to the liaison point at Gordium. There was some communication, dramatically illustrated by Arrian's story of the capture of an emissary of the Great King. Sisines, commissioned to collaborate with Atizyes, Darius' satrap of Phrygia, was arrested by Parmenion's forces and sent under escort for interrogation by Alexander. Later it was alleged that he gave incriminating evidence against Alexander's namesake, the Lyncestian prince who conspired against Philip and now commanded the elite Thessalian cavalry with Parmenion. The facts of the matter are uncertain, bedevilled as so often by source conflict,[17] but the Lyncestian was deposed from his command in 333 and kept under close arrest. If information was given, it was not damning. More importantly Alexander and Parmenion were in contact during the winter and co-ordinated their actions. The king led his staff along the narrow shoreline from Phaselis to Pamphylia while the main force traversed a specially constructed road through the mountainous interior. Here there was no military challenge. The rich Pamphylian plain sustained the army for a brief period while Alexander made a brief tour, coercing the city of Aspendus into submission and leaving the garrison at Sillyum (which offered resistance) to be reduced by his friend Nearchus, the new satrap of Lycia and Pamphylia.

Towards the beginning of spring 333 Alexander moved north from Perge. He traversed the mountain area of Pisidia at speed. An attack on Termessus was abortive; he lacked the time and the siege train to capture its formidable citadel. Sagalassus to the north fell to direct assault, as did other lesser fortresses, but Alexander's transit of the area had little lasting effect. He passed equally rapidly through Phrygia, touching on the salt expanse of Burdur Gölü before pausing briefly at the satrapal capital of Celaenae (Dinar). Once again Alexander backed away from a full-scale siege of the citadel and agreed to a conditional capitulation by its Carian and Greek garrison. Antigonus was consequently left with a force of 1,500 mercenaries to receive the promised surrender and govern Phrygia as satrap, a post he held with distinction until Alexander's death. A month later Alexander reached Gordium, and according to schedule he joined forces with Parmenion and the newly married men with their large complement of reinforcements from Macedonia (3,000 infantry and 500 cavalry).

At Gordium Alexander was at last forced to take steps to counter the

[17] Arr. *Anab.* 1.25.2–9 locates the arrest in Phrygia; Diod. XVII.32.1 places it on the eve of Issus. The tradition may be muddied by the allegations made against the Lyncestian when he was eventually brought to trial in late 330.

Persian offensive in the Aegean. The Persian naval supremacy had been crushing. Chios fell without a blow to Memnon, as did most of the cities of Lesbos. Mytilene held out, thanks to a garrison installed by Alexander, and it was blockaded by land and sea. It was captured in the summer of 333 after Memnon himself had died of illness, and his nephew and successor, Pharnabazus, pressed the offensive towards the Hellespont, occupying the island of Tenedos, which surrendered with considerable reluctance. The Aegean was practically in Persian hands. Miletus had been lost to Alexander by late 333 and the Persians were able to sail at will in the Cyclades. One small squadron under Datames was surprised off Siphnos and lost eight triremes (Arr. *Anab.* II.2.4–5), but that is the only recorded setback and the only Macedonian initiative. But, even before Memnon's death, Darius had apparently decided to withdraw military forces from the Aegean. Thymondas, another nephew of Memnon, was commissioned to escort mercenaries from the west. He duly went to Lycia, where he took over command of the forces requested. That was shortly after the fall of Mytilene. Two hundred ships may have been taken from the Aegean fleet, an action that irretrievably weakened the Aegean offensive from the late summer of 333.

Alexander did not know the future at Gordium, and he commissioned a new fleet with separate commanders for the Hellespont and Ionian coast.[18] Despite the considerable money expended it was many months before an effective fleet was amassed, and, if Darius had not reduced his forces, there would have been complete Persian dominance in the Aegean, perhaps even (as was rumoured) an attack on Macedon itself. Alexander had good reason to be concerned, and it was at this critical time that he visited the palace at Gordium and inspected the purported waggon of Gordius. That venerable relic boasted a complex yoke fastening of cornel bark, and, according to local legend, the person who unfastened it would become lord of Asia. Propaganda demanded the prophecy be fulfilled, and fulfilled it was, by somewhat dubious means. The more popular version was that Alexander cut through the fastening; Aristobulus claimed that he removed the yoke pin and pulled the yoke from its pole, fastening and all.[19] Whatever the truth of the matter, the unyoked waggon was put on display and a timely thunderstorm confirmed Zeus' approval. The auspices for the next campaign were demonstrably favourable.

[18] Curt. III.1.19–20; cf. Hauben 1976 (D 194) 82–7.

[19] Arr. *Anab.* II.3.6–7 (*FGrH* 139 F 7); Curt. III.8.16; Justin XI.7.4; Plut. *Alex.* 18.2; Marsyas *FGrH* 135–6 F 4. Cf. Fredricksmeyer 1961 (D 176); Kraft 1971 (D 207), 84–92; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 184–8.

III. FROM CILICIA TO EGYPT, 333 AND 332 B.C.

Towards the end of May 333 B.C., Alexander led his united army out of Gordium. He drove quickly across Anatolia via Ancyra and (probably) Tyana. There was no fighting. Paphlagonia was peacefully absorbed into the satrapy of Hellespontine Phrygia and a native dynast was placed over southern Cappadocia (the north was left to its own devices). By the end of summer the Macedonian army had forced the Cilician Gates (south of Pozanti), easily overrunning a weak Persian defence, and occupied the satrapal capital of Tarsus, so forestalling a Persian attempt to devastate the countryside. Cilicia was occupied intact and placed under Macedonian control as far as the coastal defiles of the south. It was to be the base for Alexander's defence against the Grand Army that Darius had mustered in Babylon.

Darius had gathered a formidable army, which included the greatest number of Greek mercenaries ever assembled in Persian service (30,000 according to the ancient sources). He also mobilized the entire levy of Persis and Media. Pressure of time prevented his use of the crack cavalry from Bactria and the north-east frontier, but even without it his superiority in cavalry was overwhelming and contemporaries expected Alexander to disappear under the Persian hooves (Aeschin. III.164). His strategy, which had been bitterly contested,[20] was to force a full-scale decisive battle, and by the early summer he had begun his march north. Hampered by a baggage train replete with treasure and the court harem, he progressed slowly to Thapsacus on the Euphrates. After the crossing he moved to a base camp at Sochi in the Amik plain while his baggage train diverged southwards to Damascus.

It was now September. Alexander had fallen ill in Cilicia after an imprudent swim in the proverbially chilly waters of the river Cydnus. He was in high fever for a considerable time and his life was in question. Intrigue was probably rife at court, but its only echo in the sources is Arrian's brief report of the flight of the treasurer, Harpalus.[21] That is a mysterious episode, but it was clearly not a serious threat to Alexander, for Harpalus was reinstated in the spring of 331 after a year's exile in the Megarid. Whatever the background to his desertion, it is clear that he had little faith in Alexander's recovery. But Alexander did recuperate, after his court physician administered a drastic purge, and he used his

[20] Curt. III.2.10–19; Diod. XVII.30 (Charidemus' argument for a division of forces); Arr. *Anab.* II.6.3–6; Plut. *Alex.* 20.1–4 (Amyntas' advice not to leave the base at Sochi).

[21] Arr. *Anab.* III.6.7. The report is too brief to permit any detailed explanation of Harpalus' actions. See, however, Badian 1960 (D 133); Heckel 1977 (D 196); Jaschinski 1981 (D 203) 10–18: Kingsley 1986 (D 206).

convalescence to consolidate his base in Cilicia. A seven-day campaign west of Soli guaranteed that there would be no raids from the tribesmen of the Taurus. Soli itself was garrisoned and fined 200 talents for alleged Persian sympathies, whereas Mallus, closer to the Persian advance, had its tribute remitted in recognition of its Argive origins (which Soli also claimed).[22] At Mallus Alexander received the news that Darius had encamped at Sochi, and he moved rapidly first to Castabulum and then to Issus, where he left his sick and wounded. A waiting game developed,[23] as each king took position in the terrain that best suited his forces, Darius in the open Amik plain and Alexander in the coastal defiles south of Issus. Eventually he took a position south of the Pillar of Jonah, blocking the Royal Road through the Belen Pass to Cilicia.

Ultimately it was Darius who changed his ground. He led his army on a flanking march of some 150 km through the northern Bahçe Pass and the narrows of Toprakkale. This route was undefended and the move took Alexander by surprise. It severed his communications with Cilicia and forced him to give battle, but on the other hand the Persian army had been drawn into his preferred terrain, confined in the narrow plain between the sea and the Amanus range. Darius, the sources claim, believed that Alexander would not dare to face his army in the Amik plain, and, given the time that must have elapsed between his arrival at Sochi and the battle proper, he may have been justified in his belief. At all events he could not feed his vast army indefinitely in the Amik plain, rich though it was, and the logistical pressure weighed more heavily on him than on Alexander. The Persian army had forged south of Issus and took up position north of the river Pinarus (perhaps in the vicinity of the present day Kuru Çay).[24] There the plain is relatively narrow, some 4 km wide, a distance compatible with the 14 stades given by Callisthenes (Polyb. XII.17.4).

As at the Granicus, the Persian position was defensive, along the line of the Pinarus. Cavalry were massed to the right; mercenary infantry held the centre, while the Persian national infantry continued the line into the foothills of the Amanus. The rest of the native levies were massed in depth to the rear of the line. Meanwhile Alexander began his approach at dawn, filtering his army through the narrows below the Pillar of Jonah

[22] Arr. *Anab.* II.5.5, 9; Curt. III.7.2; cf. Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 195. For the Argive origins of the Cilician cities see Stroud 1984 (B 178) 201–3; Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 254–5.

[23] Curt. III.7.8–10. Arrian (*Anab.* II.6.1–2) states that Alexander was eager to come to grips with Darius but was frustrated by the elements. The common view that he went some 120 km, from Mallus in Cilicia to Myriandrus, south of the Pillar of Jonah, in two days rests on an over-literal reading of Arr. *Anab.* II.6.2 (see Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 177; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 199–200). For the various interpretations of strategy see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 99ff; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 199–201; Engels 1978 (D 172) 42–53; Hammond 1980 (D 190) 94–110.

[24] For the location, still highly controversial, see Janke 1904 (D 201) 2–74; Seibert 1972 (D 232) 99–100, Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 471–6.

and gradually widening the phalanx as the plain broadened. There was a distance of 40 stades to be covered in extended line, and progress was necessarily slow as the army crossed the numerous deep stream beds that intersected the plain. The phalanx, now eight deep, held the centre of the line with cavalry on either side, Thessalians and allies to the left and Macedonians to the right. A formation of light infantry and mercenaries was thrown back obliquely to counter the Persian troops massed in the foothills. Alexander himself was at the head of the Macedonian cavalry, immediately to the right of the phalanx.

Early in the afternoon Alexander launched the attack. He himself was at the apex of his cavalry and charged across the Pinarus as soon as he came within missile range. His opponents were the Persian native infantry, the Cardaces, who may have been armed with specially lengthened scimitars (Curt. III.3.6) as well as their lances and bows, but they had no effect against the onslaught of the Companions. How exactly Alexander broke the line we are not told, and there is no word about the difficulties which a river crossing at speed must have caused. We have only the bare fact that the battle was effectively won by Alexander and the Companions. Elsewhere the situation was dangerous. The right wing of the Macedonian phalanx was exposed as Alexander broke away to charge and, as its alignment was disrupted by the river crossing, it came close to dismemberment by the mercenary hoplites in Darius' service. On the left the sheer weight of the massed Persian cavalry forced the Thessalians into retreat. As his line wavered, Alexander pressed his attack towards Darius, who was highly visible in an elevated war chariot towards the centre of his line. The Persian guard fell in defence of their king, who escaped capture by flight.[25] That was the decisive moment. The whole of the Persian left followed Darius in retreat and Alexander could continue leftwards into the flank of the mercenary phalanx. The phalanx, caught between the Macedonian cavalry and the infantry *sarissae*, folded from the right, and the retreat became general, as the victorious Persian cavalry gave up the engagement on the left. As the retreating cavalry trampled down the infantry in their path the retreat became a shambles, and spectacular numbers of Persian troops were crushed in the press. The propaganda figures in our sources list some 100,000 Persian casualties to 500 Macedonian.

The disastrous retreat, which the Macedonians harassed until nightfall, prevented the Persian army regrouping. Darius withdrew across the Euphrates with all the stragglers he could muster. The rest of the army

[25] Arr. *Anab.* II.11.4, suggesting that Darius led the rout. Diod. XVII.34.2–7, Curt. III.11.7–12, and Justin XI.9.9, perhaps more plausibly, suggest that he resisted spiritedly. The latter tradition seems to have inspired the battle scene on the Alexander Mosaic (cf. Rumpf 1962 (J 39); Seibert 1972 (D 232) 55–8).

dispersed. One substantial contingent forced the Cilician Gates and caused havoc in Cappadocia and Paphlagonia (Curt. IV.1.34); it took a year of campaigning and three battles before Antigonus contained the threat.[26] A large group of refugee Greeks, 8,000 strong, took ship from Tripolis to Cyprus, where they divided forces, one group making an abortive attack on Egypt, while another joined the Spartan operations in Crete (see below, p.853). At the news of Issus the Persian offensive in the Aegean foundered. The spring of 332 saw the disintegration of their fleet, as the city contingents from Phoenicia and Cyprus withdrew to make their peace with Alexander, and the newly constituted Macedonian fleet under Hegelochus and Amphoterus quickly occupied the Aegean coast and the islands from Tenedos to Cos. The remains of the Persian fleet took refuge in Crete, which became the only focus of resistance in the west.

Alexander was left the undisputed master of the Syrian coast, and also master of the Persian treasure at Issus and Damascus. In the process of acquiring the baggage train the princesses of the royal household were captured. Stateira and Sisygambis, Darius' wife and mother, fell into Alexander's hands after the battle, and the conqueror treated them with extreme deference, retaining their royal appurtenances but refusing ransom. He assumed the duties of Darius and claimed to be the proper king of Asia. Those claims were explicitly voiced in the aftermath of the battle when he categorically refused Darius' diplomatic overtures. In response to a letter requesting peace, alliance and the restoration of the royal ladies he bluntly demanded total surrender; Darius was an usurper and the aggressor in the war, whereas he was now the legitimate ruler of Asia.[27] This exchange, in which Alexander addressed himself as master to subject, ended Darius' efforts at diplomacy, and he began mustering his forces for the defence of Mesopotamia.

The winter of 333/2 was spent in Phoenicia. Alexander received the surrender of Aradus, Byblus and Sidon, changing the regime at Sidon but confirming the ruling houses elsewhere. At Tyre he met his first opposition, where the city authorities (headed by the crown prince in the absence of King Azemilk) refused to admit Alexander into their island citadel to sacrifice to the local deity Melqart (whom he identified with his Argead ancestor, Heracles). His proposed visit coincided with the main festival of Melqart, in February 332,[28] and the Tyrians refused to

[26] Curt. IV.1.34–5, 5.13. Cf. Burn 1952 (D 164) 82–4; Briant 1973 (D 22) 53–80.

[27] Arr. *Anab.* II.14; Curt. IV.1.7–14; Diod. XVII.39.1–2. On the problems of the sources see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 227–30; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 271–7 and, on specific details, Griffith 1968 (D 184); Mikrogiannakis 1969 (D 214).

[28] Curt. IV.2.10; cf. Menander of Ephesus *FGrH* 783 F 1. For the siege in general see Arr. *Anab.* II.18.3–24.6; Curt. IV.2.8–4.18. Diod. XVII.40.4–46.6 (cf. Bosworth 1976 (B 12) 16–25; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 315–19).

delegate the ceremonial to an alien sovereign. It was a fateful decision. Alexander would brook no challenge to his claims of kingship, and, once the siege was committed, he could not raise it without his military credibility suffering. At first the story of the siege of Halicarnassus was repeated. Alexander constructed a siege mole between Old Tyre on the mainland and the island city 4 stades out to sea, concentrating his attack on a narrow sector of the walls, which the Tyrians had ample time to make impregnable. At the same time Tyre was supplied by sea and the defenders could launch shipborne attacks on the advancing causeway. The turning-point came in early summer, when eighty Phoenician ships returned from the Aegean. They joined the siege operations along with 120 other ships from Cyprus, whose city kings offered formal submission. From that moment the blockade of Tyre was complete, and, once the siege-engines had been constructed (the famous ship-borne towers with scaling bridges),[29] the final massed attacks were launched. In July the city was subjected to constant battering from rams mounted on warships. The walls were breached to the south, but the first use of the scaling bridges was unsuccessful. Two days later the breach was extended, and the hypaspists were able to cross the scaling bridges and control the adjacent walls. The battlements were occupied from the sea, and the attackers stormed down into the palace and the lower city. In the carnage that followed 8,000 defenders perished and a further 2,000 were allegedly crucified along the coast. Tyre was cleared of its former population and resettled from the hinterland under a resident garrison and a Macedonian commander.

After the siege Alexander duly sacrificed to Melqart/Heracles and celebrated with a grand procession and an athletic festival (Moretti, *ISE* no.113). The interior of Syria had already been pacified by Parmenion, and he was able to march south without incident. The only recorded resistance was at Gaza, where the city commander, Batis, had hired mercenaries and laid in provisions. Another siege ensued, this time of two months' duration, and it took the entire siege train, transported from Tyre by ship, to breach the walls. Bombardment and mining were finally effective. Alexander and his hypaspists again led the assault on the broken battlements, and the fighting population of Gaza was massacred. Like Tyre, the city was repopulated and reconstituted as a citadel on the Egyptian border. As the year ended, a recruiting expedition, led by the phalanx commander Amyntas, was sent to Macedon.[30] The losses incurred by a year's siege warfare needed to be redressed, and Amyntas' ten triremes were committed to the winter seas on a mission of urgency.

[29] Marsden 1969–71 (K 45) I 62–3, 102–3; 1977 (K 46).

[30] Diod. XVII.49.1; Curt. IV.6.30–1, VII.1.37–40. Cf. Bosworth 1986 (D 21) 6–7; 1988 (D 159) 267–8.

IV. EGYPT TO PARTHYAEA, 331–330 B.C.: THE END OF DARIUS

Egypt lay open to the conqueror. Darius' satrap, Mazaces, had certainly been in communication with Alexander, and the great fortress complex of Pelusium (at the eastern extremity of the Delta) offered no resistance, admitting the Macedonian fleet before the land forces had crossed the coastal desert. Welcomed by the Egyptian populace as liberators, the Macedonian forces moved by land and water to Memphis, where Mazaces surrendered the city and its treasury intact. Alexander duly sacrificed and held athletic and musical games, paying special honour to Apis in conscious contrast with Cambyses and Artaxerxes III, both of whom were reputed to have killed the current Apis bull, the god's earthly manifestation. The king himself assumed the conventional pharaonic titles: king of Upper and Lower Egypt, son of Ra, beloved of Amun. There may even have been an official investiture in Egyptian style.[31] But Alexander's stay in the capital was brief, and there is no evidence that he was influenced by Egyptian beliefs or institutions.

The greater part of Alexander's stay in Egypt was devoted to his visit to the sanctuary of Ammon, in the oasis of Siwah. For Alexander this deity was a local manifestation of Zeus (Callisthenes in fact termed him Zeus) and, disposed as he now was to view himself as the son of Zeus, he had long intended to visit the sanctuary. It was an oracular cult familiar in the Greek world since the fifth century B.C., and its most famous offshoot, the temple of Zeus Ammon at Aphytis in Chalcidice, was presumably well known to him. There was also a tradition that his Argead ancestors, Heracles and Perseus, had both consulted the god.[32] That reinforced his determination to make a personal visit. Accordingly he sailed down the Nile to its Canopic mouth, taking a select force of infantry and cavalry. After a tour of Lake Mareotis and inspecting the narrow isthmus to the north that was to be the heart of his first great city foundation, he struck westwards along the coast, to Paraetonium (Mersah Matruh).

Alexander paused briefly to receive a delegation from Cyrene, with which he concluded a treaty of friendship and alliance. Then he plunged south west into the desert, following the 260 km route to Siwah across the Libyan plateau. Callisthenes and later historians traced the providential hand of Zeus in the journey: the discomfort of the southern sirocco was eased by a winter rainstorm and a pair of desert crows guided the party to Siwah. The phenomena, common enough in the desert, were

[31] [Call.] 1.34.2 (very questionable context); see Koenen 1977 (F 464) 30–1.

[32] Callisthenes, *FGrH* 124 F 14a; Arr. *Anab.* III.3.1–2; Curt. IV.7.8. For literature see in general Seibert 1972 (D 232) 116–25. Note particularly Wilcken 1970 (A 64) I 260ff; Tarn 1948 (D 239) II 353–9; Bosworth 1977 (D 154) 69–75.

elaborated to display the concern of the god for his self-proclaimed son. Once safely at Siwah, Alexander consulted the oracle in the central sanctuary at Aghurmi. As pharaoh he received privileged treatment, questioning the oracle within the sanctum while his staff remained outside. The whole procedure remained secret. Later tradition concocted a series of questions concerning world empire and divine paternity, but Ptolemy and Aristobulus merely stated that the king was satisfied with the (unspecified) answers he received (Arr. *Anab.* III.4.5). All that can be said with reasonable certainty is that the officiating priest addressed Alexander directly as the son of the god (see below, p.872). Whatever was meant by the title, the king accepted it as direct testimony that he was the actual son of Zeus Ammon, and to the end of his reign his words and actions reflected his belief in a divine paternity.

From Siwah Alexander returned to Egypt, probably (as Aristobulus alleged) retracing his steps via Paraetonium.[33] On his way back to Memphis he laid out the site of Alexandria, and the date of the city's foundation was later celebrated on 7 April (25 Tybi).[34] Soon afterwards he revisited the capital and sacrificed in grand style to Zeus the King, whose son he claimed to be. That formally concluded the stay in Egypt. His army, refreshed by a winter's rest in the Nile valley, was ready for the decisive campaign against Darius. Some time in April Alexander led his army from Egypt. After a brief punitive campaign in Samaria (see below, p.861) he installed himself at Tyre, where he held a second festival for Melqart, eclipsing in splendour the Panhellenic games of Greece. He also took measures to contain the increasingly threatening situation in the west. His admiral, Amphoterus, fresh from his successes in the Aegean, was sent with a fleet of more than a hundred ships to contain the troubles in Crete and bolster Macedonian allies in the Peloponnese. At the same time Athenian sensibilities were conciliated by the release of the prisoners-of-war captured at the Granicus. Alexander had no intention of sending troops home or even of suspending Amyntas' recruiting mission in Macedonia. His encounter with Darius was of paramount importance, and the concerns of the west were secondary.

Alexander remained proof against overtures from Persia. During the siege of Tyre Darius had renewed his offer of ransom and ceded the old territories of Lydia west of the Halys river. More seriously, in the summer of 331, he renounced all lands as far as the Euphrates, together with an offer of 30,000 talents' ransom for his family.[35] There must have

[33] Arr. *Anab.* III.4.5; cf. Borza 1967 (D 150); Bosworth 1976 (B 13) 136–8.

[34] [Call.] 1.32.10. Cf. Welles 1962 (F 547) 284; Bagnall 1979 (F 405); Badian 1985 (D 142) 500–1; *contra*, Fraser 1972 (A 21) II. 2–3.

[35] Plut. *Alex.* 29.7–8; Diod. XVII.54.1–5; Curt. IV.11.1–22; Justin XI.12.9–15. See also Arr. *Anab.* II.25 (dated to 332 B.C.). For discussion see Mikrogiannakis 1969 (D 214) 87–106; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 228–9; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 320–4, 395–6.

been strong pressure on Alexander to conclude at least a temporary peace and enjoy the fruits of victory. Parmenion apparently argued that Darius' terms be accepted, and he was crushingly answered that the king would do so, were he Parmenion. The tradition of the debate, which probably derived from Callisthenes, is strongly biased against Parmenion, but there is little doubt that he was spokesman for a significant part of the army (cf. Diod. XVII.54.3–4). Alexander's uncompromising rejection of the Persian overtures was by no means universally popular.

The Persian army had long been mustering at Babylon. Its numbers were vast, but hardly the wildly inflated totals which appear in the extant sources.[36] Alexander was certainly outnumbered, perhaps greatly outnumbered, but the forces he faced were of variable quality. Only a small contingent of Hellenic infantry remained from the great phalanx that fought at Issus, and the native infantry at Darius' disposal was largely ineffectual. His strength was in cavalry, particularly the great contingent from Bactria and Sogdiana, augmented by Saca cataphracts (mailed cavalry) from the steppes and auxiliaries from India. Led by their satrap Bessus, a relative of the Great King, they formed a coherent body comparable in calibre to Alexander's Companions. These forces needed flat open terrain to be effective, and Darius thought it best to prepare his defence away from Babylon, which had taken the burden of the muster. Accordingly he sent out a reconnoitring party under Mazaeus, his former satrap of Syria, and moved north to occupy a position in old Assyria. This was north of Arbela, between the river Bumelus (Gomil) and an advance outlier of the Zagros, the Jabal Maqlub.[37] There Darius prepared the ground for attacks by cavalry and scythed chariots, which he hoped would dislocate the Macedonian battle line.

In midsummer 331 Alexander marched west from Tyre to the Euphrates. As he crossed at Thapsacus over two pontoon bridges, the Persian scouts under Mazaeus withdrew to the main Persian army with news of his advance. That was in an unexpected direction, some 440 km across the plains of northern Mesopotamia.[38] In all probability he went via Harran and Nisibis to the Tigris, which he crossed slightly north of modern Mosul. Contrary to information pressed from captured Persian scouts, the river was not defended. The Macedonian army forded the river, which was at low water but still maintained a strong current. Two days of rest supervened, and on the evening before Alexander resumed his march (at 9 p.m. on 20 September) there was a lunar eclipse, a portent of disaster for Darius. Four days later he was encamped some 30 km from

[36] For discussion see Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) I.511; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 293. There is a highly speculative reconstruction by Marsden 1964 (D 212) 32–7.

[37] Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 270, correcting Stein 1942 (D 237).

[38] Strabo II.1.38. Cf. Marsden 1964 (D 212) 18–21; Engels 1978 (D 172) 68–70.

the Persian lines, having ascertained from stragglers the exact position of the enemy. After another rest period he established his main camp below the summit of the Jabal Maqlub and observed the Persian dispositions at leisure from the height of the massif.[39] Those dispositions according to Aristobulus (*FGrH* 139 F 17) were committed to writing by Darius and were captured after the battle. In the centre was Darius with his royal guard and the vestigial Greek phalanx. To his right were predominantly cavalry forces from Syria, Mesopotamia and the highlands of Media and the Elburz, and to his left, where Alexander was expected to attack, came the horsemen of the north-east satrapies under the command of Bessus. On both wings and in the centre there were scythed chariots, poised to create gaps in the Macedonian lines.

Alexander devoted a day to reconnaissance and tactical planning. Then at dawn on 1 October he marshalled his forces on the plain. His formation was roughly rectangular and occupied a narrow front.[40] The front-line troops were as usual the men of the Macedonian phalanx with the Companion Cavalry to the right and the Thessalian and allied cavalry to the left. A second parallel line consisted of mercenaries and Hellenic infantry from cities of the Corinthian League. On each flank the gap between the two lines was closed by light infantry contingents, Agrianians to the right and Thracians to the left; and on both sides there was a screen of cavalry. The inevitable result was that the Macedonian army was vastly outflanked, but it was prepared for attack from any angle.

The Persian line was static, and Alexander began the encounter by advancing – diagonally to the right. At the earliest stage he faced Darius in the centre of the Persian line but, as he moved rightwards, his entire army assumed an oblique alignment and the Companion Cavalry moved beyond the prepared ground, the only terrain on which the scythed chariots could operate. At the same time the Macedonian left was practically enveloped by the enemy forces. Alexander needed to break the Persian line in his sector of the field while his left sustained the storm as best it could. The climactic time of the battle came quickly. The Bactrian and Saca cavalry wheeled forward to prevent Alexander's line advancing further, and a heated engagement developed between the Macedonian cavalry guard and Bessus' heavy cavalry. The action threw more and more of the Bactrian cavalry to the Macedonian flank, where the mercenary cavalry and Paeonians came under increasingly heavy pressure. At the same time the massed charge of scythed chariots was

[39] There are problems in Arrian (*Anab.* III.9.1–2), barely elucidated in Curtius. For discussion of the various *cruces* see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 294; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 486–7; Wirth 1980–1 (D 248) part 2, 23–31.

[40] Arr. *Anab.* III.12.1–5; Curt. IV.13.30–2. Cf. Griffith 1947 (D 182) 77–9; Devine 1975 (D 166) 374–8.

ineffectual. Alexander himself was already outside their killing ground, and the charge itself was easily neutralized by a group of Agrianians and javelin men which immobilized the majority of the chariots before they reached the Macedonian line. The rest passed harmlessly through. Alexander was left unscathed at the head of the royal squadron, perfectly poised to exploit the gap in the Persian line which had been created by the leftward motion of the Bactrian cavalry. He led the crucial charge at the apex of the Companions, now massed in a great wedge.[41] The Persian line collapsed at the point of impact and, caught between the Macedonian cavalry pressing into the flank and the *sarissae* of the phalanx advancing frontally, the defence gradually disintegrated. As the Persian centre came under threat, Darius again took flight and once again a general rout developed.

But there were difficulties on the Macedonian side. As Alexander pressed on the pursuit of the Persian centre, determined to capture his rival, it was impossible for his entire front to advance as a whole. The left wing under Parmenion had been under sustained attack since the opening of the battle and could hardly hold its ground, let alone advance. Inevitably the Macedonian line broke in its turn, the majority of the phalanx forging on with Alexander while the two leftmost battalions maintained their linkage with the left. Fortunately the Persian centre was already in chaos. A few units of Persian and Indian cavalry penetrated the gap and had to be neutralized by the reserve phalanx to the rear,[42] but the majority of the Persian forces followed Darius in retreat. The Macedonian left remained enveloped, threatened by the Persian cavalry under Mazaeus, and Parmenion (it is unanimously stated)[43] sent an abortive message requesting help from his king. Most probably the courier never reached Alexander, who pursued the fugitive Persians until the onset of evening, while the news of the Persian discomfiture gradually filtered to his beleaguered left. The Thessalians then counter-attacked and Mazaeus' cavalry withdrew from the field. When Alexander at last returned from his pursuit, cutting his way through a large contingent of Parthyaeans and Persians in retreat from Darius' centre (Arr. *Anab.* III.15.1–2), he found his forces in control of the battlefield.

The victory at Gaugamela was decisive. Alexander probably inflicted fewer casualties and sustained more than he had at Issus. The cavalry screen at the right had been badly mauled, and the left, under pressure for the entire battle, must have suffered considerably. But Darius left the

[41] Arr. *Anab.* III.14.1–2; Curt. IV.15.20–1. Cf. Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 237; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 307; Devine 1983 (K 11) 214–16.

[42] Arr. *Anab.* III.14.4–6. On the problems see Griffith 1947 (D 182) 84–5; Burn 1952 (D 164) 88–90; Wirth 1980–1 (D 248) 41–8; Welwei (D 243) 1979, 225–8; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 308–9.

[43] Plut. *Alex.* 33.9–10; Arr. *Anab.* III.15.1–2; Curt. IV.16.1–7; Diod. XVII.60.7. On the problems and the relevant literature see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 309–11.

arena of hostilities, fleeing to Arbela at breakneck pace and immediately crossing the Zagros into Media. With him was his royal guard, the surviving Greek mercenaries and the Bactrian cavalry under Bessus, which had left the field intact when the Persian centre disintegrated. The rest of the survivors dispersed, the largest group falling back to Babylon with Mazaeus. That drew Alexander's attention southwards. Renouncing for the moment the pursuit of Darius, he moved to annex the rich satrapy of Babylonia and enter the first of the great Achaemenid capitals to fall in his path.

As in Egypt, Alexander was welcomed as a liberator. The Persian garrison at Babylon could not withstand an attack from outside the city walls. As Alexander approached he received the official surrender which was offered by Mazaeus himself. The husband of a Babylonian lady and a Persian noble in his own right, he was a most appropriate person to welcome the conqueror; he was seconded by the Persian garrison commander and by representatives of the Babylonian priesthood. The king entered his capital on a carpet of flowers, to take possession of the palace and treasury. He sacrificed to Bel-Marduk, the city god and, like his Achaemenid predecessors, was invested as king of Babylon. As a gesture to the native populace he promised to restore the dilapidated temple complex of Esagila. That project was to await his return from the west (see below, p.843). For the moment the beneficiaries of conquest were his own troops, who received cash gratuities and enjoyed a month's recreation in Babylon.

The next capital, Susa, was acquired with equally little effort. The Persian satrap, Abulites, opened his gates and treasury to an emissary of Alexander, and in November he marched to take possession. It was a leisurely journey of twenty days through the well-provisioned province of Sittacene, where his army was swelled by the great convoy of reinforcements, more than 15,000 strong, which Amyntas had finally brought from Macedonia. At the river Choaspes (Karkheh), 3 km west of Susa, Alexander was received by Abulites in person and introduced to the capital and its treasury, which contained accumulated reserves of 40,000 talents of gold and silver bullion and 9,000 talents in gold darics. With this vast sum in hand he was able to transfer 3,000 silver talents to the Syrian coast to be used (in part) as a subsidy for the war against Agis which was now at its height.[44] Persian money continued to finance warfare in the Aegean but now it supported the Macedonian hegemony.

The next target was Persis, the heartland of the empire. Alexander moved quickly from Susa, keeping close to the foothills of the Zagros. His march took him through the territory of the Uxii, some of whom led a pastoral existence in the mountains; others were sedentary in the plains.

[44] Arr. *Anab.* III.16.10. See below, p.854.

Both groups caused trouble. The mountain Uxii demanded passage money and were subjected to a ravaging attack by a mobile Macedonian infantry column, which terrorized them into submission and tributary status. Somewhere near the border with Susiana the governor of the lowland Uxii, Medates, attempted to block the highway but was outmanoeuvred by Alexander and forced to capitulate.[45] These were separate incidents, of nuisance value but of no military significance. The real test came when Alexander attempted to force the Persian Gates. He had sent his baggage and heavy transport along the carriage way to Persepolis, while he made a direct push through the central Zagros with his Macedonian forces. The exact route is not precisely identifiable, but the most likely (which was certainly used in the Achaemenid period) is the track from the Fahlian valley to the plain of ʿAliabad, which rises through a long narrow gorge to a watershed at 2,167 metres.[46] Here (or in a similar position) the Persians had installed a strong army under the satrap Ariobarzanes. Alexander's first attempt at a frontal attack up the gorge failed miserably. His troops were demoralized by a rain of missiles from the surrounding heights and retreated, leaving their dead in the defiles. At that critical stage the history of Thermopylae was re-enacted. Local informants revealed a turning path, which allowed both infantry and cavalry to make an encircling movement (over the Bolsoru pass and south east along the base of the Kuh-i Rudian). The assault groups travelled over two nights and attacked the Persian encampment at the head of the gorge, while Craterus led a second push up the defiles. The dawn attack threw the Persians into a panic and they were routed with considerable loss of life.

Persepolis lay open to the invaders. Its citadel commander promptly made his peace with Alexander, refusing to admit the fugitive Ariobarzanes and inviting the king to take possession of the treasury. This he did, occupying the great palace complex of Darius and Xerxes and sacking the private homes of the Persian nobility. The war of revenge was now consummated, as Xerxes' capital was plundered and Persis itself turned into a satrapy under a permanent garrison of Hellenic troops. During the next four months Persepolis was host to Alexander's army, and its enormous reserves of bullion (estimated by some sources at 120,000 talents) were gradually redirected to Mesopotamia. There was also a small-scale campaign, thirty days long, against the Mardi of the southern Zagros. Finally the palace was stripped of its treasure, and it

[45] Curt. v.3.12–15; cf. Arr. *Anab.* III.17.6 (citing Ptolemy). On the difficulties and source divergences see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 323–4; Briant 1982 (F 10) 161–73; *contra*, Badian 1985 (D 142) 441.

[46] Stein 1940 (D 236) 18ff; Hansman 1972 (F 32). There are criticisms and another location in an article to be published shortly in the *American Journal of Ancient History* by Henry Speck.

was then burned. The conflagration took place at a celebrated feast, allegedly at the instigation of the Athenian courtesan, Thais, and the troops indulged themselves in an orgy of destruction. The destruction was commemorated in Alexander's propaganda, which stressed the appropriateness of the act of revenge – a useful theme to air while Antipater was still embroiled with Agis in Greece; but there is some indication that it was an act of wanton vandalism which Alexander certainly lived to regret.[47]

Early in May Alexander led his forces north from Persepolis, taking with him the remains of the palace treasure. Darius had wintered in the Median capital, hoping for reinforcements from the eastern satrapies. He was disappointed, and, once travel was feasible, he left Ecbatana with his modest forces (3,300 cavalry, mostly Bactrian, and a somewhat larger force of infantry) and moved north east to the Caspian Gates, the complex of defiles that separated Media from the eastern satrapies. At the news of Darius' flight, which reached him near the Median border, Alexander reduced his forces to a minimum (cavalry, the bulk of the phalanx, and light infantry) and diverged from the main road to Ecbatana,[48] striking north eastwards to Rhagae (12 km south of Tehran) in the hope of intercepting his fugitive rival. Parmenion was detached (for the last time) to ensure that the rest of the army and the convoy of bullion reached the Median capital safely. Ten days of forced marches brought Alexander to Rhagae, where he learned that Darius had passed through the Caspian Gates. The pursuit resumed in earnest a little over a week later, at the news of a bitter power struggle in Darius' camp. Bessus, the most powerful of the eastern satraps, was intriguing to assume Darius' military command. He was supported by the chiliarch Nabarzanes but opposed by the westernized Artabazus. The dissension slowed the Persian progress and vastly increased the tide of desertions. Now Alexander began the most celebrated pursuit of his reign, which was to cover nearly 200 km in four nights and three days, from Choarene (immediately east of the Caspian Gates) to the borders of Parthyene.[49] The final stage was reserved for cavalry only, the pick of the infantry mounted for the last effort. Shortly after dawn the Macedonian column sighted the first Persian stragglers. Darius was already a prisoner of

[47] Arr. *Anab.* III.18.11–12 (revenge motive); Diod. XVII.72.1–5; Curt. V.7.2–7; Plut. *Alex.* 38.1–8 (role of Thais, originally in Cleitarchus, *FGrH* 137 F 11). For various interpretations see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 132–4; Wirth 1971 (D 246) 149–52; Borza 1972 (D 151); Badian 1985 (D 142) 443–6.

[48] Curt. V.13.1. Arr. *Anab.* III.19.5 states that Alexander actually entered Ecbatana; that is probably a misunderstanding (Bosworth 1976 (B 13) 132–6; see, however, Badian 1985 (D 142) 447).

[49] Arr. *Anab.* III.21.3–10; Curt. V.13.3–13. Calculation of the route is difficult, given the vagueness of the sources and the prevailing tendency to exaggerate marching distances. The sole key is the location of Hecatompylus, the terminal point of the pursuit (see below, n. 50). For detailed discussion see Radet 1932 (D 224); Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 336–8; Seibert 1985 (D 233) 112–14.

Bessus, confined in golden chains, and at the first sight of the Macedonian advance he was stabbed to death. The actual assassins were Satibarzanes and Barsaentes, satraps of Areia and Arachosia; the primary instigators were Bessus and Nabarzanes.

In every sense the war of revenge was complete. Alexander at last was master of his rival, whose body he sent for royal burial at Persepolis. That marked an epoch, and Alexander emphasized the message by ordering the demobilization of the entire contingent of troops from the Corinthian League. They were conveyed from Ecbatana, flush with a discharge bonus of 2,000 talents, to be shipped from Syria to Euboea. That evoked a powerful reaction from the Macedonians who saw no reason to continue the war after its objectives were realized. They were disinclined to promote Alexander's regal ambitions by indefinite campaigning, and it took all his rhetoric – and promises of generous donatives – to reconcile them to the next advance. The opposition was serious and it was to gather momentum.

V. THE CONQUEST OF EASTERN IRAN AND THE BACTRIAN LANDS, 330–327 B.C.

After the pursuit Alexander concentrated his scattered forces at the city of Hecatompylus (recently located at Shahr-i Qumis).[50] His first concern was to deal with the remnants of Darius' army, which had taken refuge in the Elburz mountains. To that end he invaded Hyrcania, crossing the mountain via the Shamshirbun Pass, while Craterus and Erigyius took other routes. There was little or no resistance, but a stream of Persian refugees made cautious overtures. The regicide Nabarzanes made contact at the first halting-place by the river Rhidagnus, and after receiving reassurances he made a formal surrender at the Hyrcanian capital. Similarly Phrataphernes, the Hyrcanian satrap, offered submission. As the campaign continued to the west of Hyrcania Artabazus and his sons attached themselves to the Macedonian court, where they were warmly welcomed. Loyalists and regicides alike were accepted into the service of Darius' successor. Finally the Greek mercenaries who had served with Darius made their peace and were incorporated in the army of their victor. The Hyrcanian campaign was a triumphal tour, the only serious fighting a five-day campaign against the independent Mardi towards the south-west of the satrapy. It climaxed in a fifteen-day stay at Zadracarta, the Hyrcanian capital, where the king held sacrifices and games for his recent successes. He then recrossed the Elburz and marched east to Areia. At Susia (now Tus, near Meshed) he received the satrap and regicide, Satibarzanes, and confirmed him in office.

[50] Hansman 1968 (F 31); Hansman and Stronach 1970 (F 33).

Now came a challenge. Bessus, safely home in Bactria, assumed the upright tiara, the insignia of kingship, and termed himself Artaxerxes. A relative of Darius, he was now arrogating the Achaemenid monarchy, implicitly branding Alexander an alien and usurper. Alexander reacted by himself adopting some elements of Persian court dress: the diadem, the striped tunic and the girdle, which he combined with the Macedonian hat (*kausia*) and cloak.[51] At the same time he gave senior Companions the scarlet robes of Persian courtiers and added Darius' brother to his entourage. He was adapting to the institutions of the throne he had acquired, but he risked alienating the more conservative-minded Macedonians, who had just completed the mission of vengeance.

Alexander began his march to Bactria, intending to invade the satrapy from the west after traversing the piedmont area north of the Kopet Dag massif. Once he was out of Areia, Satibarzanes renounced his allegiance and massacred the tiny force of cavalry that was left as a garrison. That ensured Alexander's return and his vengeance. A column of Companion Cavalry and picked infantry covered 600 stades in two nights and days, and confined the insurgents to a hill citadel near Artacoana (Herat).[52] Satibarzanes himself prudently left his satrapy and took refuge with Bessus. Alexander placed another Iranian, Arsaces, over the satrapy and moved south to Drangiana, the realm of the other regicide, Barsaentes. Bessus' challenge had changed his attitude. Now the punishment of Darius' murderers was a sacred duty, and his *pietas* might weaken local support for Bessus. In the face of the invasion Barsaentes took flight to India, and the Macedonian army occupied the Drangian capital of Phrada (Farah).

At Phrada the rift between Alexander and the family of Parmenion emerged sensationally to public view.[53] Philotas, Parmenion's eldest son and commander of the Companions, had recently returned to court after conducting the obsequies of his brother, the hypaspist commander Nicanor, who had died on the northern borders of Areia. In his absence a conspiracy had matured at court, centred around the figure of Demetrius the bodyguard. It was betrayed during the stay at Phrada, and Philotas was accused of complicity. He was not a principal, but it was alleged that he failed to act on a report of the imminent assassination. The last point is

[51] Diod. XVII.77.4–7; Curt. VI.6.1–10; Justin XII.3.8–12; cf. Plut. *Alex.* 45.1–2; Arr. *Anab.* IV.7.4–5. See Ritter 1965 (A 50) 31–55; Bosworth 1980 (D 155) 4–8.

[52] Diod. XVII.78.2; Curt. VI.6.22–32; cf. Arr. *Anab.* III.25.7. For the location of the fortress see Seibert 1985 (D 233) 120, *contra*, Engels 1978 (D 172) 87–91; Badian 1985 (D 142) 451.

[53] Arr. *Anab.* III.26–7 (apologetically slanted and based on Ptolemy and Aristobulus); Curt. VI.7.1–VII.2.38 (detailed and rhetorically embellished); Diod. XVII.79–80; Plut. *Alex.* 48–9; Justin XII.5.1–8; Strabo XV.2.10. For source analysis see Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) II 118–34. Modern reconstructions begin with Badian 1960 (D 132), the seminal work. See also Hamilton 1969 (B 54) 132–8; Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 326–36; Heckel 1977 (D 195).

emphasized in all the otherwise divergent sources, and it is agreed that he was at least guilty of passive disloyalty. That was enough to ensure his arrest, and the following day he was tried and condemned by the army present with Alexander, which was far from its full strength.[54] Rhetoric and blatant stage management succeeded in convincing the common soldiers that he was an instigator of the conspiracy. The trial completed, he was put to extreme torture in an attempt to incriminate his father. Admissions of a sort were extorted, but they were not substantial enough for a formal indictment. Parmenion was simply murdered. The king sent secret messages by racing camel, and on his instructions the mercenary commander at Ecbatana (who was the brother of Coenus, one of Philotas' enemies) cut down the old general, isolated as he was after the departure of his phalanx infantry to join the main army. In Drangiana Philotas and the convicted conspirators were executed by stoning, and in the highly charged emotional atmosphere the Lyncestian prince, Alexander, was brought to trial and put to death after three years of close confinement (see above, p.803).[55] That removed a potential threat, at the risk of antagonizing his father-in-law, Antipater, the regent of Macedonia. The king had served notice that disloyalty would not be tolerated, and he had eradicated the group which had been most antipathetic to his policies. Critics of a humbler station were relegated to a special disciplinary company known as 'the unit of insubordinates' (Diod. XVII.80.4). On the other hand the men who had engineered Philotas' downfall reaped the rewards of his demise. The cavalry command was divided between Alexander's favourite, Hephaestion, and the veteran general, Cleitus the Black, and the command of army divisions was almost monopolized by a small group of marshals: Craterus, Hephaestion, Perdiccas, Coenus and Ptolemy son of Lagus, a boyhood friend of Alexander who now replaced Demetrius as bodyguard. The king was surrounded by his intimates, and disagreement was both difficult and dangerous to voice.

The army now moved south to the land of the Ariaspians, where the river Helmand discharges into a complex of fresh-water lakes. This was one of the granaries of ancient Iran, and Alexander's forces stayed in the area for some sixty days. Meanwhile Bessus had fomented unrest in the northern satrapies, supporting Satibarzanes in a second invasion of Areia and sending troops along the northern corridor from Bactria to Media. There followed nearly two years of unrest. Satibarzanes himself was killed in the summer of 329, falling in hand-to-hand combat with

[54] According to Curt. VI.8.23, the assembly which convicted Philotas numbered only 6,000. The phalanx contingent with Parmenion in Media, again 6,000 strong, was in transit and reached the main army when Alexander was in Arachosia (Curt. VII.3.4; cf. Arr. *Anab.* III.19.7).

[55] Curt. VII.1.5–9; Diod. XVII.80.2; cf. Berve 1926 (D 146) 2. no. 548; Badian 1960 (D 132) 335–6.

Erigyius who commanded a punitive force sent by Alexander. But the troubles continued. Stasanor, Alexander's new satrap, had a struggle to establish himself in Areia, and in Parthyaea Bessus had backed a certain Brazanes, who managed to elude capture until 328.[56] Despite the turmoil in the north (which was not dissimilar to the situation in the Aegean in 333) the king moved on to settle accounts with Bessus. In late winter he led his united forces up the Helmand valley, struggling against deep snow and lack of provisions. The passes of the Hindu Kush were blocked, and he had to wait for at least a month in the vicinity of Kabul, provisioning his army from the well-stocked villages and founding a new Alexandria near modern Begram to control access to the strategic Shibar and Khawak passes.[57]

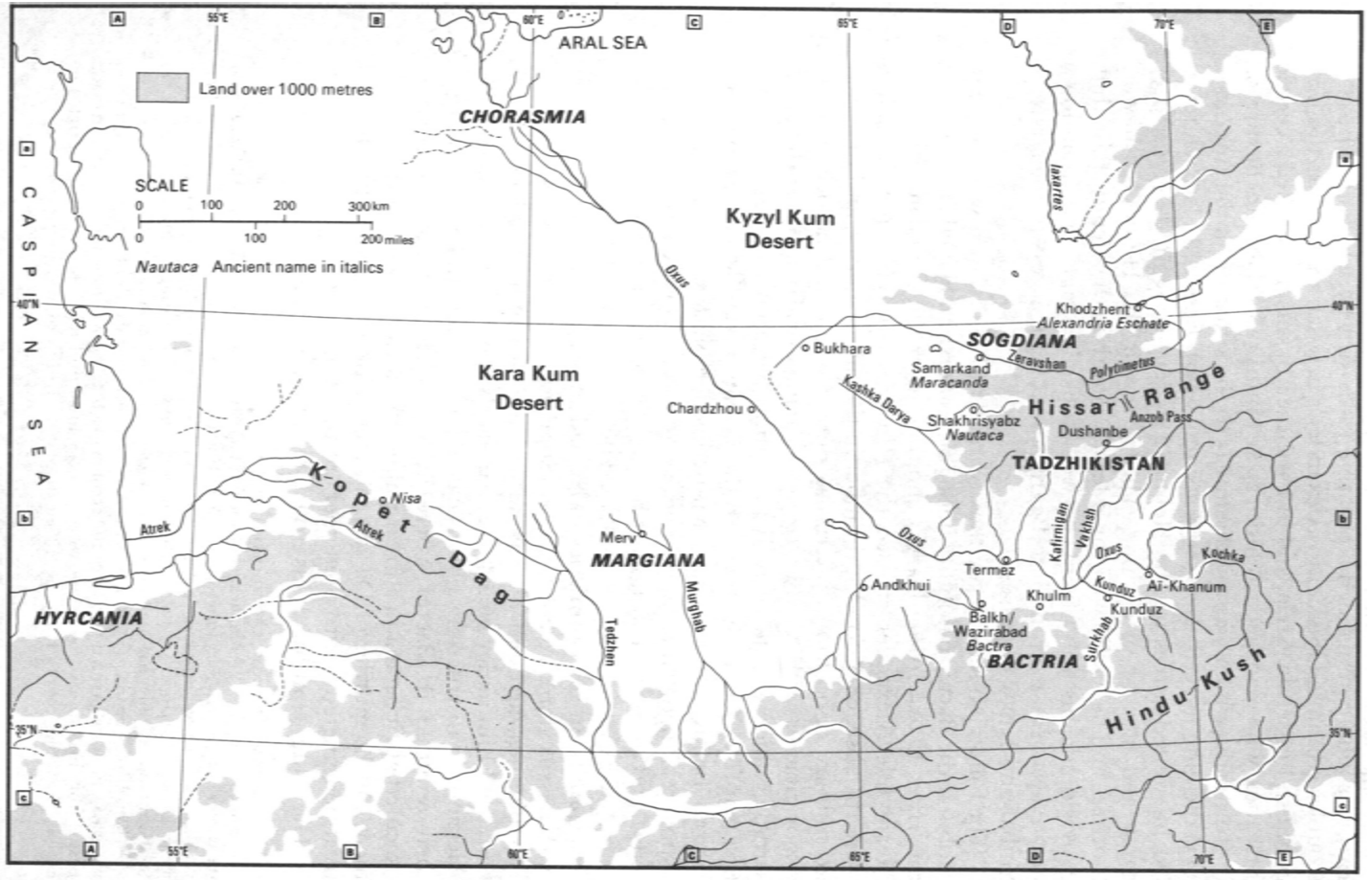
The following season saw the downfall of Bessus, who was unable to mobilize the Bactrian nobility under his leadership. He fell back north of the river Oxus (Amu Darya), hoping to make Sogdiana his base. Meanwhile Alexander crossed the Hindu Kush. The only difficulties were the absence of food and timber in the high country, and there was no military opposition. Bactria lay open to him, and he occupied the major citadels with his own troops, placing Artabazus over the entire satrapy, which was deceptively peaceful. The capture of Bessus was the first priority. The army traversed the 75 km of waterless desert between Bactra (Balkh) and the Oxus with considerable losses from thirst and exposure. Then came the river crossing, on improvised rafts of stuffed hides, and the final push against Bessus. There was little more to do. The self-styled Artaxerxes V was Alexander's target, and by welcoming deserters from his camp Alexander had indicated that his quarrel was with Bessus alone. Accordingly his Sogdian supporters, Spitamenes and Dataphernes, arrested him as he had previously arrested Darius and conveyed him under guard to Alexander's camp.[58] In compliance with Alexander's instructions he was naked and fettered, to be first scourged, then remitted to Bactra where he was later mutilated, and finally executed at Ecbatana in a great public spectacle. It was overtly punishment for the murder of Darius; in practice Bessus suffered the dreadful treatment meted out to pretenders to the Achaemenid throne.

The king continued his royal progress to the satrapal palace at

[56] On these events see Bosworth 1981 (D 156) 21–4.

[57] For the chronology, complicated by the fact that Strabo XV.2.10 implies that Alexander spent the winter near Begram, see Jones 1935 (D 204); Hamilton 1969 (B 54) 98–9; *contra*, Badian 1985 (D 142), 455. On the reconstruction given in the text the setting of the Pleiades, which Strabo claims coincided with Alexander's passage of Parapamisadae, must be the spring setting, in early April 329. Strabo may imply only that Alexander *saw the winter out* in the Kabul valley.

[58] This is the version of Aristobulus (in Arr. *Anab.* III.30.5; see also Curt. VII.5.36–42; Diod. XVII.83.8). Ptolemy gave a highly colourful account of a breakneck chase across Sogdiana to snatch Bessus from his captors (Arr. *Anab.* III.29.7–30.3). In all probability he greatly exaggerated his exploit. Cf. Welles 1963 (B 124) 109–10; Seibert 1969 (B 108) 14–16; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 376–7.



Map 21. Chorasmia, Margiana, Sogdiana and Bactria.

Maracanda and then to the banks of the modern Syr Darya. The river was known locally as the Iaxartes, but Alexander and his staff considered it the same river as the European Tanais (Don). He assumed that he had come to the traditional boundary between Europe and Asia and was encouraged in his belief by the abundant stands of silver fir which were reminiscent of the European trees. Later there was more elaborate speculation, and Alexander sent an expedition to determine whether the Caspian and the Sea of Azov were interconnected lakes, as one geographical hypothesis demanded. In 329, however, he simply assumed that in reaching the Tanais he had reached the limits of Asia, and he concluded treaty relations with the Saca tribes north of the river, considering them outside the boundary of his empire. Consistently with this concept he founded a new frontier city, Alexandria Eschate, on the south bank of the river, in the vicinity of the modern city of Khodzhent (Leninabad).

At this point Alexander was rudely surprised by an insurrection which began in Sogdiana and rapidly spread to Bactria, encouraged by Spitamenes and Dataphernes. Macedonian garrisons were massacred, and the rebellion extended to the border district where the king was operating. He reacted with predictable ferocity, reconquering seven fortresses close to the Syr Darya and punishing the insurgents with massacre and enslavement. North of the river his new foundation was threatened by hordes of Saca cavalry, ready to profit from his discomfiture. That threat was neutralized by a river crossing under the protection of an artillery barrage which did much to demoralize the enemy. There followed a cavalry engagement in which archers and light infantry protected the flanks from the wheeling attacks of the enemy while the bulk of the Companions, massed in column, broke the main Saca formation. The result was an extended pursuit, interrupted only when the king was incapacitated by dysentery. His opponents promptly offered submission.

That was only the first act of what proved a bitter campaign of reprisal. Alexander had sent a small force of mercenary cavalry and infantry to relieve the capital, Maracanda, which was undergoing siege. In that they were successful. The insurgent commander, Spitamenes, withdrew westwards with his forces; but with the help of Saca auxiliaries, who joined him near the frontier, he laid an ambush. Outnumbered and debilitated by fatigue, the Macedonian expeditionary force, whose commanders had unwisely continued the pursuit from Maracanda, were driven to panic and largely massacred.[59] It was a psychological blow to

[59] The details are controversial, differently reported by Ptolemy and Aristobulus, both of whom alleged incompetence among the Macedonian commanders (Arr. *Anab.* IV.5.2–9 – Ptolemy; 6.1–2 – Aristobulus; cf. Curt. VII.7.31–9).

the invaders, and the siege of the capital resumed. Alexander himself marched south with half the Companions and the pick of the infantry. He covered the 290 km to Maracanda at a furious speed, relieved the citadel and systematically devastated the western part of the Zeravshan valley in a campaign of terror calculated to eradicate all resistance. By mid-winter the western portion of Sogdiana had been crushed and Alexander withdrew to the secure base of Bactra.

In the spring of 328 he turned to the east. His united army followed the course of the Oxus, probably as far as the confluence with the Kokcha, the site of Ai-Khanum.[60] Here he divided his forces, four phalanx commanders being left to garrison Bactria while his main army, divided into five separate columns, reduced to submission the lands between the Oxus and the Hissar range. It was a grim business of siege, massacre and forcible resettlement, the highlight a spectacular climb by an elite group of mountaineers to force the surrender of a seemingly impregnable rock citadel. As summer ended[61] the various army groups converged on Maracanda, where Alexander rested his men and received a visit from the most powerful local dynast, Pharasmanes, the king of the independent land of Chorasmia (in the lower reaches of the Syr Darya). A treaty of peace and alliance effectively denied his support to the insurgents, and Alexander himself tactfully avoided an invitation to use his army to expand the Chorasmian domains (Arr. *Anab.* IV.15.4–6; Curt. VIII.1.8).

At Maracanda occurred the sensational killing of Cleitus the Black. Alienated by the increasingly oriental trappings of the court and (perhaps for that reason) nominated satrap of Bactria and Sogdiana, he gave vent to his feelings at a banquet and symposium in honour of the Dioscuri. The extant accounts of the scene differ markedly,[62] but it is relatively clear that Cleitus reacted against the court flattery which gave Alexander divine status and denigrated others, notably the commanders who had perished at the Zeravshan. In contrast Cleitus emphasized Alexander's obligations to others, notably Philip and himself, and quoted a particularly wounding passage of Euripides' *Andromache* (693 ff). Abuse turned to violence, and in the end Alexander seized a weapon from a guard and struck down Cleitus. Remorse, which appears genuine, came immediately. Alexander fasted in his tent for three days, his self-reproach causing increasing worry to both court and rank and file. He was (allegedly) consoled by the political philosophy of Anaxarchus of Abdera, who claimed that Alexander as the earthly counterpart of Zeus

[60] For details see Bosworth 1981 (D 156) 23–9. For other views see (e.g.) Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 349; Engels 1978 (D 172) 104–5; Seibert 1985 (D 233) 138.

[61] The chronology adopted here is based on Curt. VII.11.1ff, which is more coherent and plausible than Arr. *Anab.* IV.16.1ff. See for detailed argument Bosworth 1981 (D 156) 29–39.

[62] See particularly Aymard 1967 (A 2) 51–7; Brown 1949 (D 161) 236–8; Hamilton 1969 (B 54) 139–46; Bosworth 1977 (D 20) 62–4.

was the very embodiment of justice; and he emerged from his tent to general relief. Cleitus was buried, his killing (maybe) exonerated by the army (Curt. VIII.2.12), but the opposition he had voiced was not forgotten.

The Sogdian insurrection was now approaching its bitter end. Alexander moved south to his winter quarters at Nautaca, where the local ruler, Sisimithres, was blockaded in his citadel and shocked into submission by the Macedonian expertise in siege engineering. At the same time Coenus continued operations from Maracanda and heavily repulsed an invasion by Spitamenes and his nomad allies. The insurgency collapsed. Spitamenes was killed by his own allies, who sent his head to Alexander. At the same time the satraps of Parthyaea and Areia announced the end of operations in their territories. For the first time in nearly two years the eastern satrapies were relatively quiet. Bactria and Sogdiana were organized under a new satrap, Amyntas, and a large network of military colonies supported by a native agrarian work force. A large number of the native cavalry was enlisted for Alexander's army and a further 30,000 of the local youth were earmarked for training in Macedonian style. The prime of the military population would eventually leave for service elsewhere. At the same time Alexander took a Bactrian wife, Rhoxane. She had fallen into his hands during 328 and her father, Oxyartes, had collaborated with him. Early in 327 the marriage took place – in Macedonian style.[63] Like his father Alexander had married for strategic reasons, but the act doubtless exacerbated the tensions that had already been manifested in Cleitus' death.

The trouble worsened at Bactra, where Alexander began his preparations for the invasion of India as his lieutenants cleaned up the two remaining pockets of rebellion (led by Catanes and Austanes). There the king made his famous abortive experiment with *proskynesis* (see below, p.873), and the debacle was followed immediately by the Pages' Conspiracy. That was a serious attempt on the king's life, initiated from his closest entourage. The ringleader, Hermolaus son of Sopolis, had a personal grudge against Alexander and recruited a small group of intimates (seven are named) to assassinate him while they shared the guard of his bedchamber. Before the plan could be executed, it was betrayed. All the conspirators were arrested, admitted their guilt under torture and were stoned to death. The affair remains a mystery, the political motivation of the Pages (if any) a matter of guesswork – although the experiment with *proskynesis* may well have been a catalyst. Callisthenes, the king's historian, was suspected of complicity and, although no admission of his guilt could be extracted from the wretched

[63] Arr. *Anab.* IV.19.5; Curt. VIII.4.21–30; Plut. *Alex.* 47.7–8; Strabo XI.11.4; cf. Bosworth 1980 (D 155) 10–11.

Pages, he too was arrested, tortured and executed.[64] He had been familiar with some of the conspirators and it was easy to suggest guilt by association. His death was a stark illustration of the perils of opposing the current trends at court, and the critics of the self-proclaimed son of Zeus and King of Asia were silenced – for the moment.

VI. THE INDIAN CAMPAIGNS, 327–325 B.C.

The invasion of India had been maturing for some time with the encouragement of Indian refugees, notably Sisicottus who had served with Alexander throughout the Sogdian revolt. Interested rulers from the Indus valley, notably the prince of Taxila, had also intrigued with the conqueror, hoping to use his army for their own purposes. But no encouragement was needed. As Alexander surely knew from Herodotus, the Indus valley had been acquired for the Persian empire by Darius I, and the inhabitants of the Kabul valley at least had sent cavalry and elephants to the Persian grand army at Gaugamela.[65] There was also the factor of emulation. Greek tradition knew of the exploits of the legendary Babylonian queen Semiramis and her conquests in India; and, more pertinently, there was already a legend in vogue that Dionysus had begun his triumphal progress in the eastern lands. Alexander's staff was ready to find and create evidence for the presence of both Heracles and Dionysus. Most conveniently a small community which surrendered to him in the mountains between the Choes and the Kunar valley was identified as the birthplace of Dionysus. Nearby was a mountain whose local name recalled the Greek *meros* (Dionysus was reputed to have been concealed in the thigh (*μηρός*) of Zeus), and there were abundant growths of ivy and bay trees. That encouraged the presumption that the inhabitants worshipped Dionysus and were descended from the god's entourage. They were accordingly granted their freedom (under the supervision of Alexander's satrap) with high commendation of their aristocratic government.[66]

Other communities were less fortunate, and the record of the campaign in Gandhara makes grim reading. Alexander began his invasion from Parapamisadae, after reinforcing his new Alexandria (Begram) with extra settlers. Half the Macedonian troops and all the mercenaries followed Hephaestion and Perdiccas along the main road to the Indus. The elite troops left with Alexander campaigned in the

[64] Arr. *Anab.* IV.14.3 (Ptolemy); cf. Curt. VIII.8.21. For the apologetic versions of Aristobulus (F 33) and Chares (F 15) see Hamilton 1969 (B 54) 156; Badian 1981 (D 141) 50–1; 1985 (D 142) 459.

[65] Arr. *Anab.* III.8.3,6. See further Badian 1985 (D 142) 462.

[66] On this episode see Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) II 21–33; Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) II 437–42; Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 70–2. It was mentioned as early as Theophrastus (*Hist. Pl.* IV.4.1).

mountain districts, in what is now Bajaur and Swat. The pattern was set in the valley of the Choes (Alingar?),[67] where resistance was punished by massacre and destruction. Some settlements capitulated, but most of the populace took refuge in the mountains until the storm passed. Alexander overran the territory, took numerous prisoners when he came into contact with the fugitive population and established military settlements at strategic sites. The methods devised for the Sogdian insurgency were employed again in India.

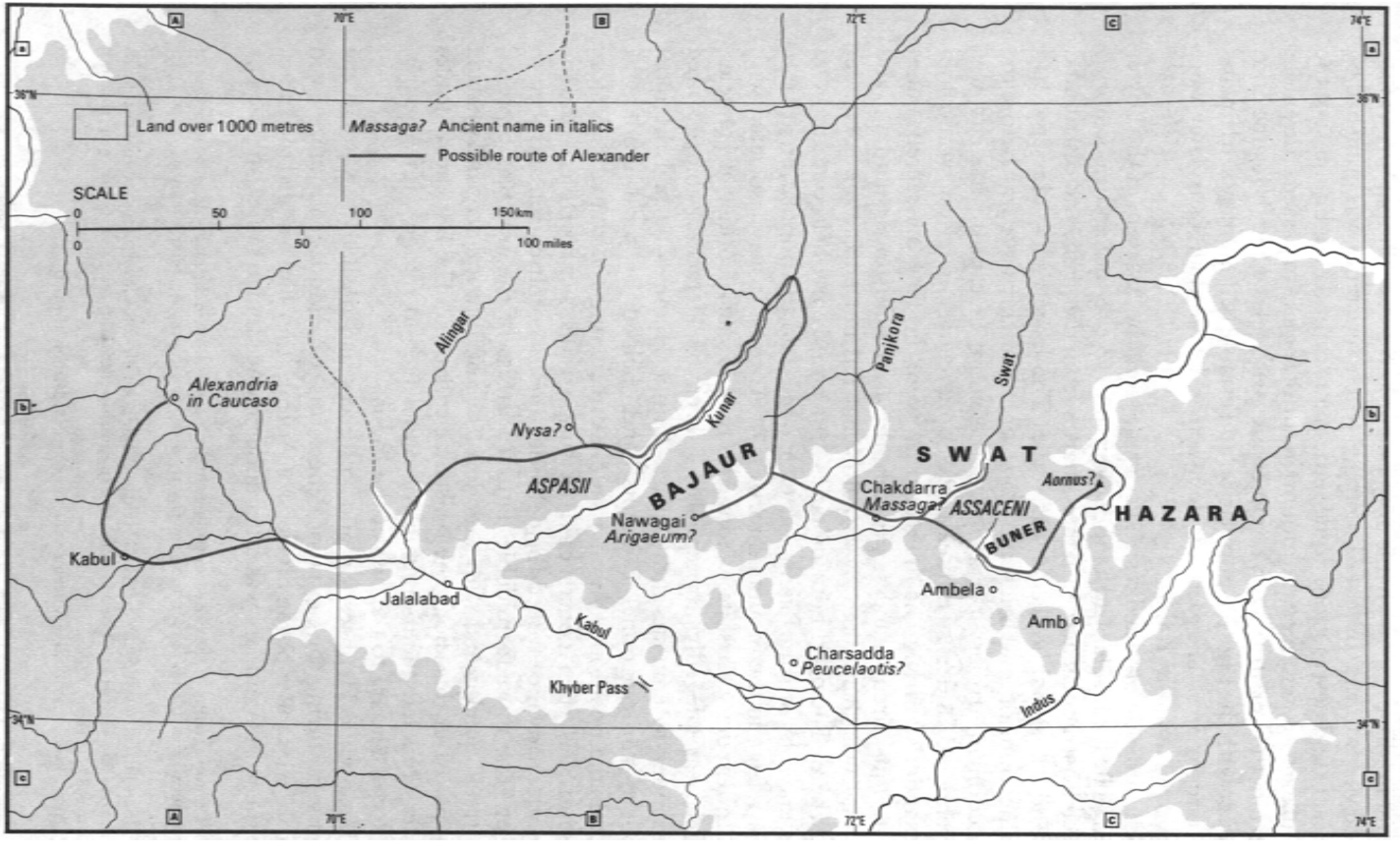
The most determined resistance came from the Assaceni of the Lower Swat. The local ruler had a moderate army (30,000 foot and 2,000 horse) which he strengthened with mercenaries from the plains and distributed around his strongholds. It was futile. The largest city, Massaga, had fortifications of mud brick and stone which quickly gave way before the Macedonian artillery barrage. On the verge of capture the city was surrendered under guarantee that the mercenary garrison would join Alexander's army. The mercenaries were in fact massacred under mysterious circumstances, possibly through a misunderstanding; and the city was then taken by assault. That did not encourage surrender elsewhere. The neighbouring cities, Ora and Bazira, held out until Ora was taken by storm. Bazira was evacuated, and the population at large took refuge in the mountain fortress of Aornus. It was associated with the Indian deity Krishna, whom Alexander's staff identified as Heracles, and it was allegedly impregnable – even by Heracles. That inspired Alexander to emulate and surpass. Unlike Heracles he had the most modern anti-personnel catapults, and, helped by local guides, he occupied a position high on a saddle threatening the citadel.[68] A siege mound was then constructed to support his siege artillery and its relentless advance forced the defenders first to capitulation and then to flight. The most formidable natural fortress of the area was captured relatively quickly and with a modest force of light infantry and phalanx troops. After this shock the resistance collapsed. The last enemy forces under arms left the mountains of Buner to find refuge with Abisares, prince of Hazara to the east of the Indus.

Meanwhile Hephaestion and Perdiccas had pushed forward to the Indus, capturing the capital of Peucelaotis (Charsadda) en route.[69] Even before Alexander began his siege of Aornus, they had bridged the Indus. To the west Gandhara was quiet under a Macedonian satrap, subdued by

[67] The topography of the early campaign is in dispute. I follow in the main the reconstruction of Eggermont 1970 (D 168) 108 (cf. Goukowsky 1978–81) (B 45) II.23–4; *contra*, Stein 1929 (D 234) 41; Seibert 1985 (D 233) 150–1.

[68] Identified attractively by Sir Aurel Stein as the ridge of Pir Sar, a level plateau with wheat fields (Stein 1929 (D 234) 131–2). For an alternative suggestion (Mt Ilam) see Eggermont 1984 (D 169A); Badian 1987 (D 143) 117.

[69] Arr. *Anab.* IV.22.8. See Wheeler 1968 (F 70) 95–8; Badian 1987 (D 143).



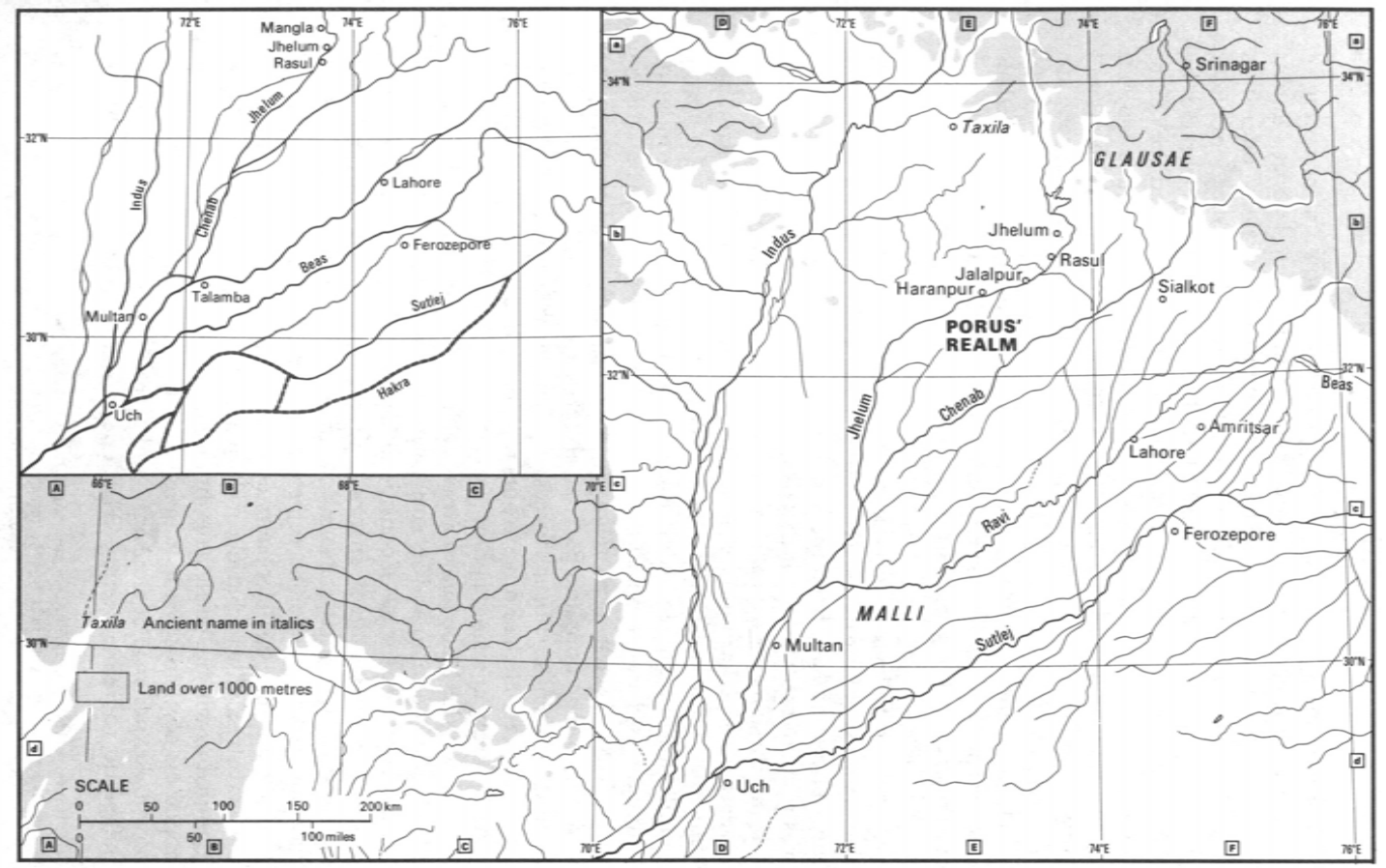
Map 22. The Kabul valley.

an autumn and winter of terror and repression. Now, in the spring of 326, Alexander crossed the Indus near Ohind, where he met Omphis (Ambhi), the prince of Taxila. The submission formally offered in Sogdiana was renewed, and he was confirmed in his princedom under the satrap appointed by Alexander. The union was celebrated by sacrifices and games at Taxila itself, while emissaries visited the neighbouring princes. Abisares was prudent enough to offer submission, but Porus, ruler of the rich country between the Hydaspes (Jhelum) and Acesines (Chenab), rejected the overtures and prepared to defend his realm.

The campaign of the Hydaspes ensued. Alexander immediately led his army from Taxila, intent on reaching the river before it was in full spate. He crossed the Great Salt Range[70] and established his base camp on the river bank in the face of Porus' army, which held the eastern side, its elephants in full view. The strategic problem was the river crossing. Alexander kept his forces in constant motion, at the same time transporting a flotilla by land from the Indus and giving the impression that he was prepared to wait until the river reached low water in September. During these manoeuvres he had identified a crossing point where the Hydaspes flowed around a densely wooded headland and an island was conveniently placed to conceal the fleet. Under the cover of a spring thunderstorm he made his crossing, while divisions of the army made ostentatious manoeuvres to distract the enemy from the main striking force. This, it seems, was relatively small: 6,000 foot and 5,000 horse (half the Companions and Bactrian and Saca cavalry from the north-east frontier). Even so Porus' forces were outmatched and maybe even outnumbered. He had other fronts to cope with and could not concentrate his army at a single point.

At dawn the Macedonian army reached the east bank and began its advance to the main Indian army, fording a secondary channel of the Hydaspes at the expense of considerable time and trouble. A detachment of Indian cavalry and war chariots under the command of one of Porus' sons was easily routed, the cumbersome six-man chariots foundering in the rain-soaked mud. The fugitives alerted Porus, who deployed his forces, stationing his elephants at intervals along his line of infantry, with cavalry and war chariots at the flanks (Fig. 39). The elephants were intended to win the battle, smashing the phalanx infantry as Darius had hoped his scythed chariots would at Gaugamela. But the Macedonians now had experience of elephants, and there had been ample time before the battle to refine tactics. Alexander used his cavalry (which was

[70] For the various locations of the campaign see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 158–60; 1985 (D 233) 156–7. Given the gradual changes of the river system since antiquity, it is unlikely that certainty will ever be achieved – unless Alexander's commemorative foundations are one day unearthed.



Map 23. The Punjab. The main map illustrates the present-day topography. The map in the inset is a conjectural approximation of the river system in the eighth century A.D. In Alexander's day the main rivers are likely to have flowed still further to the east.

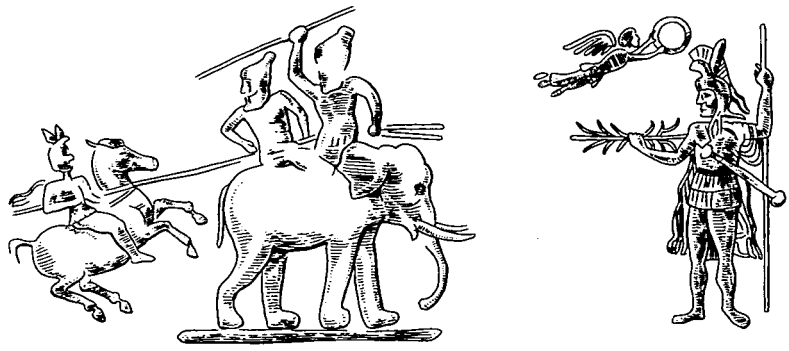


Fig. 39. Designs from five-shekel coins struck by Alexander in Babylon, about 323 B.C. Horseman (Alexander?) attacking a war elephant; Alexander holding the thunderbolt, crowned by Nike. (Cf. Goukowsky 1972 (D 179) 478, figs. 1–3; M.J. Price, *The Coinage in the Name of Alexander* (London, 1991) 33, 452–3, pl. 159g–h.)

numerically and qualitatively superior) to cause the maximum disruption.[71] The Indian cavalry on Porus' left wing was attacked by the bulk of the Macedonian horse led by Alexander. An onslaught by massed mounted archers created confusion which he exploited by a full charge at the head of the Companions. The vortex this produced attracted cavalry reinforcements from the right of the Indian line, and, while they were in transit Coenus struck at the right with a compact cavalry force, two hipparchies strong. Caught between hammer and anvil, the Indian cavalry was forced back into Porus' infantry column. Meanwhile the elephants were largely neutralized, as the Macedonian phalanx opened its ranks, disabled the drivers and stabbed upwards at the beasts. Eventually they were driven upon their own line, an increasingly chaotic amalgam of infantry, cavalry and elephants, under constant harassment from the Macedonian cavalry, now united in one body. The final act came when the elephants, mostly out of control, began to trample their own troops. Then the phalanx pressed the attack frontally in close formation while the cavalry virtually enveloped the rear of the Indian line. From that point it was a massacre; the few survivors who broke the cordon were hounded to annihilation by the fresh forces under Craterus who crossed the river when victory was assured and began the pursuit.

The victory was complete, celebrated by games at the site and by new city foundations, Bucephala (located at the base camp) and Nicaea on the field of battle.[72] Later it was to be celebrated in two great coin series issued from the Babylon mint, tetradrachms and decadrachms, the latter

[71] Arr. *Anab.* v.16.3 (cf. Curt VIII.14.15; Plut. *Alex.* 60.10). For the difficulties of Arrian's language see Hamilton 1956 (D 186) (*contra*, Tarn 1948 (D 239) II 193–8).

[72] Arr. *Anab.* v.19.4; Strabo XV.1.29; cf. Radet 1941 (D 226) *contra*, Tarn 1948 (D 239) II 236–7.

depicting a mounted Alexander armed with a *sarissa* and attacking Porus' war elephant. After Alexander the main beneficiary of the battle, paradoxically, was Porus. He had fought to the last and thrown himself on the victor's mercy. Impressed by his courage and his physique (he was over 2 metres tall), Alexander confirmed him in his realms and took his enemies as his own, just as he had done with the ruler of Taxila. While a fleet was being constructed in the timber-rich country of the Glausae (which he added to Porus' domains), he moved against Porus' eastern neighbour, a homonymous cousin, who had offered submission before the Battle of the Hydaspes but took flight with his army at the news of Porus' promotion. There was comparatively little resistance as the army proceeded across the Acesines and then the Hydraotes (Ravi), but the advance was seriously complicated by the event of the monsoon rains. The Hydaspes had been crossed in May against a background of spring thunderstorms, and by late June, when the army reached the Acesines, the monsoon deluge was in full spate and lasted until the rising of Arcturus, late in September.[73] After the annexation of the lands of Porus' cousin, the king crossed the Hydraotes to attack the autonomous Indians. Their chief stronghold, Sangala (near Lahore and Amritsar), was captured and destroyed after a brief siege; the populations of neighbouring cities were evacuated and ruthlessly harried in flight. Porus yet again was conceded sovereignty, placing garrisons in the surviving cities.

Alexander intended to go further. How far we cannot determine. The vulgate tradition, based on Cleitarchus, suggests that he had heard rumours of the realm of the Nandas, far away on the eastern Ganges (their capital, Pataliputra, lay near the modern city of Patna).[74] Arrian (*Anab.* V.25.1) speaks of an aristocratically governed people, rich in elephants. Perhaps we have in the two reports a short-term or long-term objective – or a stated end and a rumoured ambition. Whatever the case, the army had had enough. At the banks of the Hyphasis (Beas) the long simmering dissatisfaction coalesced in informal meetings and complaints by the rank and file. Alexander tested the sentiments of his officers, only to be told bluntly by Coenus, one of the most senior of the phalanx commanders, that the troops would go no further east.[75] A second meeting was no more successful, and Alexander retired to his tent with the threat that he would go on alone, if necessary. This time his

[73] Strabo XV.1.17–18 (Aristobulus F 35, Nearchus F 18). In Arrian (V.29.15) there is one retrospective reference to the monsoon conditions.

[74] Diod. XVII.93.2–4; Curt. IX.2.2–7; Plut. *Alex.* 62.2–3. The tradition was apparently familiar to Hieronymus of Cardia (Meyer 1927 (D 213); Hornblower 1981 (B 60) 84–6). Cf. Schachermeyr 1955 (D 229); Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) II 463–5; Kienast 1965 (D 205).

[75] On the sources and the character of the reported speeches see now Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 123–34.

bluff was called. The troops waited in silence for three days while he nursed his wrath. Then he capitulated, ostensibly finding the omens for crossing unfavourable, and announced that he would turn back. His men were jubilant, but he never forgot the humiliation and, as his reign progressed, he deliberately reduced his dependence upon them. Perhaps significantly, their spokesman, Coenus, died within days of the reconciliation and Alexander's entourage increasingly comprised only men who would approve his ambitions.

At the Hydaspes, where Alexander returned late in September, he found a fleet under construction in his new foundations of Bucephala and Nicaea. It was a great assembly of light transport craft, mainly two-banked *triaconters*, designed to convey horses, men and provisions to the southern Ocean. Under the command of his boyhood friend, Nearchus of Crete, seconded by the royal helmsman, Onesicritus of Cos, the fleet began its voyage, carrying a large proportion of the cavalry as well as the hypaspists and archers. The rest of the army, including 200 elephants, moved along the banks to right and left under the command of Craterus and Hephaestion. There was a minor debacle at the confluence of the Acesines and Hydaspes, where the strong current caused a good deal of damage and delayed the advance. The main thrust of Alexander's campaign in this area was directed against the Oxydracae (Ksudrakas) and Malli (Malavas), who were determined to resist invasion and had begun concentrating the population in defensible strongholds. Their territory was located on the lower reaches of the Hydraotes, and, while the fleet and the main army column continued the journey down the Acesines, Alexander led a mobile striking force across desert terrain to attack the Malli from the north.[76] He took them completely by surprise, cutting off assistance from the Oxydracae. The depressing policy of terror was again employed. Citadels which held out against him were stormed and the defenders massacred; and the refugees who sought sanctuary in the desert were relentlessly harassed.

Finally the surviving Malli warriors crossed the Hydraotes and made a last stand in a neighbouring fortified city. The walls were captured easily and the inner citadel alone withstood the attack. Here the assault flagged and Alexander, who had detected loss of morale in an earler siege, decided to set an object lesson. He scaled the wall and with a handful of companions, notably Peucestas, he stood there isolated and exposed, while his hypaspists tried vainly to reach him. At this point he leaped down inside the citadel, to become the single target of the defenders. He

[76] The campaign is known only from Arrian (*Anab.* VI.6-10) whose account is unitary and derived from Ptolemy (cf. VI.10.1). Though detailed, the report is not based on autopsy, since Ptolemy was not personally involved in the attack on the Malli. See, for full discussion, Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 75–83.

received a serious arrow wound when his right chest was penetrated, and his immediate bodyguard were hard put to protect him until the hypaspists stormed the wall and killed every living person. The king came close to death before he was rescued by the surgery of Critobulus of Cos; and the news of his peril caused panic among the rank and file, who had a realistic appreciation of their future in hostile territory with no obvious successor to the command. There were scenes of high emotion when he appeared alive and apparently sound in the base camp. During his convalescence he received the formal submission of the Malli and Oxydracae, and the territory south to the confluence of the Acesines and Indus was consolidated under the satrapal authority of Philip, son of Machatas. The fleet now moved on to Sind, which was proclaimed a satrapy under Peithon, son of Agenor. Many of its peoples had already capitulated. Those who had not, notably Musicanus and Oxycanus, were rapidly terrorized into submission. Revolts, like that of Sambus in the western mountains, were dealt with savagely, and the Brahman ascetics, who inspired and encouraged resistance, received special attention. Musicanus, who revoked his allegiance, was crucified in his capital along with his Brahman advisers. As Alexander approached the southern province of Patalene, the populace fled in terror before his advance, and he found the capital Patala an empty shell. His repression had been all too effective, and he was forced to give guarantees of safety before he could recruit the native labour force he required for his projects. The Indian lands had accepted the fact of conquest but it was a grudging acquiescence which turned into active hostility after Alexander and his army moved west.

VII. THE LAST YEARS, 325–323 B.C.

Patala, which the Macedonians occupied in July 325, was the centre of Alexander's preparations for his return west. Determined now to abandon further conquest in the Indian lands, he had already detached a large part of his army to traverse southern Iran. Three phalanx battalions, the entire complement of elephants and all Macedonian troops considered unfit for active service were placed under Craterus' command and sent directly west over the Bolan Pass to the Helmand valley and from there via Sistan to Carmania.[77] Alexander himself decided to take the much more arduous route along the Makran coast, which he would traverse by land while a fleet, again under Nearchus, was to conduct a detailed reconnaissance of the coast. He was to some degree aware of the dangers of his chosen route and made the most meticulous

[77] Arr. *Anab.* VI.17.3–4 (cf. VI.15.5 with Bosworth 1976 (B 13) 127–9); Strabo XV.2.4; XV.2.11; Justin XII.10.1–2. On the route see Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) II 105–7.

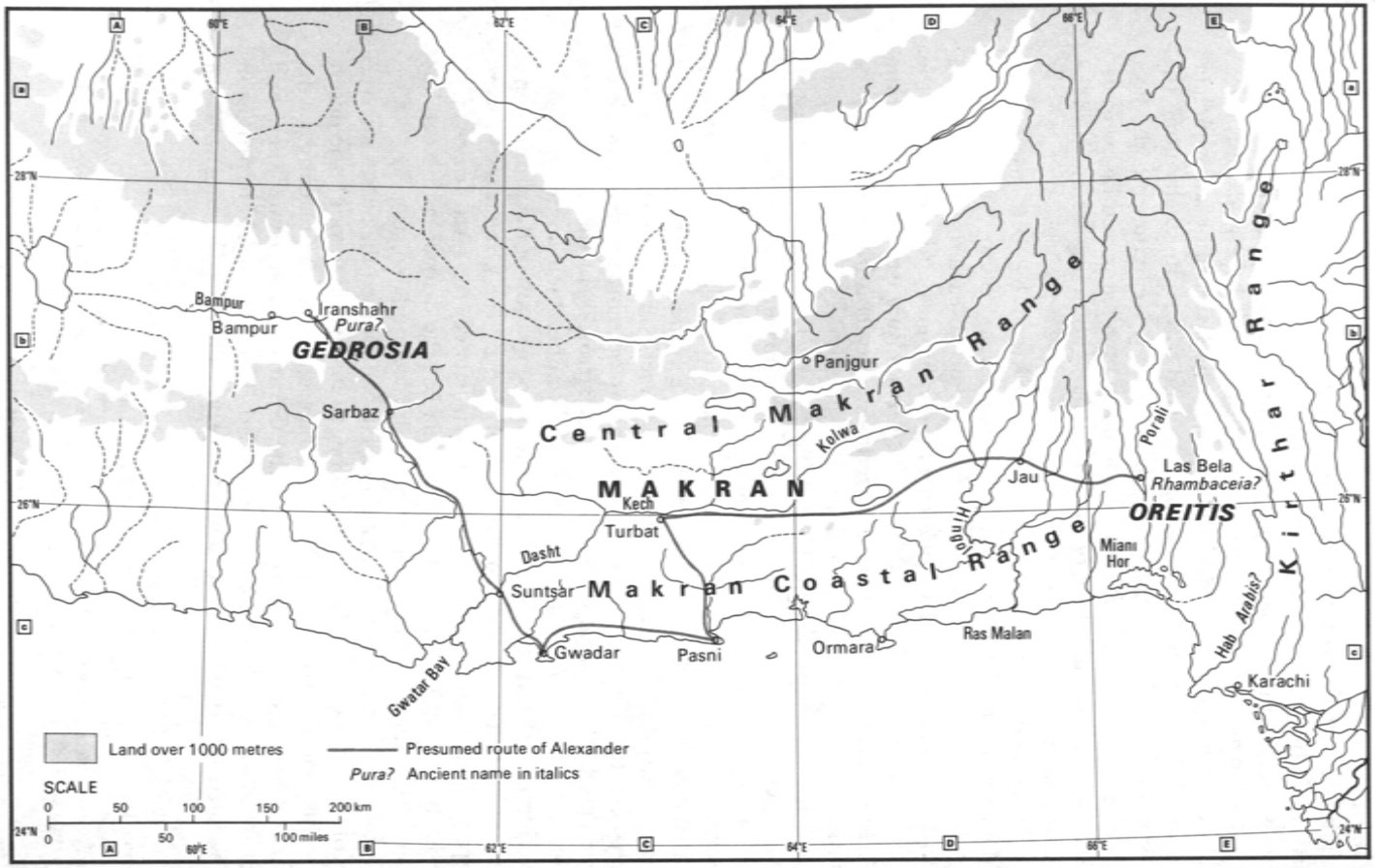
preparations. Patala at the head of the Indus delta became a fortress complete with dockyards; and Alexander painstakingly investigated the two main branches of the river to east and west. His first venture, down the western arm, was plagued by gales and extreme tides, but he reached the Ocean and sacrificed solemnly to Poseidon and the gods of the sea. The eastern arm proved less intractable, with a large saline lake which he turned into a second naval station. His land forces dug wells along the coast and stockpiled grain at Patala to sustain Nearchus and the fleet through the monsoon period. The winds which hampered his progress to the Ocean would intensify and render navigation impossible until the setting of the Pleiades (*c.* 5 November).

Alexander went ahead with the majority of his land forces: the Macedonian troops not included in Craterus' column, the Hellenic mercenaries, the auxiliary cavalry from the north-eastern satrapies and a host of non-combatants – merchants, concubines and children of the camp. They skirted the foothills of the Kirthar Range to the mouth of the Arabis (river Hab), and while a fatigue party continued the work of sinking wells, Alexander went ahead to attack the Oreitae, an independent Indian people domiciled in what is now Las Bela in Baluchistan. Three columns ravaged the plain, and Rhambaceia, the chief village of the area was marked for resettlement as another Alexandria, its rural populace recruited from Arachosia to the north.[78] Offering only a token resistance, the Oreitae surrendered, after a futile attempt to block the passes into the Makran. They were put directly under a satrap, Apollophanes; and a mobile force of Agrianians, archers and mercenaries which remained in Oreitis after Alexander's departure kept the district quiet while the grain harvest matured. In November their commander, the bodyguard Leonnatus, supervised the concentration of the produce in a depot by the coast and crushed an uprising by the Oreitae, who were probably desperate at the loss of their subsistence crop (Arr. *Indike* 23.5). His efforts had secured (if not depopulated) the district, and Nearchus was able to reprovision his fleet from the accumulated supplies.

By then Alexander was long gone. He had crossed the passes into the Kolwa valley early in October and began his march through the desert country of Gedrosia. According to Nearchus he was reacting to the stories that Semiramis and Cyrus the Great had lost armies there and planned to succeed where they had failed.[79] He also wished to provision the fleet, but that was a secondary motive. The provisioning was best

[78] Arr. *Anab.* VI.21.5; Curt. IX.10.7. Cf. Stein 1943 (D 238) 213–16; Engels 1978 (D 172) 138–9; *contra*, Hamilton 1972 (D 188); Seibert 1985 (D 233) 173–4.

[79] Arr. *Anab.* VI.24.2–3; Strabo XV.1.5, XV.2.5. See Strasburger 1982 (A 57) I 458; Badian 1985 (D 142) 471–3. Nearchus' evidence has often been discounted for more 'rational' motives (cf. Kraft 1971 (D 207) 106–18; Engels 1978 (D 172) 110–17).



Map 24. Las Bela and the Makran.

achieved by a small column; the large force he actually led inevitably took the lion's share of the scanty supplies available. There is no obvious reason why he took the main army with its straggle of camp followers, unless (as Nearchus suggests) it was a primary objective in itself. The hardships caused by his ambition were extreme and unnecessary, and they are luridly documented in complementary passages of Arrian and Strabo, which almost certainly derive from Nearchus.[80] But the loss of life may have been largely confined to the non-combatants. There is no evidence of a sudden shortage of troops; the Macedonian infantry at Opis the following summer still numbered 18,000.[81] It is moreover clear that the first stages of the march were relatively well provided for. Alexander commandeered the crops which had grown and matured during the monsoon period (nowadays harvest comes in late October or early November) and the wells and cisterns that existed were full. By the time he reached the oasis of Turbat, some 400 km from Las Bela, Alexander had a surplus of provisions. This was transferred to the coast but consumed in transit by the famished guards. The relatively abundant conditions were only found in the area affected by the rain shadow of the monsoon. In the western Makran the season had been arid, the winter rainfall only beginning in November, and the army was progressively affected by drought and famine as it struggled for seven days along the coast from Pasni and through the Dashtiari plain to the Bampur valley. During the latter stages the baggage animals were slaughtered, and the morale of the troops disintegrated. After sixty days in the Makran it was a rabble that limped into the palace complex of Pura, where an emergency supply of grain was waiting, transported on camel from Sistan. A few days later Alexander pushed west through the Jaz Murian depression to the borders of Carmania, where fresh supplies converged from the central satrapies. That allowed a systematic carouse for seven days, in which the army, consoled by the local food and wine, forgot some of the horrors of the desert.

As he traversed Carmania, Alexander carried through one of the most dramatic police actions of his reign. His absence in India had witnessed an alarming amount of native insurrection, one of which had recently been crushed by Craterus as he passed through Arachosia and Drangiana. There had also been widespread insubordination among the satraps, many of whom had not expected Alexander to return from the east. As a result Astaspes, the incumbent satrap of Carmania, was executed during the seven-day revel. He was followed by the European generals in Media, who had been summoned (probably while Alexander

[80] See particularly Strasburger 1982 (A 57) I 449–70; Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) II 475–6. For the less likely attribution to Aristobulus, see Pearson 1960 (B 90) 178; Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 464.

[81] Bosworth 1986 (D 21) 3–4. Plut. *Alex.* 66.4–5 gives a massively inflated total of casualties.

was still in India) to bring their military forces from Ecbatana to Carmania. On their arrival they were accused by Median notables of offences including sacrilege and rape. Cleander (the brother of Coenus) and Sitalces were arrested and executed, and 600 of their army shared their fate (see below, p.864). At the same time, according to Diodorus, the king sent written instructions to his satraps, demanding that they disband their mercenary forces.[82] That had the effect of breaking up the private armies in the provinces. The troops so demobilized were earmarked for Alexander's service, and in the next eighteen months a vast number of men was conveyed from the outlying satrapies to the central capitals. Many refused to be so conscripted. A considerable number followed the Athenian Leosthenes, who led them from Asia to the great mercenary depot at Taenarum in Laconia (see below, p.859). Others simply became renegades, living off the countryside by force and intimidation. It was a security measure which swelled the royal army at the cost of empire-wide tension and insecurity. An immediate consequence was the flight of the royal treasurer, Harpalus, from Babylon.[83] He was a compatriot of Cleander (from Elimiotis) and had been responsible for the administration of the Median treasury. Whether or not he was implicated in Cleander's machinations, he had certainly lived as a despot in the central satrapies and had reason to fear reprisals. He fled to the west with 5,000 talents and a small army of mercenaries, and in the spring of 324 he impinged dramatically on the Greek mainland (see below, pp.856 ff).

By winter 325/4 Alexander reached the Carmanian capital, some five days journey from the coast. There he held an athletic and musical festival during which he heard of the safe arrival of Nearchus' fleet at Harmozea, the main sea-port of Carmania. If we may believe Nearchus' version of events, he reported in person, after a chequered journey inland, and was welcomed with joy and relief.[84] Despite the lack of provisions on the coast, pressure from hostile Indians in Patalene which drove him prematurely to the ocean and adverse monsoon winds blowing until November, he had taken the fleet practically unscathed along the arid coast, populated by the primitive Fish Eaters. The fleet covered some 1,300 km in around sixty days; and the prevailing south-easterlies, as had been predicted, brought it hungry and intact to Harmozea.[85]

[82] Diod. XVII.106.3, 111.1. See particularly Badian 1961 (D 134) 26–8; Jaschinski 1981 (D 203) 45–61.

[83] The seminal article is Badian 1961 (D 134). See further Seibert 1971 (D 232) 167–9 with Jaschinski 1981 (D 203) 23–44; Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) II.72–7; Ashton 1983 (D 128).

[84] Cf. Pearson 1960 (B 90) 134–5; Badian 1975 (B 9) 160–2.

[85] For bibliography see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 163–5. See particularly Schiwek 1962 (F 55); Eggermont 1975 (D 169) 33–55; Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) II.518–25.

Consequently Nearchus had his commission extended, to explore the coastline between Carmania and Susa. His success may have had far-reaching effects. He had shown the effectiveness of a fleet, even without land support, in reconnoitring a desert coast. Now, it seems, Alexander was inspired to devise almost megalomaniac plans of conquest and exploration which involved the circumnavigation of Africa and the conquest of the southern Mediterranean. While in Carmania he allegedly commissioned the construction of warships in Cilicia and Phoenicia, to be transported in sections to the Euphrates and floated to Babylon. This fleet was to be used for colonization and conquest in the Persian Gulf.[86] Then part of it would diverge to circumnavigate the coast of Africa, while the main army would move north to the Mediterranean coast to expand the empire westwards. The details of these projects are controversial and have aroused much speculation and scepticism; but there is no doubt that the last years of Alexander's reign saw a massive military accumulation. A vast new harbour, built to accommodate 1,000 warships, was ready near Babylon in the spring of 323, and the timber resources of Cilicia and Phoenicia were systematically depleted to provide collapsible vessels which could be transported in segments to the Euphrates for the Arabian campaign. More conventional warships, of quadrireme size and above, were reserved for use in the western offensive. Carthage, which had adversely attracted his attention in 332, was earmarked for conquest, while the fleet proved that the circumnavigation of Africa was feasible. These plans would be refined over the next eighteen months in the light of reconnaissance expeditions in the Persian Gulf, but their nucleus was conceived in Carmania.

From the Carmanian capital Alexander moved directly to Pasargadae, the old capital of Persis, while the baggage train with Hephaestion took a less exacting route closer to the coast. There the incumbent satrap, Orxines, who had usurped the position after the death of Alexander's nominee, Phrasaortes, was received politely but immediately discarded. The tomb of Cyrus the Great at Pasargadae was opened for Alexander's edification and found in a state of dilapidation and disrepair that suggested violation.[87] Orxines was cleared of suspicion on that score, but later, at Persepolis, he was accused of sacrilege and misgovernment and summarily executed. He was of royal lineage and his usurpation of government could not be tolerated. His successor was Macedonian,

[86] Plut. *Alex.* 68.1–2; Curt. X.1.19; Arr. *Anab.* VII.1.1–3. Cf. Diod. XVIII.4.4 for the so-called Last Plans. For discussion see Wilcken 1970 (A 64) II 369–84; Schachermeyr 1954 (D 228); Badian 1968 (D 138); Bosworth 1988 (B 15), 185–211. Contrast the scepticism of Tarn 1948 (D 239) II.378–98; Andreotti 1957 (D 127) 133–40; Kraft 1971 (D 207) 119–27.

[87] Arr. *Anab.* VI.29.4–8; Strabo XV.3.7 (Aristobulus F 51). Cf. Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 46–55.

Peucestas (Alexander's saviour at the Malli town). Although European, he adopted Persian dress, learned the Persian language and by 317 had won the respect and loyalty of his subjects. His orientalism evoked resentment among the Macedonian rank and file and it was not the general fashion, but it helped keep the old Persian heartland tranquil and acquiescent under the new regime.

At Persepolis Alexander was reunited with Hephaestion, and the army took the royal road to Susa, arriving at the capital in March 324. Nearchus was waiting with the ocean fleet, which he had taken up the river system to the vicinity of Susa. Land and sea forces combined in a merry meeting with sacrifices and games. That was the prelude to a more brilliant celebration. Alexander and ninety-one other members of his court took wives from the Persian aristocracy in a five-day ceremony, graced by actors, dancers and musicians recruited from the entire Greek world. The king himself married two royal princesses, the eldest daughter of Darius and the youngest daughter of Artaxerxes III. Hephaestion and Craterus took Drypetis and Amastris, a daughter and niece of Darius. All the bridegrooms received a dowry and all Macedonians who had Asian concubines were paid a gratuity. The weddings echoed the earlier ceremonies in Bactria in 327, but this time the unions were solemnized according to Persian ritual.[88] It was a demonstration that the conquerors had become the ruling class of the Persian empire, and it went hand in hand with the investiture of Hephaestion as chiliarch (Grand Vizier) and the distribution of the Achaemenid court regalia to the Companions. There was not, as has often been suggested, a conscious policy of fusion, a placing of Macedonians and Persians on the same footing. Only a handful of Persians was assimilated into the Macedonian court and army structure, and the character of the satrapal governors was stubbornly European (see below, p.864). The Susa marriages proclaimed the fact that Alexander's nobles were the lords of Asia and would be increasingly identified with the Asian empire. The recipients of his largesse were hardly enthusiastic. They accepted their wives during the king's lifetime, but it was only Seleucus' wife, Apame, who played any dynastic role in the age of the Successors. The rank and file were more dissatisfied, alienated by the increasingly oriental trappings of Alexander's court and threatened by the new levies of recruits from the eastern satrapies. Some 30,000 Iranian youths, trained in Macedonian arms and tactics, had recently converged on Susa. Their drill was impressive, their name (*Epigoni*) ominous, suggesting that they

[88] Arr. *Anab.* VII.4.1–8; Plut. *Alex.* 70.3; Diod. XVII.107.6; Justin XII.10.9–10. Chares (F 4 = Athen. 538B) gave a particularly vivid eye-witness description. For a review of the problems see Bosworth 1980 (D 155), arguing against the 'policy of fusion' expounded in German scholarship (cf. Berve 1938 (D 147); Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 479–87).

might replace the traditional Macedonian phalanx.[89] The Macedonian infantry was now profoundly disenchanted, and complaints were bitter and vocal.

The unrest reached its climax in the summer of 324. Alexander first took a select body of troops down the river Karun to the ocean and then cut across to the mouth of the Tigris, where he founded another Alexandria, at the later site of Spasinou Charax. From there he moved upstream, demolishing the system of artificial cataracts that closed the river to navigation and preparing the way for his fleet to launch its offensive into the Persian Gulf. By midsummer the army had reached Opis, on the middle reaches of the Tigris. Here the discontent erupted into near mutiny. Alexander had announced the repatriation of all Macedonians unfit for service and their ultimate replacement by fresh blood from Macedon.[90] The effect was galvanic. All the troops, whether retained or discharged, joined in a general demand for repatriation, which was coupled with outright abuse – let Alexander continue the campaign with his father, Ammon. This time the king was determined to assert his royal authority and redress the debacle at the Hyphasis. He executed the ringleaders, subjected the rest to an angry harangue and declared roundly that, if they deserted him, he would turn to the conquered peoples.[91] Secluded in the palace, he received selected Persians to offer them commands and announced the transfer of Macedonian military titles to Persian units. At this all resistance was broken. The Macedonians sued for forgiveness in the most abject terms and Alexander accepted their homage magnanimously. There followed a great banquet of reconciliation, attended by 9,000 guests, and, duly surrounded by his Macedonians, he prayed solemnly for 'concord and community in empire for Macedonians and Persians'.[92] That was a formal announcement that the time of tension was over; in future the two peoples should coexist peacefully, fighting side by side in the grand army.

The demobilization now took place. Ten thousand veterans received their gratuities and were placed under Craterus' leadership. Their destination was first Cilicia, to supervise the construction of the armada for the west, and then Macedon. Craterus was to replace Antipater as regent in Europe, while Antipater led an army of prime recruits into

[89] Arr. *Anab.* VII.6.1; Diod. XVII.108.1–3; Curt. VIII.5.1; Plut. *Alex.* 71.1. Cf. Briant 1982 (F 10) 30–9; Bosworth 1980 (D 155) 17.

[90] Arr. *Anab.* VII.8.1; Plut. *Alex.* 71.2–9; Diod. XVII.109.2–3; Curt. X.2.8–30; Justin XII.11. Cf. Wüst 1953–4 (D 250); Badian 1965 (D 135).

[91] Speeches are given by Arrian (VII.9–10) and Curtius (X.2.15ff). On the question of authenticity see Wüst 1953–4 (D 251); Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 101–13.

[92] Arr. *Anab.* VII.11.8–9. For criticism of the more extreme interpretations of the prayer (in particular the views of Tarn) see Andreotti 1956 (D 126) and Badian 1958 (D 131).

Asia.[93] Antipater's supersession was the climax of a period of tension during which he had been virulently attacked by Alexander's mother and sister and had withheld reinforcements from Alexander (whether by policy or by necessity we cannot say). Relations had certainly soured. Antipater's eldest son, Cassander, was treated with brutal ferocity when he came to court to represent his father, and the relations between king and regent had deteriorated to the extent that, when Alexander died, it was immediately rumoured that Antipater had had him poisoned.[94] The crisis did not mature, since Craterus was (quite legitimately) delayed in Cilicia and did not challenge Antipater for his position, but there was deep uncertainty which must have cast an ominous shadow on Alexander's last transactions.

From Opis the army moved from Mesopotamia to spend the autumn at Ecbatana, the summer capital of the Persian Kings. That was the scene of protracted celebrations; Atropates, the satrap of Media, was careful to see that the court lacked nothing. At this point war with Athens seemed inevitable after the city's reception of Harpalus (see below, p.857) and there were extravagant promises of armaments for the anticipated campaign[95] – which came to nothing after Harpalus' arrest and escape. The war fever encouraged wild drinking, and the royal favourite, Hephaestion, fell ill during the symposia and died after seven days of fever. The shock seems to have affected Alexander's mental balance. His grief was Homeric in its extravagance, with a three-day fast over the corpse. Hephaestion himself received a heroic cult, and his mortal remains were to be conveyed to Babylon, to be deposited on a colossal funerary monument, a vast brick cube some 70 metres high. Its base was to be surrounded by the gilded prows of quinqueremes, its walls decorated by friezes. This monstrosity was never completed – it was quashed after Alexander's death by the Macedonian army, along with other architectural follies.[96] But it was seriously planned and craftsmen had been summoned from the entire civilized world. The measure of Alexander's grief was extravagantly superhuman.

The winter brought a fresh campaign, against the independent Cossaeans of the Zagros. Alexander invaded their territory with his army divided into columns and forced some at least of the tribes into

[93] Arr. *Anab.* VII.12.1–4; Justin XII.12.7–10. For Craterus' commission in Cilicia see Diod. XVIII.4.1, 12.1 (with Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 207–11), and on the deterioration of relations with Olympias Arr. *Anab.* VII.12.5–7; Plut. *Mor.* 180E, *Alex.* 68.4–5.

[94] On this tradition see Bosworth 1971 (D 152) 113–16; 1980 (B 15) 175–6; Merkelbach 1977 (B 75) 164–92.

[95] Ephippus, *FGrH* 126 F 5 (Athen. 538 A-B). For a defence of the tradition (against (e.g.) Pearson 1960 (B 90) 64–5; Errington 1975 (C 360) 54–5) see Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 169–93.

[96] Diod. XVII.115.1–5; Plut. *Alex.* 72.5; Arr. *Anab.* VII.14.8; Justin XII.12.12 (cf. Wüst 1959 (D 252)). For the quashing of the project see Diod. XVIII.4.2, with Badian 1968 (D 138); Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 202–7.

submission. Military settlements were imposed here, as in Sogdiana and India, with a reluctant agrarian population of Cossaeans, transformed by royal edict from pastoralists to tillers of the soil.[97] By 317, when they re-emerge in history, the Cossaeans had reverted to their old lifestyle (Diod. XIX.19.2–8); the effects of Alexander's invasion were evidently ephemeral. There was also intense diplomatic activity. As he advanced on Babylon Alexander was approached by a host of embassies from the west. On his way into the plain he received overtures from Libyans, Bruttians, Lucanians and Etruscans, all peoples likely to be affected by his projected conquests in the Mediterranean. At Babylon itself there were representations from mainland Greece, from the cities immediately affected by the Exiles' Decree (see below, p.855), as well as Carthage and the northern Balkans.[98] All had their interests to defend, particularly Carthage which was threatened with immediate invasion, the European Scyths who had crushed an expedition by the Macedonian general, Zopyrion (*c.*326), and the Odrysian Thracians who had rebelled and reconstituted their traditional monarchy. It seems that the delegations which submitted and sent tokens of submission were received favourably. Those with objections were placed firmly at the bottom of the list. Alexander was not interested in compromise, and there was no suggestion that he would cancel, let alone defer, his plans of conquest. What he required was unqualified obedience to his will.

The native astrologers warned him against entering Babylon and, according to Aristobulus (F 54), he followed their advice, attempting to make a detour by way of the north and east of the city. He was obstructed by marshland and finally approached Babylon by the regular entrance. It was a mysterious episode which was later interpreted as a portent of death, while Ptolemy (Arr. *Anab.* VII.17.1–4), perhaps rightly, suggested that the Babylonian priesthood had its own corrupt motives for denying access to the capital. Once there Alexander began work clearing the ground for the reconstruction of Esagila (and also for Hephaestion's monument). But his major concern was the forthcoming invasion of Arabia. He had already sent reconnoitring expeditions under Archias, Androsthenes and Hieron of Soli, which visited the islands of Icarus (Failaka) and Tylus (Bahrain) and penetrated as far as the Musandam peninsula. The favourable reports fuelled his determination to conquer and colonize the western shore of the Persian Gulf, a plan that ultimately

[97] Arr. *Anab.* VII.15.1–3; (Ptolemy); *Indike* 40.8 (Nearchus); Diod. XVII.111.6; Plut. *Alex.* 72.4. Cf. Briant 1982 (F 10) 57ff.

[98] Arr. *Anab.* VII.15.4–6; Diod. XVII.113.1–4. On these embassies see now Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 83–93. The Roman embassy recorded by Cleitarchus (*FGrH* 137 F 31) is probably authentic (cf. Schachermeyr 1970 (D 230) 218–23; Weippert 1972 (D 242) 1–10) but was insignificant at the time, perhaps a late arrival (Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 90). The episode later acquired considerable propaganda value.

saw fruition in the Seleucid foundation on Failaka.[99] He was also intent on conquering the legendary spice lands, giving the pretext that the Arabs had paid him no act of homage. Aristobulus adds, perhaps correctly, that he intended to guarantee their autonomy (under his sovereignty) and win acceptance as the third god in the Arabian pantheon.[100] This campaign, which was expected to subjugate the entire Arabian peninsula, at least round to the Yemen, was planned on a vast scale. Alexander would take the first wave from Babylon, but there would be subsequent fleets to help occupy and secure the conquests. Miccalus of Clazomenae recruited seamen, both slave and free, to man the ships which would gather in the great new harbour at Babylon (Arr. *Anab.* VII.19.4–5). This was the first stage of the western plans. Later stages were already in prospect, and Heraclides of Argos was commissioned to build a war fleet on the Caspian and determine finally whether it was a gulf of Ocean or an affluent of the Black Sea (Arr. VII.16.1–2) – necessary knowledge if Alexander was to link his European domains with the north east of his Asian empire (see above, p.823).

While his invasion fleet was massing, Alexander was active on the Euphrates, ensuring that the river and its major canals were navigable, and planning the last of his Alexandrias near the ocean. When he returned to Babylon, he found massive native levies from Persis and the Zagros highlands, levies which he amalgamated with the remnants of his Macedonian phalanx to create a strange composite entity: three ranks of Macedonians at the front and one at the rear enclosed twelve ranks of Persians, armed with their native bows and javelins. It eked out the scanty reserves of Macedonian infantry and created a massed, variegated phalanx which would be more than a match for the lightly armed Arabs. But the experiment was never tested in the field. The welcome news from Siwah that the hero cult of Hephaestion had been approved by Ammon was the trigger for prolonged festivities. The royal symposium was prolonged into a private party hosted by Medius of Larissa. The drinking there was prodigious; and, according to the *Ephemerides*, the day to day account edited by the chief secretary, Eumenes of Cardia, Alexander had developed a fever by the time it ended.[101] The fever intensified over ten days and the king finally sank into a coma. Before the

[99] Arr. VII.20.3–8. Cf. Jeppesen 1960 (B 147); Roueché and Sherwin-White 1985 (B 173) (on Failaka).

[100] Arr. *Anab.* VII.20.1; Strabo XVI.1.11. See Högemann 1985 (D 198) esp. 120–35.

[101] Arr. *Anab.* VII.25.1; Plut. *Alex.* 76.1 (*FGrH* 117 F 3). On the composition of this document and its apologetic nature see Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 157–84 (with full citation of literature). For the more traditional view, that the Ephemerides were an 'official' court journal, available for the entire reign, see (e.g.) Kaerst, RE V.2749ff; Berve 1926 (D 146) I.50–1; Hammond 1983 (B 57) 4–11. The vulgate tradition is more sensational and gave rise to allegations of poisoning (Diod. XVII.117.1–3; Justin XII.13.7–10; Plut. *Alex.*75.5, Arr. VII.27.2; Ephippus, *FGrH* 126 F 3: cf. Merkelbach 1977 (B 75) 164ff).

end his troops solemnly filed past his bedside, and on the following day, 28 Daesios (10 June) by the Macedonian calendar, death supervened. The exact cause will never be known. The attested symptoms are consistent with a malarial attack, possibly assisted by the regular and epic carouses at court symposia. Foul play was inevitably insinuated, and allegations of poisoning, directed at Antipater's family and the guests at Medius' banquet, were rife within a year of the king's death.[102] It is not impossible, but proof is totally beyond our grasp.

Alexander died after a reign of twelve years and eight months, leaving a pregnant wife, a coterie of rival marshals and no designated heir. His apocryphal prophecy of a great funeral contest over his body would have been amply justified. His body in fact became a catalyst for civil war and separatist ambition. At Babylon it was first decided to send it to Siwah (as Alexander himself may have requested),[103] but there was a delay of nearly two years while an elaborate (and colossally expensive) funeral carriage was built.[104] When the cortège eventually left Babylon, its destination was the royal burial ground at Aegae (Paus. 1.6.3), but Ptolemy was able to intercept it in Syria and divert the body to Egypt, as a first stage to the fulfilment of the original plan.[105] That provoked Perdiccas' fateful invasion of Egypt which resulted in his defeat and assassination and the transference of the regency to Antipater. Ptolemy remained plenipotentiary in Egypt, satrap in name but monarch in reality. The body of Alexander was installed first at Memphis and ultimately at Alexandria, where it stood on display in a gold sarcophagus, housed in a special mausoleum (the *sema*) and venerated as the talisman of Ptolemaic monarchy. The dead Alexander had come to symbolize the dismemberment of his own life's work.

[102] [Plut.] Mor. 849F; cf. Onesicritus, *FGrH* 134 F 37. See fully Bosworth 1971 (D 152) 113–16.

[103] Diod. XVIII.3.5, 28.3; Justin XIII.4.6; Curt. X.5.4; cf. Badian 1968 (D 138) 185–9; *contra*, Hornblower 1981 (B 60) 90–2.

[104] Diod. XVIII.26.1–28.2; cf. Miller 1986 (D 215).

[105] Arr. *Successors* F1.25, 24.1 (Roos); Diod. XVIII.28.3; Strabo XVII.1.8. See further *CAH* VII.1, 35–6.

CHAPTER 17

ALEXANDER THE GREAT PART 2: GREECE AND THE CONQUERED TERRITORIES

A. B. BOSWORTH

A. MAINLAND GREECE IN ALEXANDER'S REIGN

I. THE DOMINANCE OF THE CORINTHIAN LEAGUE, 336–330 B.C.

During Alexander's reign the Greek world was controlled by the political system established after Chaeronea, which modern scholars have conveniently labelled the Corinthian League.[1] This was primarily an alliance under the leadership of the Macedonian king, in which all states which had individual treaties with Macedon were organized in a single structure, directed to the war against Persia. The corollary of alliance was peace. All contracting states committed themselves to a wide-ranging common peace, affirming freedom and autonomy for all and renouncing subversion of any participating government. The implementation of these two general aims was in the hands of a council (*synedrion*) to which all states in the alliance sent representatives. The council made general enactments about the war, prohibiting service under the Persian King, and it policed the common peace, with the ultimate power to declare war against any transgressor, a war in which all contracting states were obliged by oath to participate. It might even act as a court of arbitration, ruling on disputes between member states before they endangered the peace (Tod no. 179). But the executive power was vested in the *hegemon*, the Macedonian king whose monarchy all states were bound to uphold. Inevitably the system would be geared to Macedonian interests. Sympathetic regimes could expect the support of the *synedrion*, whereas, if a state antagonistic to the Macedonian king suffered a change of government, it was unlikely that complaints would be effectively voiced. At democratic Pellene the famous wrestler, Chaeron, was established in power, exiling his opponents with the connivance of the Macedonian general in the Peloponnese;[2] and at Athens the law of Eucrates, passed in the early summer of 336, explicitly

[1] For bibliography and discussion see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 76–7; Hammond and Griffith 1979 (D 50) II 604–46. The position adopted in the text is more fully documented in Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 46–9. [2] [Dem.] XVII. 10; Paus. VII. 27. 7; Athen. 509 B. Cf. Berve 1926 (D 146) II no. 818.

prohibited all attempts to subvert the democracy.[3] There was evidently little faith in the guarantees of the common peace.

Our evidence for the operation of the peace is admittedly one-sided, based largely on a fiery speech in the Demosthenic corpus (XVII) which indicts the Macedonians for systematic abuse of the treaty. It was probably delivered in 331[4] and may be the work of Hyperides: and it is clearly biased and exaggerated. But in one respect it can be checked. The speaker complains that the regime of the tyrants of Antissa and Eresus (in Lesbos) had been terminated as an abomination even though it was underwritten by the common peace. That statement is illustrated by an extensive dossier from Eresus which deals with the fate of various oligarchic juntas, notably that of Agonippus and Eurysilaus which had aligned itself with Philip and erected altars to Zeus Philippios. In 333, during the island war (see above, p.804), the junta invited Persian forces into the city and collaborated against Alexander. Consequently, when the city was recaptured in 332, the oligarchy was transformed into democracy, and the newly sovereign *demos* (on instructions from Alexander) tried and condemned the previous oligarchical leaders. The king operated directly, without apparent consultation of the *synedrion*, and tampered with the political structure as he saw fit.[5] The same applied at Chios, where Alexander established a democracy and set up a committee of legislators to remove any obstacle to the new constitution. The *synedrion* of allies is only mentioned as a court, which would try delinquent oligarchs.[6] It had no say in the constitutional changes. In the war situation (as one would expect) Alexander made unilateral rulings which suited his long-term military ends. The fact that they were technical violations of the common peace was immaterial.

It was evident from the beginning of Alexander's reign that a large number of the league members were reluctant allies. Philip's assassination provoked open breaches of the treaty. Athens attempted to enlist other cities in the cause of freedom and opened negotiations with Attalus in Asia; and there was agitation in Thebes and the Peloponnese. In the west the Aetolians reconstituted their federal organization,[7] while in Ambracia the Macedonian garrison was expelled and democracy restored (Diod. XVII.3.3). This first spate of unrest was contained by rapid

[3] *SEG* XII 87. Cf. Ostwald 1955 (C 213) 119–28; Sealey 1967 (C 255) 183–5; Will 1983 (D 245) 28–30.

[4] Cawkwell 1961 (D 165). For other suggestions see Will 1982 (B 132); 1983 (D 245) 28–30; Culasso Gastaldi 1984 (B 32).

[5] [Dem.] XVII.7; Tod no. 191 = Harding no. 112 (cf. Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 27–78; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 178–80).

[6] Tod no. 192 = Harding no. 107 (cf. Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 79–95). For the ultimate fate of the oligarchs see Arr. *Anab.* III.2.7.

[7] Diod. XVII.3.3; Arr. *Anab.* I.10.2; cf. Bosworth 1976 (D 20)

action on Alexander's part. At the head of his army he invaded Thessaly and with the help of skilful propaganda secured election as *hegemon* of the common peace. The scenario was repeated in central Greece, where the Amphictyonic Council gave its recognition to the new king, and in Corinth the *synedrion* formally confirmed him in the office created by Philip – leader in the war against Persia (and simultaneously chief executive officer of the common peace). The Athenians had already renewed their alliance, and their embassy, diplomatically deserted by Demosthenes, was graciously received. Alexander was now universally confirmed in his father's position.

Consent was not universal, as was dramatically revealed in 335, when Alexander's prolonged absence in the north (see above, p.795) gave rise to speculation that he had been killed. At Thebes the rumour led to insurrection, as a group of exiles entered the city by night and inaugurated revolution. The oligarchy imposed by Philip was overthrown and the Thebans laid siege to the Macedonian garrison on the Cadmea. The revolutionary mood was infectious. At Athens the *demos*, encouraged by Demosthenes and Lycurgus, voted assistance and sent funds (but not troops) which enabled the Thebans to mobilize their entire citizen body. The Arcadian League even sent an expeditionary force to the Isthmus, where it remained passively awaiting events (Din. 1.18–21). In the event Alexander's lightning march south prevented the disaffection spreading. The Arcadians left the Isthmus and the Thebans were isolated. Even so they resisted Alexander's overtures, inverting the conventional propaganda and appealing to all mankind to join them and the Persian King in destroying the tyrant of Greece (Diod. XVII.9.5). That sealed their fate. The city was stormed and destroyed (see above, p.797). The survivors were enslaved on the verdict of an *ad hoc* council of allies present with Alexander,[8] and the judges solemnly took vengeance for Thebes' medism in 480. Performed by proxy and represented as an act of piety, the destruction of Thebes was calculated terrorism. As such it was immediately efficacious. The sedition in Elis, Arcadia and Aetolia ended abruptly, while the Athenians abandoned the celebration of the Great Mysteries and evacuated their countryside. An Athenian embassy was roughly treated. Alexander demanded the surrender of eight prominent statesmen and generals, including Demosthenes, Lycurgus and the distinguished general Charidemus.[9] That provoked a passionate debate at Athens, with the veteran general Phocion arguing for submission. Eventually (perhaps with Macedonian collusion) a compromise motion was passed, offering to punish the men demanded – if they

[8] Arr. *Anab.* 1.9.9; Justin XI.3.8; *contra*, Diod. XVII.14.1. Cf. Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 89–90.

[9] Plut. *Dem.* 23.4 (there are other, interpolated lists in Arr. *Anab.* 1.10.4; Plut. *Phoc.* 17.2 and the 'Suda' s.v. *Αντίπατρος*). Cf. Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 92–5; Will 1983 (D 245) 43–7.

deserved punishment. That was sufficient. Alexander accepted the proposal, insisting only that Charidemus be exiled. Otherwise the Athenian statesmen were untouched. The city resumed its symmachical obligations and supported Alexander in his renewal of the traditional crusade against Persia.

In 334 Alexander crossed the Hellespont to begin his campaign. With him were 7,000 infantry and 600 cavalry from his Greek allies in discharge of their treaty obligations, which had been promulgated by Philip (Plut. *Phoc.*16.4). They were an effective pool of hostages, an implicit sanction against unrest. There was also the machinery of the common peace, confirmed and reinforced by the campaigns of 336 and 335. The *hegemon* moved into Asia, leaving Antipater as his deputy for European affairs. His command, as defined for Craterus, his nominated successor (Arr. *Anab.* VII.12.4), covered Macedonia, Thrace and Thessaly and involved protection of the freedom of the Hellenes. As regards Macedonia and its annexes, Antipater was apparently plenipotentiary. He acted as regent with the king's power of command, and the general of Thrace was directly subordinate to him. Accordingly we find him levying troops in his own right and dispatching reinforcements to the royal army in Asia (his reluctance to send native Macedonians led to friction with Alexander later in the reign). There is a strong possibility that his command was extended to Epirus after the death of King Alexander in Italy, his writ extending as far north as the Ceraunian Mountains.[10] In Greece proper Antipater deputized for his king as president of the *synedrion* of the Corinthian League, and he exercised effective control of its mechanisms. As a matter of course he commanded the allied forces which crushed the Spartan offensive against his Peloponnesian allies (see below, pp.854 f) and he formally committed the question of reprisals to debate by the *synedrion*. He might also act on his own initiative. In 333 we find a certain Proteas operating from Chalcis with instructions from Antipater to raise a fleet to protect the Cyclades against Persian attack (Arr. *Anab.* II.2.4–5). His activities could be less benign. Together with the garrison commanders in southern Greece[11] he could foment revolution in cities which were unsympathetic to Macedonian hegemony, secure from effective opposition in the *synedrion*. Alexander commissioned him to apply force to the cities which resisted the Exiles' Decree (Diod. XVIII.8.4; see below, p.855), knowing that he had the political and military resources to constrain recalcitrants.

[10] Dexippus *FGrH*100 F 8 (3); Arr. *Succ.* F 1.7 (Roos); cf. Plut. *Phoc.* 29.4. For a somewhat different view of Antipater's position see Hammond 1967 (E 72) 558–9 (modifications in Hammond 1980 (D 190) 471–6).

[11] They were presumably 'the people placed over the common defence', referred to in passing by [Dem.] XVII.15. For other, more elaborate, explanations see Hammond and Griffith 1979 (D 50) II 639–42; Culasso Gastaldi 1984 (B 32) 67–72.

Antipater had regal power in every sense, and his regency in Alexander's reign enabled him to create a dynasty. Not surprisingly, his powers and his exercise of them earned him the jealousy and lasting enmity of the formidable women of the court, Alexander's mother and sister; and Olympias at least used her native Epirus as a refuge, undermining the authority of Antipater as far as she was able. Alexander himself may have later regretted the complex of powers he had vested in his regent (see above, p.842), but in the context of 334 there was little alternative. The senior statesman of Philip's reign became supreme in Europe. That solved the immediate problems of security, internal and external. The future problems posed by Alexander's over-mighty subject could be dealt with when (and if) they arose.

Of the old city states of Greece Athens was the most powerful and the most volatile. During Alexander's reign she achieved a peak of material prosperity and her military potential became formidable. That was largely due to the financial administration, controlled over twelve continuous years by the Eteobutad aristocrat, Lycurgus son of Lycophron. Much is obscure about the nature of his office, and the evidence is often ambiguous. In practice Lycurgus controlled the finances of Athens, operating with the existing financial organs, the theoric commission and the stratiotic fund but directing the surplus as he considered proper. In effect he had inherited the role of the theoric commission in the previous generation, perhaps as a result of the legislation of Hegemon which restricted the powers of the theoric officials. From (probably) 336 to his death in 325/4 Lycurgus was the financial overlord,[12] serving in his own right for the statutory limit of five years and then operating through various proxies, whom he effectively controlled. One of them, Xenocles of Sphettus, is attested in office during the period.[13]

The revenues distributed were enormous. The total sums handled by Lycurgus were estimated in antiquity between 14,000 and 18,900 talents, and the annual revenues during his administration are said to have been 1,200 talents, triple the income in 346. This vast increase is attributed to Lycurgus' initiative, and there is some evidence of his efforts to secure the bases of indirect taxation. Metics and foreign traders were attracted to the city by favourable legislation (Tod no. 189 = Harding no. 111), and in this period the Athenians were prepared to establish a colony in the Adriatic with the explicit aim of securing commerce (Tod no. 200 = Harding no. 121 lines 217–20). Increased commerce brought increased

[12] [Plut.] *Mor.* 841B–C; 852 B (based on the decree of Stratocles, which survives in part as *IG* II² 457). The dating here preferred is argued by Cawkwell 1963 (C 107) 54–5 and Rhodes 1981 (B 94) 515–17. For the more traditional dating of 338–326 see Mitchel 1970 (C 203) 12; Will 1983 (D 245) 22–4.

[13] [Plut.] *Mor.* 841C. For Xenocles see Meritt 1960 (B 155) 2–4, no.3; Mitchel 1970 (C 203) 29.

harbour and sales taxes, as well as the standard *metoikion* paid by aliens who opted to reside in Athens. The legislation also helped create goodwill, which was invaluable during the great famine of the 320s when imported grain was at a premium. Then the *demos* might intervene politically to secure the business interests of favoured aliens like Heraclides of Salamis (*IG* II^2.360), and piracy was discouraged by military force (*IG* II^2.1623, lines 276–308). In Attica itself the exploitation of the silver mines continued to be carefully policed, and the income from the estates of convicted delinquents was distributed among the *demos*.[14] Indeed the revenue from successful prosecutions may not have been an inconsiderable factor during this period; there are contemporary allegations of malicious accusations (by Lycurgus among others), motivated primarily by the wealth of the defendants. The sources of public income were multifarious and complex, but the sums involved were impressively large.

Expenditure is a simpler matter. Under Lycurgus' administration there was a planned military build-up. By 330/29 the inventories of the naval curators record a total of 392 triremes, most of them allegedly in battle readiness ([Plut.] *Mor.* 852C). The quadriremes, which were increasingly in vogue in the eastern Mediterranean, reached a total of fifty in 325/4,[15] while the triremes declined from 392 to 360. At the same time the new arsenal and dockyards were brought to completion, and the navy was superbly housed. The *ephebeia* was also reorganized. From 336/5 service became compulsory for all Athenians in the two years after their reception into the citizen body.[16] Subsidized by the state and armed at public expense, they were trained intensively in their first year, then delegated to frontier service. There was a deeply patriotic streak to the training, symbolized in the ephebic oath (Tod no. 204 = Harding no. 109), and the system of tribal messes inculcated an ethos of solidarity. The *demos* as a whole profited from a programme of public architecture, which affected all the main civic institutions: the theatre of Dionysus was rebuilt and extended, and there was new construction on the Pnyx, the council complex and the law courts. The younger population enjoyed the wrestling school and gymnasium in the Lyceum.[17]

There was a good deal of political motivation behind this expenditure. Athens was prepared for war but was not involved in war; and the *demos* had a positive inducement to avoid military adventures. Distributions from the theoric fund, the so-called cement of democracy, were sometimes substantial (Plut. *Mor.* 818E), and there were *ad hoc* donatives,

[14] [Plut.] *Mor.* 843D. Cf. Hyper. *Eux.* 35–6.

[15] *IG* II^2 1629, line 811. Cf. Schmitt 1974 (C 248); Ashton 1977 (D 9) 3–7, 1979 (C 91).

[16] Reinmuth 1971 (B 168): cf. Mitchel 1975 (C 204); Ruschenbusch 1979 (C 236).

[17] Full details and references in Will 1983 (D 245) 79–93.

like the 160 talents which accrued from the condemnation of Diphilus ([Plut.] *Mor.* 843D). This was a deterrent against frivolous adventures, which would jeopardize the public largesse; and the traditional sentiment of the propertied classes continued to be averse to war. That was so even after the death of Alexander, when the ground swell of popular feeling against Macedon was countered by the men of property (Diod. XVII.10.1). This group included the veteran general Phocion and his associates, all of whom had a pressing interest to avoid the capital expenses of a major war. That reluctance would have been still more evident during Alexander's lifetime. There were also individual contacts with Macedon and the royal court. The ties of *proxenia* were as strong in that respect as they were with members of city states. Accordingly Demades moved the conferment of honorary citizenship and *proxenia* upon prominent Macedonians, including Alcimachus and Antipater, while Phocion had close contacts with Harpalus and Alexander himself. Even Demosthenes made overtures to Hephaestion (cf. Aeschin. III.162). These contacts were important. Hostile critics could malign them as treasonable, but in practice, once war came, there was almost complete solidarity. Pytheas and Callimedon were the only Athenians to desert their city in 323 (Plut. *Dem.* 27.2), and their desertion was not apparently motivated by Macedonian sympathies. But on the other hand, while peace subsisted, the personal contacts had a moderating influence, and Phocion's political caution may well have been influenced by his contacts with court.

By and large the prevailing mood at Athens was pacific, particularly after the destruction of Thebes. Individual politicians might argue for military intervention in specific crises, but until the promulgation of the Exiles' Decree (see below, p.856) the material interests of the *demos* were not threatened and there was no general will for war. The principal centre of opposition after 335 was Sparta. That city had acquiesced perforce when Philip invaded Laconia after Chaeronea and annexed her border territories (see above, p.783). But, despite the coercion, Sparta kept aloof from the Corinthian League and took no part in the war of revenge, much to the chagrin of Alexander who pointedly commemorated her abstention in his first victory dedication (Arr. *Anab.* I.16.7; Plut. *Alex.* 16.18). Her ambition was to regain the lost territories, the Laconian borderlands and ultimately Messenia, and that was totally incompatible with the common peace, which guaranteed Messenian autonomy. Conflict with the ruling power was therefore inevitable.

At first the Spartans needed time to recover from the demoralization of Philip's invasion and the death in Italy of the veteran king Archidamus. Under the monarchy of Agis (the Agiad king, Cleomenes II, reigned for sixty years and ten months and left no other trace on the

historical record) they maintained a diplomatic neutrality in the troubles of 336 and 335. The success of the Persian offensive in the Aegean offered the opportunity of more radical action, and in 333 the Spartans sent an envoy to the Persian court.[18] By the end of the campaigning year King Agis had conferred with the Persian admirals at Siphnos, soliciting military and financial support for war in the Peloponnese (Arr. *Anab.* II.13.4). The news of the Macedonian victory at Issus aborted those immediate plans, Agis received minimal assistance (30 talents and ten triremes) and instructed his brother Agesilaus to begin operations not in the Peloponnese but in Crete. That was a useful arena in which to deploy and acquire mercenary forces. The Cretan cities were not apparently signatories to the Corinthian League, and they had been involved in internecine war for decades. Like his father Archidamus (Diod. XVI.62.4) Agis probably intervened in the interests of Lyttus, which claimed to be a Spartan colony, and attacked Cnossus, exploiting the endemic hatred between the two states. In 332 the Spartan forces were joined by some 8,000 Greek refugees from Darius' army at Issus (Curt. IV.1.39; Diod. XVII.48.1), and the remnants of the Persian fleet in the Aegean eventually regrouped in Crete. This combined army held at bay Macedonian forces sent to help the other side, and by the end of the summer it controlled the greater part of the island. By the spring of 331 Alexander himself was sufficiently worried to send a large naval squadron under Amphoterus with orders to clear Crete of the hostile Spartan presence and simultaneously strengthen Macedonian allies in the Peloponnese who were in danger of subversion. He did not formally declare war upon Sparta, hoping to isolate her and destroy the base in Crete.[19]

The mission of Amphoterus came too late. War broke out in the Peloponnese during the summer of 331, a peculiarly propitious time for Agis.[20] The military reserves of Macedon had been depleted by the recruiting of Amyntas (see above, p.815) which had taken 6,000 infantry from Macedonia and 4,000 mercenaries from the Peloponnese. At roughly the same time Antipater was distracted by a mysterious revolt in Thrace which engaged his entire army (Diod. XVII.62.6).[21] Seizing the opportunity the Spartan government declared itself for liberty and

[18] Arr. *Anab.* II.15.2–5; Curt. III.13.15. On the complex source problem see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 233–4; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 261–2.

[19] Arr. *Anab.* III.6.3; Curt. IV.8.15; cf. Bosworth 1975 (D 153); Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 484–5.

[20] The chronology is difficult, but there is a growing tendency to date the end of the war to spring 330, in the light of Aeschin. III.133 (see below, p.854): cf. Cawkwell 1969 (C 108) 170–3; Bosworth 1975 (D 153); Badian 1985 (D 142) 446–7. The other view, based on Curtius' unacceptable synchronism of the end of the war with the battle of Gaugamela (Curt. VI.1.21), is less tenable. For bibliography see Will 1983 (D 245) 76–7.

[21] Cf. Berve 1926 (D 146) 2 no. 499; Badian 1967 (C 277) 179–80; Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 201.

appealed for help throughout Greece, while Agis transferred his mercenary army from Crete and began operations in the Peloponnese. A Macedonian general, Corrhagus, was defeated and allies rapidly accrued. Elis, unstable under a Macedonian-backed oligarchy, expelled its government and joined Sparta, as did the Achaean League (Pellene excepted) and all the Arcadian cities but Megalopolis. The alliance mustered a formidable army, 20,000 infantry and 2,000 cavalry, with a large proportion of battle-hardened mercenaries, and it soon controlled the majority of the Peloponnese. By autumn Agis had laid siege to Megalopolis and inaugurated the recovery of the lost territories.

The movement, as it transpired, was confined to the Peloponnese. At Athens the Spartan embassies proved ineffectual. There was certainly a mood for war, expressed trenchantly in the speech on the treaty with Alexander ([Dem.] XVII) which was most probably delivered at this time. That uncompromising call to arms was resisted by many leading politicians, notably Demosthenes, who had never been sympathetic to the hegemonial aspirations of Sparta.[22] His verbal dissuasion was supported more effectively by Demades who (in February 330) quashed public agitation to send triremes by threatening to finance the operation from the theoric fund (Plut. *Mor.* 818E-F). As in 335 the Athenians refrained from active intervention and conserved their resources.

That was fatal. Antipater was able to come to terms with the rebels in Thrace, and in the early spring of 330 he moved south with a vast army 40,000 strong. The Macedonian nucleus was swelled by mercenaries and citizen troops supplied by allied states (Diod. XVII.63.1), presumably the Thessalians and the peoples of central Grece. Agis' forces were outnumbered, and he could only await events in the vicinity of Megalopolis. There the final engagement took place, on restricted ground which favoured the smaller Spartan army (Curt. VI.1.10), and after a hard-fought battle Agis' troops were routed. The king was wounded and died in retreat, defending himself to the end, and 5,000 dead remained on the field of battle.

That ended the campaign. The fate of the insurgents was referred to the *synedrion* of the Corinthian League, which imposed an indemnity on Elis and the Achaeans. The Spartans, non-members of the league, were sent to plead their cause before Alexander. In the mean time they surrendered fifty hostages (after protest), and by the late summer of 330 hostages and embassy were about to begin their long journey east (Aeschin. III.133). There is no record of the ultimate settlement, but, now that Sparta was militarily crushed, it is unlikely to have been harsh. The city could be left, benignly neglected, to its decline. Under Agis'

[22] His opposition is documented (rather puzzlingly) by Aeschin. III.165–7. For his earlier views see Dem. XVI. esp. 19–22.

successor, his youngest brother Eudamidas, and the ageing Cleomenes Sparta remained quiet for the rest of Alexander's reign and preserved her neutrality during the Lamian War. For all his courage and planning Agis had been unable to build a sufficiently strong coalition, and the stubborn siege of Megalopolis was probably a fatal error. It recalled the Spartan imperialism of the past, which most states found less palatable than the Macedonian protectorate of the present.

II. THE EXILES' DECREE AND THE ORIGINS OF THE LAMIAN WAR

After 330 the main stimulus for political turmoil came from Alexander himself. The policies which he initiated after his return to Mesopotamia in 324 unleashed general dissatisfaction and unrest. His death was the signal for open war. The focus of the discontent was the so-called Exiles' Decree, which was promulgated at the Olympic games in the summer of 324. His emissary, Nicanor of Stagira, delivered a royal letter, announcing the restoration of exiles throughout the Greek world, and it was read out to an appreciative audience comprising more than 20,000 exiles (Diod. XVIII.8.3–5). As quoted by Diodorus (from the contemporary Hieronymus of Cardia), the letter briefly disclaimed responsibility for the exiles, guaranteed return to all but those guilty of sacrilege and threatened the coercion of any city reluctant to comply. It was a staggering exhibition of autocracy, a total abrogation of the common peace which had prohibited the return of exiles.

According to Diodorus (XVIII.8.2) the Decree was motivated by Alexander's desire for glory and the practical need to have his own partisans in every city. That is credible enough. Alexander had been solicited by many specific groups of exiles, in particular those from Samos and Heraclea Pontica,[23] and he was well aware of the advantages they might confer if restored. Many, as we know from the contemporary Tegean inscription (Tod no. 202 = Harding no. 122, lines 48–57), had been generations in exile (the Samians had been refugees since 365), and, if restored, they would be strangers in their own cities, dependent upon the power that had restored them. What is clear is that Alexander did not rehabilitate the people exiled by his own actions. Many, particularly those convicted of medism during the Aegean War, could have been considered guilty of sacrilege, and, as far as the Thebans were concerned, their restoration was not considered before Cassander invaded Boeotia in 316. When Polyperchon re-enacted the Decree in 319, he explicitly restored the people exiled since Alexander's invasion of Asia (Diod.

[23] Memnon, *FGrH* 434 F 1 (4.1). Compare Alexander's interventions at Amisus (App. *Mith.* 83.374).

XVIII.56.4); they had evidently not been covered by the amnesty of 324. The exiles who received Alexander's benefaction were the victims of his father and of earlier political conflict. Their restoration jeopardized Philip's settlement, but Agis' War had shown how precarious that settlement had been, in the Peloponnese at least.

The Decree was conceived in Mesopotamia, about the time of the mutiny in Opis,[24] and the contents of Nicanor's letter were public knowledge from the time he began his journey to Greece, around May 324.[25] The news unleashed a hectic round of diplomatic negotiations which climaxed early in 323 with the reception of various embassies of protest (Diod. XVII.113.3). There was some success. The Tegeans at least were able to modify the full rigours of the Decree. Their objections were confirmed by a royal rescript (Tod no. 202 = Harding no. 122, lines 2–4), and the rights of the exiles to restitution of property were prudently circumscribed. We hear most about the two states most directly affected, the Aetolians who were commanded to vacate the Acarnanian city of Oeniadae and the Athenians whose cleruchies on Samos were threatened. The restoration of the Samians had been pressed at court by prominent citizens of neighbouring Iasus, Gorgus and Minnion, and, sometime in the spring or summer of 324, Alexander made a formal announcement 'in the camp' that he was giving back Samos to the Samians.[26] That ruling was to dominate political decisions at Athens for the rest of the reign.

The situation was further complicated by the movements of Harpalus. In the spring of 324 the fugitive treasurer manned a flotilla of thirty ships in Cilicia and voyaged west to the mainland. His course took him first to Athens, where he had honorary citizenship, and he arrived off Sunium around May, when the Greek world was in suspense at the news of Nicanor's mission.[27] At first his request for asylum was rejected categorically, perhaps because of Athenian suspicions of his good faith, given the size of his squadron. Harpalus had no choice but to transfer the bulk of his forces to the great mercenary depot at Taenarum, and he returned to Athens with three ships and an ample supply of money. That

[24] Diod. XVII.109.1–2; Curt. X.2.4–7. There is no record in Arrian, but the Decree may have been mentioned in the great lacuna (cf. VII.12.7), where (we happen to know) he dealt with the flight of Harpalus.

[25] The commission included some obscure instructions dealing with the federal assemblies of the Achaeans and Arcadians (Hyper. *Dem.* col. 18: supplements presupposing a third state cannot be imposed upon the scanty traces of the papyrus). Some restrictive legislation is highly likely: see Badian 1961 (D 134) 31; *contra*, Aymard 1937 (D 130) 7–10.

[26] *SIG* 312. For the date see Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 183–9; Ashton 1983 (D 128); *contra*, Errington 1975 (C 360) 53–5.

[27] Hyper. *Dem.* col. 18. Harpalus' name is supplied in the context, but there is no plausible alternative.

was less threatening. Philocles, the general in charge of the docks, now admitted Harpalus to the city.[28] His entry was controversial. Demosthenes at first claimed that it would lead to general war; on the other hand it was argued that it would encourage further refugees to transfer funds and mercenaries from Asia. In the course of the debate Harpalus' money, generously distributed, made him more welcome, and Demosthenes acquiesced in his presence. But it was a dangerous move. When the news of Harpalus' reception reached Alexander in Ecbatana, the king seriously planned an expedition against the city, and Athens' enemies gave him every encouragement.[29]

The crisis came to a head as demands were made for Harpalus' extradition by Antipater, Olympias and even Philoxenus, the satrap of Caria. But, on Demosthenes' instigation, the *demos* ruled that Harpalus could only be surrendered to emissaries sent by Alexander himself. In the mean time the fugitive was to be interned; his monies (which he estimated at 700 talents) were lodged on the Acropolis. That kept the options open. Harpalus might be surrendered if it were diplomatically desirable, or he might be enlisted as an ally if the negotiations over Samos foundered. Meanwhile Demosthenes led an embassy to Olympia, where he had discussions with Nicanor and presumably raised the issue of Harpalus. Soon after, if not simultaneously, Harpalus was allowed to escape custody and leave Athens. He withdrew his forces to Crete, where he was murdered by his lieutenant Thibron, no later than October 324. His mercenary army was retained by exiles from Cyrenaica and ceased to be a factor in Greek affairs.[30]

Harpalus' monies remained – or rather a fraction of them. An inventory revealed that only 350 of the original 700 talents was actually on the Acropolis. The revelation inspired a political furore, in which it was claimed that Harpalus' monies had been corruptly dissipated in bribes.[31] In the face of the outcry Demosthenes, who was particularly vulnerable to the accusations, demanded an investigation by the Areopagus; on past performance it would be sympathetic to his interest. In fact he could not deny having received money, but he claimed that he received it as a loan to the theoric fund and disbursed it in the interest of the *demos*. There may be some truth in this. In the latter part of 324 Leosthenes, the mercenary commander at Taenarum, was retained for Athens after secret negotiations with the *boule* (Diod. XVII.111.3;

[28] Din. III.1–5. See further Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 293–4.

[29] Curt. X.2.1–2; cf. Ephippus, *FGrH* 126 F 5; Justin XIII.5.7, on which see above, p.841.

[30] For the events in Cyrenaica and their chronological implications see Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 291–2.

[31] Hyper. *Dem.* col. 7; cf. Din. 1.68–9. On the development of the scandal see in particular Badian 1961 (D 134) 32–6; Goldstein 1968 (B 43) 39–63.

XVIII.9.2).[32] There may have been unofficial initiatives by Demosthenes, using Harpalus' money (in part) for preliminary, unreceipted payments. But such secret negotiations were not susceptible of proof, and it was wise to delay the reckoning until the immediate passions of the *demos* had cooled.

The Areopagus did its work well. It took six months to publish its findings, by which time the public anger had dissipated. Around March 323 it submitted a list of recipients of money from Harpalus. Demosthenes headed the list with twenty talents. Other delinquents included Demades, Philocles and Charicles (Phocion's son-in-law). The culprits were tried before a court of 1,500 jurors, with ten prosecutors ranged against each defendant. From the surviving speeches of Dinarchus and Hyperides it seems that it was relatively hard to arouse the jurors' emotions. Convictions were made, but the penalties were not draconian. Demosthenes suffered a fine of 50 talents, not the death penalty he had invoked against himself if convicted. Imprisoned as a public debtor, he was allowed to escape and lived miserably in exile, first at Troezen and then at Aegina. Demades, however, was apparently able to pay his fine, for he was active in Athens at the time of Alexander's death. There were other casualties, notably Philocles, but we do not know the penalties inflicted.

The scandal over Harpalus' monies had long been overshadowed by the greater events associated with the Exiles' Decree. Athens herself faced the imminent prospect of the return of exiles, now gathered as a group in Megara and alleged to be a threat to the democracy (Din. 1.58,94). There was also trouble in Samos, where a group of exiles crossed from Anaea and came into conflict with the Athenian cleruchs there. Some were captured by the Athenian general in Samos and referred to Athens, where they were first condemned by the *demos* and then ransomed through the good offices of Antileon of Chalcis. The dating of this episode is controversial, but it is perhaps best placed in the last months of Alexander's reign, when the Athenians were determined to protect their interests but preferred to avoid an atrocity which might alienate sympathy.[33] Meanwhile they intrigued with the Aetolian League, which was openly at loggerheads with Alexander because of its determination to retain possession of Oeniadae.[34] There would ultimately be a reckoning, and the Aetolians were happy to receive the Athenian overtures, which were made discreetly and indirectly through

[32] On the problems involved and the distinction of Leosthenes the mercenary commander from Leosthenes, son of Leosthenes, who is attested (in an Oropian dedication) as *strategos* in charge of the *chora* (Reinmuth 1971 (B 168) no 18), see Jaschinski 1981 (D 203) 51–4; Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 293–4.

[33] Habicht 1957 (B 141) 156–69, nos. 1–2. On the dating see further Errington 1975 (C 360) 55; Badian 1976 (B 134); Rosen 1978 (D 227) 26.

[34] Diod. XVIII.8.6; Plut. *Alex.* 49.15; cf. Mendels 1984 (C 371) 129–49.

Leosthenes, the mercenary commander at Taenarum. There was discontent elsewhere, notably in Thessaly, which was faced with the mass return of the families exiled during the long struggle between the Thessalian League and the tyrants of Pherae. It was a direct threat to the ruling families, particularly those of Pharsalus and Larissa, who had been most favoured by Philip. When war eventually came, after Alexander's death, the Thessalians changed sides *en masse* and the centre of the agitation was Pharsalus (Diod. XVIII.11.1,12.3).

Alexander's actions had been ruinous. He died only ten months after the proclamation of the Decree, when the political ferment it caused was unresolved. But he had effectively undermined the common peace, the corner-stone of Philip's settlement. Instead he had enlisted the old dispossessed in his service and imposed their return by royal edict and threat of force. Autonomy was a dead letter; the façade of consensus which Philip had created was demolished, and it was evident that there was little distinction in Alexander's mind between allies and subjects. His death accordingly provoked a strong general reaction. The Athenians formalized their relations with the Aetolians and concluded a regular alliance, at the same time declaring their championship of the common freedom of Greece.[35] Their appeal for allies was enthusiastically received in central Greece and the Peloponnese, and Antipater faced a general rising, a war which the participants dubbed the 'Hellenic War'.[36] Alexander's autocracy had created a spirit of national resistance, with Macedon identified as the common enemy, the very situation that his father had devoted decades of diplomacy to prevent.

B. KING AND EMPIRE

I. THE APPOINTMENT OF SATRAPS

When he invaded Asia, Alexander had no model for action, no system inherited from his father. He came not merely to avenge past delicts but also to conquer. According to one tradition[37] his first gesture on disembarking in the Troad was to make a spear cast and claim the land as 'spear won'. The story is to some degree corroborated by his first administrative acts, which were to place his own men over the existing satrapies (with the title of satrap). In Hellespontine Phrygia he appointed Calas, one of the commanders of the expeditionary force as satrap and

[35] Diod. XVIII.11.1. For the Aetolian alliance see *SEG* XXI 299 = Moretti, *ISE*, no. 1 with Mitchel 1964 (B 160).

[36] *IG* II^2 448, lines 43–4; 505 line 17. On this and other evidence see Ashton 1984 (C 92).

[37] Diod. XVII.17.2; Justin XI.5.10: see above, p.798.

maintained the level of tribute imposed by the Persians (Arr. *Anab.* 1.17.1). Similarly in Lydia he retained the Persian division of command, with the great citadel of Sardis under a separate Macedonian commander, while the satrap, Asander, son of Philotas, had an independent force of cavalry and light armed foot. Precedent was also observed in Caria, where Alexander vested the satrapy in the senior member of the Hecatomnid house, the princess Ada, who had reigned for four years under Achaemenid sovereignty.[38] But here he left a Macedonian general, Ptolemy, who commanded a mercenary army 3,200 strong (Arr. *Anab.* 1.23.6). In theory the area had a native ruler. In practice the general was independent – in the military sphere at least. During the Aegean War Ptolemy acted as a free agent, operating on equal terms with the Macedonian satrap of Lydia.

Alexander felt free to depart from precedent when it served his interests. That was evident in his settlement of Lycia, which under Achaemenid rule had become absorbed by the satrapy of Caria.[39] Alexander passed through the area in person and may have been requested to remove the Hecatomnid supervision. That he did but created an entirely new satrapy, combining Lycia and Pamphylia. For the duration of the Aegean War the coastline between Telmissus and Side was placed under a single commander, Alexander's friend Nearchus. After he was recalled to court in 330/29, the area became annexed to Antigonus' command in Greater Phrygia. It was no longer strategically important. Alexander's concentration on the immediate present was particularly evident in 333. Intent on the encounter with Darius, he made only the most perfunctory settlement of central Asia Minor. Antigonus was installed at Celaenae, the satrapal capital of Phrygia, with a modest force of 1,500 mercenaries. Otherwise peoples like the Paphlagonians, who submitted, were annexed to existing satrapies or, as happened in southern Cappadocia, a native ruler was imposed without any military support. Consequently Cappadocia remained a no man's land. Antigonus won three victories against Persian refugees from Issus and clearly controlled the royal road between Sardis and the Cilician Gates, but he was unable to enforce control of Cappadocia. That region, together with Paphlagonia, was classed as unconquered territory in 323 and assigned to Eumenes.

The year 332 witnessed more complex administrative arrangements, as Alexander fought his way down the Levantine coast. Cilicia, which was a coherent geographical entity with clear-cut borders, he placed

[38] Arr. 1.23.7–8; cf. Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 152–3; Hornblower 1982 (F 644) 45–57.

[39] On the direct control exercised over Xanthus see the trilingual inscription (Metzger *et al.* 1974 (B 157) 82–149, and 1979 (B 158) redated by Badian (B 135) 1977). See above, p.219. For relations with Phaselis see Hornblower 1982 (F 644) 122–3.

under a royal bodyguard, Balacrus son of Nicanor, who was both satrap and general. Syria was a far less homogeneous area with a huge range of political systems. Here Alexander imposed commanders as suited the military situation. North Syria, the coastal area between Cilicia and Phoenicia, he placed under Menon, son of Cerdimmas, with a modest force of mercenary cavalry. To the south the city states of Phoenicia remained under their local kings, who were confirmed in office except in Sidon, where a member of a collateral branch of the royal house was installed. Tyre after its capture became an enclave of direct rule, with a Macedonian garrison under Philotas. Similarly in Samaria the hereditary ruler, Sanballat III, was confirmed, as apparently was the priestly government in Jerusalem. But there was a military commander, Andromachus, who continued the work of pacification in the south. Andromachus was burnt alive early in 331 by Samaritan insurgents, and after a brief campaign of reprisal Alexander replaced him with Menon, whom he transferred from the north. When he moved from the area early in 331, he left two Macedonian commanders, Asclepiodorus in the north and Menon in the south. Late in the same year a bodyguard of high standing, Menes, was sent from Susa to act as *hyparch* of Cilicia, Syria and Phoenicia. It was obviously a major military post, and it is possible (though unprovable) that he replaced the former satraps. Certainly the two Syrian commanders were recalled to escort mercenary forces to the army in Bactria, and by 323 Syria (like Cilicia) was governed as a single satrapy.[40] The division of command designed for a war situation in 332/1 was no longer necessary in the more settled conditions at the end of the reign.

The administration of Egypt is more complex but better attested. Here Alexander retained the immemorially old division of the upper and lower kingdoms with separate armies and separate Macedonian military commanders.[41] There was at first no satrap as such. Alexander appointed native Egyptian *nomarchs* to head the civil administration. They may have been supported (and supervised) by Macedonian advisers. Power clearly resided with the Macedonian officials, and the role of the Egyptian *nomarchs* was largely cosmetic, to satisfy national aspirations and delegate instructions to the native governors of the forty-two nomes, the administrative subdivisions of Egypt. One of the nominated *nomarchs*, Petisis, in fact refused his commission, and his colleague, Doloaspis, received the entire administration. It cannot have been too onerous. The most important figure in Egypt was Cleomenes, a Greek

[40] On the complex evidence see Bosworth 1974 (F 225); Brunt 1976–83 (B 21) I 278–9, 360–1. See also the views of Leuze 1935 (F 282) 436ff; Tarn 1948 (D 239) II 176–8.

[41] Cf. Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 275–7; Atkinson 1980 (B 8) 365–7 on Arrian and Curtius. For a contemporary order by Peucestas, commander in lower Egypt, see Turner 1974 (F 542).

from Naucratis, who was appointed to the Arabian command in the east, centred at Heröopolis. But at the same time he was placed over the entire fiscal system of Egypt, receiving tribute from the local officials. That gave him control of public expenditure, the payment of royal garrisons and armies and the building of Alexandria. During the great famine of the 320s he used his fiscal power to control the sale of Egyptian grain which he sold for export at the colossal price of 32 drachmae per measure. The profits in part were used in the grandiose public buildings of Alexandria, which impressed the city's founder. Arrian (*Anab.* VII.23.7–8) cites a notorious letter in which Alexander instructed Cleomenes to build *heroa* for Hephaestion, promising immunity for all his delicts, past and future. Peculation could be condoned if it resulted in sufficiently impressive profits for the government. Cleomenes himself was ultimately recognized as satrap, a position he had held *de facto* from the outset as a consequence of his fiscal control. His status was finally regularized when he had proved his worth to Alexander, even though his authority had been largely usurped. Egypt remained a satrapy at the death of Alexander, when Ptolemy secured it as the price for his support of Perdiccas. Cleomenes survived – for a time – as his lieutenant (*hyparch*), to be eliminated on the eve of Perdiccas' invasion on suspicion of collaboration.[42] He had ensured that the two kingdoms were an administrative unity, with an impressive financial reserve of 8,000 talents (Diod. XVIII.14.1). It meant that Ptolemy could recruit mercenaries on a large scale from the moment of his arrival and enjoyed the vast centralized revenues of Egypt. By 321 the territory was his personal fief, which he regarded as 'spear won' after his repulse of Perdiccas, and the foundation of a lasting monarchy was laid.[43]

After Gaugamela Alexander experimented with satraps selected from the Persian nobility who held office alongside Macedonian generals and garrison commanders. At Babylon Mazaeus, satrap of Cilicia and Syria from the early days of Artaxerxes III, led the surrender of the city and was rewarded with the satrapy of Babylon (he probably had a Babylonian wife). He controlled the administration and even struck coins (initially bearing his own name),[44] but his activities were circumscribed by the appointment of a separate official to collect the tribute. Two Macedonians of high rank, Agathon and Apollodorus, controlled the citadel of Babylon and the armed forces of the satrapy. There were similar arrangements in Susa and even in Persis. The main problem was loyalty. Would the Persian satraps support their new king in times of trouble? In Media and Parthyaea the first satraps, although they had suffered

[42] Paus. 1.6.3; Arr. *Succ.*, F 1.5 (Roos); cf. Seibert 1969 (B 108) 51, 112.

[43] See *CAH* VII².1, 122–33, with Seibert 1969 (B 108) 74–5; 1983 (A 54) 222–6.

[44] Bellinger 1963 (B 187) 60–8; cf. Badian 1965 (D 136) 171; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 315.

disgrace under Achaemenid rule, were found wanting during Bessus' vigorous counter-offensive of 329 (see above, p.821). Both were replaced by the former incumbents, Atropates in Media and Phrataphernes in Parthyaea, who maintained their loyalty to Darius to the bitter end. They showed equal devotion to Alexander and retained their satrapies honourably until the end of the reign.

Other territories were more troublesome. In Areia Satibarzanes collaborated openly with Bessus and waged a guerilla war against Alexander for nearly a year. His successor and rival, Arsaces, was no more successful and was replaced by a Companion, Stasanor of Soli, who finally pacified the satrapy. The vital corridor of Arachosia was also placed under a Macedonian, Menon. Bactria and Sogdiana also saw a change of policy. After the easy occupation of the territory south of the Oxus he appointed as satrap the Persian noble Artabazus, a declared enemy of the previous satrap, Bessus. But the ease of conquest was illusory, as the general revolt of summer 329 starkly revealed. After a year of harsh, repressive warfare Artabazus abdicated his command, to be replaced (evanescently) by Cleitus the Black and then by Amyntas, son of Nicolaus. The satrap commanded the largest regional force in the empire, 10,000 infantry and 3,500 cavalry, and supervised a regular network of Greco-Macedonian city foundations (see below, p.867). Individual Iranian barons, like Chorienes of Paraetacae, might be confirmed in their domains, but the actual government was firmly in Macedonian hands.

The Indian lands lay outside the recent boundaries of Achaemenid rule, and Alexander had no established system of satrapies to deal with, rather a multitude of native princes, often at loggerheads with each other. In the Kabul valley, the scene of bitter fighting in 327, Alexander appointed a Macedonian satrap, who had an appropriately large garrison force to continue the work of pacification. Under his control were a number of Indian hyparchs, some of whom were expatriates restored to power by Alexander men like Sangaeus in Peucelaotis (Arr. *Anab.* IV.22.8) or Sisicottus at Aornus (Arr. *Anab.* IV.30.4). They would have performed much of the civil government. In India proper another satrap, Philip, son of Machatas, had the general supervision of the area west of the Hydaspes and south to the confluence of the Indus and Acesines. Once again the local rulers were subordinate, notably Taxiles, who had invited Alexander into India but had tribute imposed upon him and a garrison in his capital. The great beneficiary of conquest was Porus, who had his own realm expanded to the banks of the Hyphasis. He may have had the title satrap (Plut. *Alex.* 60.15), but in practice he was plenipotentiary, operating without Macedonian troops or Macedonian commanders. In Sind there was another satrap, Peithon son

of Agenor, who had military command from the Acesines confluence to the Ocean, controlling the vassal princes forced into subjection by the terror campaign of 325.

The Indian settlement was not lasting. Late in 325 Philip, who now commanded the Cophen valley as well as northern India, was assassinated by his mercenary troops (Arr. *Anab.* VI.27.2: Curt. X.1.20–1). That forced the king to contract his command system. Preoccupied as he was by his western plans, he had little desire for further involvement in India. Accordingly he withdrew direct satrapal control to the Kabul valley, transferring Peithon from what had been the southern satrapy. The lands between the Indus and Hydaspes were delegated to Taxiles, who ruled with a Macedonian lieutenant, Eudamus, while Porus' lands were extended still further, down to Patala and the Ocean.[45] That formed a vast buffer zone, where even Porus' writ may have been largely disregarded. India was largely evacuated, except for the city foundations which remained as bulwarks of conquest. Only the Kabul valley remained under strict control, heavily garrisoned, a frontier province and a gateway for any future invasion.

The final developments came after Alexander's return to the west in the winter of 325/4. In his absence there had been a number of nationalistic uprisings in central Iran, with trouble recorded in Media and Arachosia. Satraps had tended to act as independent despots or even usurp power, as Orxines had done in Persis after the death of Alexander's first satrap, Phrasaortes. Accordingly there was a series of purges, as over-mighty satraps were executed on charges of misgovernment, which came easily to hand.[46] Astaspes was executed in Carmania, Orxines in Persis, Abulites in Susiana. Their successors were Macedonians of unimpeachable loyalty. In Persis the king's saviour, Peucestas, took over the satrapy, with his active encouragement to learn Persian and assimilate himself to the local culture, while in Carmania Tlepolemus had the benefit of years of experience as military supervisor in Parthyaea. By contrast in Media it was the Macedonian commanders who were subverted. Cleander and Sitalces were accused of sacrilege and misgovernment and executed. Again there is evidence of insubordination. They had behaved as quasi-independent monarchs (cf. Curt. X.1.7) and that was unpardonable in Macedonian or oriental. On the other hand Atropates, the Iranian satrap of Media, retained his office with distinction. As usual Alexander worked on the short term. It is hard to see any wider policy beyond the basic requirements that the satrapies should remain peaceful with the minimum of expense and that his kingship should be universally and unconditionally accepted.

[45] Arr. *Succ.* F 1.36 (Roos); cf. Berve RE XIX.219; Bosworth 1983 (D 158).

[46] Documentation in Badian 1961 (D 134) 17–23; cf. 1985 (D 142) 474–9.

II. FINANCIAL ADMINISTRATION

Finance was rarely a problem for Alexander. The expenses of his campaign were met either on the spot or from the immense accumulated reserves of bullion that he found in the Persian treasuries.[47] By and large the satraps were left to collect their own tribute, as had been the rule in Achaemenid times; and given the prevalence of local wars and rebellion there may have been little surplus over the costs of administration and the standing armies. Some satrapies which were especially wealthy or complex had separate financial officials. Nicias in Lydia had responsibility for 'the assessment and the collection of tribute' (Arr. *Anab.* I.17.7).[48] Babylonia also had a separate official to manage its taxation, as did the cities of Phoenicia. The monies they controlled gave them power. We have seen how Cleomenes became *de facto* satrap of Egypt through his manipulation of the tribute. There may be a parallel in the case of Philoxenus in southern Asia Minor. Appointed in 331 to collect tribute 'this side of the Taurus' (Arr. *Anab.* III.6.4), a commission which probably covered the satrapies of Caria and Phrygia, he became one of the most influential men of the sub-continent and it was probably he who succeeded the old princess Ada as satrap of Caria.[49]

The most important financial official was undoubtedly Harpalus, who had control of the central treasuries of the empire. From 330 to his self-imposed exile in late 325 he supervised the collected reserves first at Ecbatana and then at Babylon, and his competence extended over the central provinces. His successor, Antimenes of Rhodes (who was certainly no more powerful), was able to give direct instructions to satraps and successfully reimposed an obsolete Babylonian import tax on visiting satraps and ambassadors.[50] Harpalus was virtually a despot, behaving like a king and supervising royal treasuries as far afield as the Levantine coast. No mere satrap could withstand the king's friend and controller of the king's money, and his functions gradually expanded beyond simple control of money. In 326 he was responsible for sending a mercenary army from the central satrapies to India (Curt. IX.3.21; Diod. XVII.95.4) together with a vast quantity of arms and medicine (but not apparently coin); and it looks as though he gave general logistical

[47] Strabo XV.3.9 gives a figure of 180,000 talents for the accumulated reserves at Ecbatana. See also Diod. XVII.80.3; Justin XII.1.3 and, for discussion of discrepancies, Bellinger 1963 (B 187) 68–70; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 330.

[48] For interpretation see Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 130; *contra*, Griffith 1964 (D 183), Wirth 1972 (D 247).

[49] Argued by Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 281–2. Other interpretations presuppose *two* men named Philoxenus (with overlapping spheres of competence): a satrap of Caria and a supervisor of the Greek cities of Ionia (cf. Berve 1926 (D 146) II nos. 793–4; Bengtson 1937 (D 145); Badian 1966 (D 137) 56–60).

[50] ARIST. *Oec.* 1352b28–1353a4. See Berve 1926 (D 146) II no. 89.

support, co-ordinating the resources of the central empire, manpower as well as money.

One of the principal functions of Harpalus, and probably of the other financial officials based on minting centres, was the striking of the royal coinage. At first Alexander issued exclusively from the royal mints of Pella and Amphipolis.[51] The famous tetradrachms with the head of Heracles and the seated Zeus went side by side with gold staters bearing the head of Athene and a winged Nike. After Issus production was supplemented from mints on the Levantine coast (Tarsus, Myriandrus, Byblus and Sidon) and, after Gaugamela, the Babylon mint also came into operation. Sometimes, as happened in Sidon and the cities of Cyprus,[52] the royal coinage totally displaced local issues as an act of policy. Elsewhere the local currency continued. It did so in Cilicia, where Balacrus, like his Achaemenid precursors, minted coins in his own name. The same happened in Babylon where Mazaeus first issued lion staters in his own name but after four issues struck them without legend.[53] Local issues might continue but they would become anonymous. By contrast Alexander's coinage was standard, empire-wide and explicitly his own, bearing his name and proclaiming his universal monarchy.

III. THE CITY FOUNDATIONS

The cities founded by Alexander were probably his most lasting memorial. In a famous passage Plutarch (*Mor.* 328E) accredits him with the establishment of seventy cities among barbarian peoples, centres of civilization and culture for the peoples of Asia. The number is probably exaggerated, the effect certainly so. For the most part Alexander's foundations were military control centres, garrison points in unquiet territory. His activity began in his father's lifetime, in 340 B.C., when he followed the pattern established by Philip in Thrace, evacuating the capital of the insurgent Maedi (in the upper Strymon) and resettling it with a heterogeneous immigrant population. It was named Alexandropolis on the analogy of Philippopolis.[54] Something similar took place after the sieges of Gaza and Tyre, when the gutted cities were repopulated from native perioeci under the supervision of a Macedonian garrison. But these were not new foundations and the permanent citizen body was not distinctively Hellenic.

By contrast Alexandria in Egypt was a completely new city, superim-

[51] On the dating problems see Bellinger 1963 (B 187) 3–13 and the exchange between Zervos 1982 (B 217) and Price 1982 (B 212).

[52] Cf. Newell 1916 (B 211); Merker 1964 (B 207); Mørkholm 1978 (B 209) (*contra*, Gesche 1974 (F 253)). [53] Von Aulock 1964 (B 184) (Balacrus); Bellinger 1963 (B 187) 70–7 (Mazaeus).

[54] Plut. *Alex.* 9.1. Cf. Hammond and Griffith 1979 (D 50) II 557–9.

posed on the old harbour village of Rhacotis. Here there is no suggestion of military calculations. The sources stress the magnificence of the site, blessed with a uniquely salubrious climate, with rich agricultural territory and well placed for commerce with the hinterland.[55] From the beginning Alexander took a strong personal interest in its development (Arr. *Anab.* VII.23.7) and probably saw it as a foundation to eclipse his father's Philippi. It was a Greek foundation, as Alexander demonstrated by his personal selection of an agora and temple sites for predominantly Hellenic deities (Arr. *Anab.* III.1.5); and Greek settlers were attracted from the mainland, from Egypt and Cyrenaica. The Egyptian populace formed a sub-class, attached to the new foundation by synoecism, and provided the workforce for the generous agricultural lands which afforded subsistence for the new city.

The next foundations came late in 330, when Alexandria in Areia (Herat) and Alexandria in Arachosia (Kandahar?)[56] were established to help contain the unrest provoked by Bessus. We have explicit evidence for Alexandria in Caucaso (Begram), in the central Hindu Kush, where Alexander settled 3,000 Greek and Macedonian troops alongside 7,000 of the local population. The site was enlarged in 327 with the addition of more discharged troops and more native peoples. This pattern was developed in Bactria and Sogdiana. The new foundation of Alexandria Eschate, established as a defence point to repel nomad incursions across the Iaxartes, was populated from prisoners-of-war captured during the revolt of 329. They were 'liberated' to provide the rural workforce of the new city, the citizen body of which comprised Greek mercenaries and discharged Macedonian veterans.[57] That, like the numerous other new 'cities' of the area, was in essence a garrison, the elite Hellenic fighting body supported by members of the native population who had been transplanted by force from their old domicile. The process is well illustrated by the French excavations at Ai-Khanum, probably the site of Alexandria on the Oxus. The new foundation there was established in a plain already watered by an existing network of canals. The area was clearly under intensive cultivation, but there is no trace of earlier settlement (there may have been a garrison on the acropolis).[58] It seems that the city proper was a Greek implant, complete with gymnasium, theatre, a *heröon* for its founder and a palace for its military ruler which dwarfed even that at Vergina. But the principal buildings belong to the third century and later. The community established by Alexander probably lived in pioneer simplicity.

[55] Cf. Fraser 1972 (A 21) I 5–7, II 4–10; Cavenaile 1972 (F 420); Jähne 1981 (F 456) 68–72.

[56] On the identification see Fischer 1967 (D 173); Fraser 1979–80 (B 140).

[57] Curt. VII.6.27; Justin XII.5.12; Arr. *Anab.* IV.4.1. Cf. Briant 1982 (F 10) 244–7.

[58] Bernard 1973 (F 5A) I 69ff; 1980 (F 6) 435ff.

Similar foundations were established in the latter years of the campaign wherever Alexander met spirited resistance or rebellion. At least one city was founded in the Cophen valley; and in the Indus plain twin cities, Nicaea and Bucephala, were established on opposite sides of the Hydaspes, to serve as frontier defences after the eastern regions had been ceded to Porus. In Sind a similar process began, but the foundations there were rudimentary when Alexander left for the west and probably did not survive the transfer of the satrap, Peithon, to the Cophen valley (see above, p.864). But the repressive philosophy continued. In Oreitis the largest village of the territory, Rhambaceia, was resettled as an Alexandria, with a population drawn in part from Arachosia to the north; and in the Zagros there were a number of foundations in Cossaean territories, with the local nomads serving as a very reluctant agrarian populace. Other cities, like the foundations towards the mouths of the Tigris and Euphrates, were not garrison centres as such but were strategically placed to service the Arabian expedition, which in its turn was to colonize the Persian Gulf (see above, p.844). These cities were naturally a hardship to the local inhabitants. They were also unpopular with the Hellenic settlers, who were held in place by fear of Alexander. At his death more than 20,000 of them banded together in the far east and made for the Levantine coast 'out of longing for the Greek manner of life' (Diod. XVIII.7.1). It took a vicious massacre by Macedonian troops sent from Babylon to convince them that their residence was permanent. It remained for Seleucus to make colonization an attractive prospect and initiate the huge programme of city foundations that led to the partial hellenization of the Near East.

IV. THE GREEKS OF ASIA MINOR

The Greek cities of Asia Minor were an anomaly within the empire. Their liberation was an avowed object of the war with Persia (Diod. XVI.91.2; XVII.24.1), but on the other hand they were strategic pawns in a war zone and could not be given unrestricted autonomy. If the fortunes of war were unfavourable and there were no mitigating circumstances, they might suffer enslavement, as did the little Aeolic community of Gryneum, which was stormed by Parmenion in 335.[59] On the other hand Miletus, which surrendered at the last possible moment, was granted its liberty – or dispensation from slavery. That is an important qualification. Liberation could in practice mean little, merely the cessation of Persian government. The native Lydians, for instance, were declared free under their ancestral laws – to pay tribute under the sway of a

[59] Diod XVII.7.9. Gryneum had been one of the fiefs granted to the medizer Gongylus of Eretria (Lewis 1977) (A 33) 54. Like the Branchidae of Sogdiana (Bosworth 1988 (D 159) 108–9) its population may have been visited with the sins of a previous generation.

Macedonian satrap (Arr. *Anab.* I.17.4,7). All settlements with Greek cities, however liberal, were imposed by the king, and autonomy, when it was awarded, was his personal gift. Formal treaties, such as those with the Chorasmians of the far east (Arr. *Anab.* IV.15.2–4) or the Greek communities of Cyrenaica, were concluded with peoples outside the empire proper. Within it Alexander acted as victor and benevolent despot, dictating the terms he considered proper. Ilium, the spiritual centre of the war of revenge could bask in his favour, adjudged free and immune from tribute (Strabo XIII.1.26). On the other hand, at Ephesus, which had suffered an oligarchic counter-revolution and mass exile of Macedonian sympathizers, Alexander intervened to prevent a total massacre of the oligarchs and supervised the installation of a democracy. The tribute previously paid to Persia was diverted to the great temple of Artemis.[60] However favourable the final settlement, Alexander imposed it as a despot.

From Ephesus Alexander sent out Alcimachus son of Agathocles to operate in the areas of Aeolis and Ionia which were under Persian occupation, with instructions to install democracies, restore autonomy and remit tribute (Arr. *Anab.* I.18.2). This is a famous episode, but it should not be taken as a universal manifesto. It was rather a gesture to win over areas threatened by the Persian fleet. Democracy was a predictable reaction against the oligarchic regimes favoured by Persia. Alexander may have represented it as the natural form of government for the Ionian cities, whose common ancestor was Athens, just as he claimed that democracy was the ancestral constitution of Pontic Amisus (App. *Mith.* 8.24, 83.374). Later Erythrae and Colophon were to boast of the freedom conferred by Alexander.[61] It was in their interest to make the most of the benefaction, and in the war situation of 334/3 autonomy was necessarily qualified, not least by the imposition of protective garrisons. But the demands of the campaign inclined Alexander towards generosity. The cities between Miletus and Halicarnassus, threatened by the Persian fleet, received grants of autonomy and immunity from tribute, and we have specific evidence of democracy confirmed at Iasus under the benevolent supervision of two of its magnates, Gorgus and Minnion, who had acquired the king's ear and favour.

There is detailed evidence only for Priene, where the king rededicated the temple of Athena Polias in his own name, honouring the patroness of his crusade of vengeance. Part of an archive survives, which begins with extracts of a decree of Alexander in favour of the city.[62] The fragmentary remains of the text deal with autonomy and land occupation. Citizens of

[60] Arr. *Anab.*I.17.10–12. Cf. Badian 1966 (D 137) 47; Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 58–9.

[61] *OGIS* 223 (= Welles, *RC* 15), line 22 (Erythrae); *AJP* 56 (1925) 361 (Colophon).

[62] Tod no.185 = Harding no. 106 = Heisserer 1980 (B 143) 142–68. The stone is re-edited, with emphasis upon its archival nature, by Sherwin-White 1985 (B 175) esp. 80–7.

Priene resident in the harbour town of Naulochum are declared free and autonomous, in contrast with some non-Prienian group whose autonomy was restricted. Certain domains in the hinterland are arrogated as royal land, subject to tribute (*phoroi*). By contrast the city of Priene was exempted from the *syntaxis* – a difficult expression which has been interpreted as a recurrent payment or as a single levy for the purposes of the campaign.[63] Whatever the meaning, it is clear that Priene was exempted from an imposition which was otherwise fairly regular, and the community, as it proclaimed, was indeed highly favoured. The king had organized their affairs very favourably, but, given other circumstances, his edict could be far less palatable. That the Aspendians of Pamphylia discovered when they surrendered and requested that no garrison be imposed upon them. Alexander's price was 50 talents' immediate donation for the army's expenses and the continuation of the tribute of horses paid to the Persian King. When the Aspendians resisted they were subjected to direct satrapal control, had their levy doubled, and a monetary tribute was imposed (Arr. *Anab.* 1.26.3, 27.4). Favourable or unfavourable, the terms of settlement were autocratically imposed and could change with the military situation.

It is most unlikely that the Greek cities were included in the formal framework of the Corinthian League.[64] There is, as we have noted, no explicit record of any treaty or alliance. Admittedly it would have been a nice propaganda gesture to include the Greeks of Asia, who would be represented joining their liberators in the crusade. But there is no trace of such propaganda in our sources and, given the sensitivity of Ptolemy and Aristobulus to royal apology, that is a significant omission. Until new evidence emerges, it will be best to regard the Greek cities as largely autonomous entities within subject territory, dependent on continuing royal favour. By 331 Alexander considered the Greek cities liberated, and after Gaugamela he proclaimed that all tyrannies were abolished and autonomy prevailed (Plut. *Alex.* 34.2). After that the problems of the Greeks of Asia were not a primary concern, and the majority of the evidence about the coastal cities relates to a mysterious Philoxenus, who was active on the coast of south-west Asia Minor. It is the most economical hypothesis that he was the fiscal superintendent (see above, p.865) who occupied Caria after the death of Ada. As satrap he probably intervened on Rhodes to arrest Harpalus' treasurer (Paus. 11.33.4). He also asserted his will on 'autonomous' Ephesus, occupying the city after the murder of a certain Hegesias, the dominant Macedonian partisan. He introduced a garrison, arrested the culprits and sent them to the prison at

[63] For differing explanations see Badian 1966 (D 137) 48; Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 166, 281; Sherwin-White 1985 (B 175) 84–6.

[64] A most contentious issue; for bibliography see Seibert 1972 (D 232) 85–90.

Sardes, to await trial by Alexander.[65] That was hardly an isolated episode. In the confusion of the Aegean War satraps may have felt themselves entitled to impose their wills, by force of arms if necessary, and the habit of intervention, once established, would have been hard to eradicate. That illustrates the precarious nature of the cities' status. No declaration of autonomy guaranteed against coercion if it suited the king or his satraps. The Greeks of Asia were certainly privileged, but they were also subjects.

V. KING AND GOD

The reign of Alexander marks a watershed in the development of the ruler cult. Before him the examples of divine honours for living men are few and controversial; later they are almost commonplace. But Alexander's actions and beliefs did not spring out of nothing. The original absolute distinction between mortality and immortality had been shaken in various ways. The language of Pindar, so eloquent about the ephemeral nature of human life and success, does suggest that there are fleeting moments in the exaltation of victory when man comes close to the divine. That embryonic thought was taken further in the fourth century B.C., when Isocrates (IX.72) eulogized Evagoras of Cyprus as a god among men. More pertinently for Alexander, Aristotle could envisage an ideal monarchy, in which the ruler appeared so superior to his coevals as to appear a god among men, and he is overtly sympathetic to the popular saying that men become gods by a surpassing display of excellence.[66] Occasionally, if very rarely, actual honours (divine as opposed to heroic) might be offered to a living man. According to Duris of Samos Lysander was the first of the Greeks to receive altars and sacrifices; and what he says about the renaming of the Samian national festival as the *Lysandreia* is now epigraphically confirmed.[67] It was Lysander's temporal power, supreme after Aegospotami, that was worshipped in this way, and there were similar, if not identical, honours paid to Philip. His statue (not a cult statue) was installed in the temple of Artemis at Ephesus (Arr. *Anab.* I.17.11); and, more significantly the people of the little city of Eresus erected altars to Zeus Philippios, associating the Macedonian king intimately with the cult of Zeus (Tod no.191 = Harding no.112 B, line 6). By his death, if we may believe Diodorus (XVI.92.5, cf. 95.1), he was disposed to associate himself with

[65] Polyaen. VI.49. On the historicity of the story see Badian 1966 (D 137) 56–7, 64; *contra*, Tarn 1948 (D 239) II 174–5.

[66] Arist. *Pol.* 1284a10–11, 1332b16–22; *NE* 1145a19–27.

[67] Plut. *Lys.* 18. 5–6 (*FGrH* 76 F 71). On the Lysandreia see Habicht 1970 (A 26) 243–4; Badian 1981 (D 141) 33–8.

the twelve Olympian deities.[68] That was probably the culmination of a long process of public decree and private flattery. It would not be surprising if Philip thought himself more than human.

From his earliest years Alexander laid stress on his heroic lineage, from Aeacus and Achilles on his mother's side and from Heracles on his father's. He believed in it implicitly and was always eager to emulate his forebears, following Heracles and Perseus to the oasis at Siwah and embarking on the siege of Mt Aornus because of the local tradition that Heracles had failed to capture it. But Alexander felt that he was far more than the distant descendant of Zeus through his heroic ancestors. It was suggested that he was the direct son of the god. The stories that Olympias was impregnated by Zeus (in the guise of a thunderbolt or a serpent) were closely imitated by Seleucus I, who claimed that his mother, Laodice, was visited by Apollo.[69] They were obviously contemporary; and, after Alexander's accession (before which time it was dangerous to hint at any father but Philip), it became fashionable to argue that he had a dual paternity, comparable to that of Heracles. Such speculation resulted in the Milesian oracles delivered to Alexander early in 331, which dealt explicitly with his supposed birth from Zeus (Callisthenes, *FGrH* 124 F 14a). Arrian (*Anab.* III.3.2) indeed states that Alexander believed that his own origins were due to Ammon, the Libyan manifestation of Zeus, and the idea probably took shape in his mind even before his visit to Siwah (see above, p.811). The consultation of the oracle had a profound effect upon him. Callisthenes emphasized that the officiating priest greeted him publicly as son of Zeus, and all sources represent divine sonship as the central theme of the consultation. Later the king's relationship with Zeus Ammon was a commonplace at court, prominent in the flattery which enraged Cleitus at Maracanda and in the insults of the mutineers at Opis which provoked Alexander's wrath (Arr. *Anab.* VII.8.3). By 324 Demosthenes could propose ironically that Alexander should be son of Zeus or Poseidon, if he wished (Hyper. *Dem.* col.31), and the pretensions were clearly universal knowledge.

Being a son of a god did not in itself imply divinity. But Heracles had transcended that barrier from an early date, a hero god (Pindar *Nem.* III.22), who after his deeds on earth went to Olympus to live in bliss as the husband of Hebe. The idea of apotheosis was current in Alexander's day and was debated at court as early as the Sogdian campaigns of 328/7, when the king was favourably compared with the Dioscuri. It is also one of the leading themes of the debate on *proskynesis* as reported by Arrian (*Anab.* IV.10.5–7) and Curtius (VIII.5.8). That is one of the most curious

[68] For the highly questionable evidence of cult at Athens (Clem. Al. *Protr.* IV.54.5) see Fredricksmeyer 1979 (D 87); Badian 1981 (D 141).

[69] Justin XV.4.2–9; cf. Günther 1971 (H 55) 66–73; Hadley 1974 (A 27) 58.

episodes of the reign. In the late spring of 327 Alexander experimented with the aspect of Persian court protocol which the Greeks termed *proskynesis*. In the Persian court the act of homage, whether it involved a slight stooping forward or total prostration, was purely secular, found at all levels of Persian society.[70] In the Greek world, however, *proskynesis* was a cult act, performed to the gods – generally in a standing position but occasionally kneeling (a posture sometimes ridiculed as undignified).[71] There was general disquiet at Persian *proskynesis*, which Greeks tended to regard as intolerably servile, incompatible with any concept of freedom and there were clearly religious scruples about *their* honouring a mortal man with an act associated with worship. Barbarians could revere their kings as they pleased.

Alexander, it seems, did attempt to impose *proskynesis* on both Greeks and Macedonians, and he aroused determined opposition, represented and articulated by Callisthenes of Olynthus. Two episodes are recorded, which (contrary to the general belief) are both credible and consistent.[72] One, recorded by the court chamberlain, Chares of Mytilene, concerns a symposium with a few intimate participants. All drank a toast, performed *proskynesis* and received a kiss from the king. Callisthenes, however, attempted to avoid *proskynesis* but was detected and denied his kiss. He left the symposium in high dudgeon, but the rest of the guests apparently complied and might have encouraged Alexander to extend the experiment. A more public ceremony followed at a general banquet, when the king encouraged debate among the Greek intellectuals. Our sources have clearly embellished their material with the rhetorical jargon of the Roman empire, but there is a substratum of common material which comes from the primary tradition. The imposition of *proskynesis* is justified and attacked on religious grounds, the proponents arguing that the king had excelled Heracles and Dionysus and his achievement raised him to divinity. Callisthenes insisted on the strict division of mortal and divine honours and defended Greek traditions of liberty against an egregious affront. His speech was greeted with approval, particularly among the older Macedonians, and the public rejection was compounded by ridicule, when a senior Companion burst out laughing at a particularly profound abasement by a Persian noble. The experiment was dropped, never to be revived, and *proskynesis* was confined to the king's barbarian subjects – as were his kisses (Arr. *Anab.* VII.11.1,6).

[70] Hdt. 1.134; for details see Bickerman 1963 (D 148); Frye 1972 (F 20).

[71] D.L. VI.37–8; for full documentation see von Straten 1974 (H 106).

[72] Plut. *Alex.* 54.4–6; Arr. *Anab.* IV.12.3–5 (Chares F 14); Plut. *Alex.* 54.3; Arr. *Anab.* IV.10.5–12.2; Curt. VIII.5.8–24 (banquet scene). Of the two versions Chares has usually been accepted against the other tradition (cf. Brown 1949 (D 161) 244; Balsdon 1950 (D 144) 379–82; Hamilton 1969 (B 54) 152–3). Badian 1981 (D 141) 48–54 has dismissed Chares as apologetic fiction. For acceptance of two separate episodes see Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) 1 185; Bosworth 1988 (B 15) 113–23.

Why Alexander attempted the innovation is a mystery. It is at least possible that he now believed the court flattery that elevated him above Heracles and Dionysus. The act of homage he received as a matter of course from his Persian subjects might be extended to the rest of the court, to emphasize the universality of his monarchy. If it implied recognition of his divinity, it was all the more appropriate.

In his later years Alexander's behaviour became more extravagant. As Ephippus (*FGrH* 126 F 5) claimed and the posthumous coinage of Lysimachus unforgettably demonstrates, he assumed the horns of Ammon as a recognizable feature of his dress. The court artist Apelles painted a celebrated portrait of Alexander with the thunderbolt of Zeus and was handsomely rewarded for doing so (Pliny *HN* xxxv.92). That may well have been the model for Alexander's own decadrachms, minted at Babylon, which depict him in military dress, crowned by victory and grasping a thunderbolt in his right hand.[73] At court he was treated with all the reverence due to a god, and Arrian somewhat ironically describes the Greek embassies at Babylon as for all the world like sacred envoys (*theoroi*). They may not have offered actual worship, but they treated Alexander with the awe they would a god.[74]

After the death of Hephaestion in late 324 Alexander became more explicit in his demands. He established a hero cult for his friend and had it ratified by an oracle from Siwah. It became ritual at court and was instituted elsewhere by men like Cleomenes of Naucratis, who dedicated a *heröon* in Alexandria. There seems to have been an element of compulsion. Hyperides complained that the Greeks had to countenance the scrupulous maintenance of temples and altars to living men and were forced to honour their servants as heroes. This can only refer to the worship of Alexander as a god and the simultaneous hero cult of Hephaestion.[75] Only the latter institution is compulsory. Hyperides implies that the cult of Alexander was practised to the detriment of traditional deities but was not formally prescribed.

The question of the worship of Alexander was certainly raised at Athens before the trial of Demosthenes (see above, p.858), but it remains disputed whether there was an explicit demand.[76] At the very least it was notorious that the king greatly desired to be treated as a god and, when he sent instructions (or a request) to institute the hero cult for

[73] Cf. Bellinger 1963 (B 187) 27; Kaiser 1962 (B 199); Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) I 61–4.

[74] Arr. VII.23.2. Cf. Badian 1981 (D 141) 55–9; *contra*, Fredricksmeyer 1979 (D 177); Goukowsky 1978–81 (B 45) I 185.

[75] Hyper. *Epitaph.* 21; cf. Bickerman 1963 (D 149); Habicht 1970 (A 26) 29–32, 219.

[76] The supposed demand was long a dogma of scholarship, particularly in Germany (cf. Wilcken 1970 (A 64) II 391; Schachermeyr 1973 (D 231) 525–31) and some bizarre political consequences have been adduced (cf. Tarn 1948 (D 239) I 370–3, following a suggestion of Eduard Meyer). For a more sceptical approach see Balsdon 1950 (D 144) 383–8; Badian 1981 (D 141) 54–8.

Hephaestion, he might have suggested the recognition of his own divinity. The issue was debated, perhaps inconclusively, in both Athens and Sparta. At Athens Demades moved a decree proposing divine honours in some form: a statue to 'king Alexander the invincible god' was mooted (Hyper. *Dem.* col.33). Demosthenes was grudgingly prepared to accept divine sonship, whereas Lycurgus expressed abhorrence at the very idea of worship ([Plut.] *Mor.* 842D). Some honours may have been voted, in the hope of winning some advantage in the Samian dispute (see above, p.856), but they certainly lapsed at the beginning of the Lamian War, when Demades was heavily fined and suffered *atimia*.

Other cities which were more friendly or pliable voted cults with alacrity. The process can be traced in Asia Minor and the islands, where several cults are attested. In the first generation after his death Alexander was honoured with a festival at Thasos, and Erythrae had a priesthood for 'king Alexander' by 270 B.C. The Ionian *koinon* held a regular annual festival which provided the model for honours to Antiochus I (*OGIS* 222) and was still observed in Strabo's day (Strabo XIV.1.31). These honours are most likely to have originated in Alexander's lifetime, while he was exercising power, but they cannot be precisely dated.[77] There is no record of any divine honour in the early years of the reign, and the oracles sent to Memphis in 331 are the first attested recognition of the king's godhead. It is likely enough that the later heroization of Hephaestion evoked the same type of proposals as are attested in Athens.

In 323 the god died. The fiction soon developed that he had been translated to heaven like Heracles (*OGIS* 4, line 5; Diod. XVIII.56.2). His progress was complete. Beginning as a Heraclid and descendant of heroes, he had became first a son of Zeus and finally a god manifest on earth. The precedent for the worship of a living man was firmly established, a precedent which his Successors were irresistibly driven to emulate.

[77] Cf. Habicht 1970 (A 26) 17–25; Badian 1981 (D 141), 59–63.

CHAPTER 18

EPILOGUE

SIMON HORNBLOWER

In the three quarters of a century between Lysander of Sparta and Alexander the Great – the period covered by this volume – the classical world had expanded and changed spectacularly, above all by the overthrow of the Achaemenid empire. The aim of this Epilogue is to put that, the biggest single change, into historical context.

Much of the present volume may seem to have been, in one way or another, preparation for Alexander the Great, who has himself filled the two preceding chapters. Philip, the subject of chs. 14 and 15, most obviously invites comparison with Alexander. Alexander's army was Philip's and so were its commanders, that is, Alexander's initial advisers. The deification of Alexander had a precedent in Philip's, and Philip the city-founder was, together with the Elder Cyrus, Alexander's likely model. Most important of all, it is arguable that Alexander conquered the Persian empire only because Philip had planned its conquest. (See further below.)

And behind Philip stand some autocrats of an earlier, but still fourth-century, generation. Dionysius I of Syracuse is the prototype (see ch. 5 above). He was a forceful military despot who concentrated power in his own hands and was effective simply by knowing where he was going – the secret of political power and success in all periods and under all forms of government. Both Philip and Dionysius had features in common with yet other fourth-century rulers such as the Bosporan kings of south Russia (ch. 9*f*) or Mausolus the semi-autonomous satrap of Caria (ch. 8*a*). For instance, they all had to balance their roles as ruler of freedom-conscious Greeks and as more absolute master of non-Greeks. One way of doing this was to adopt different titulature to express one's relationship to those different groups.

Other aspects of Alexander's career are prefigured in the traditional Greek polis. For instance, there are traces of personality cult – the issue which brought Alexander into collision with his more conservative-

minded entourage – even in (among other places) that most traditional of all Greek states, Sparta.[1] (See p. 29 for the honours to Lysander.)

So there are ways in which Alexander is a kind of climax to, or culmination of, already discernible tendencies. This creates a danger that Alexander's success may seem more inevitable than it really was, a danger compounded by our calling him 'the Great'. It is easy to slide from calling a person 'great' to thinking of that person as somehow born with a 'mission'. The slide is particularly noticeable in the nineteenth- and twentieth-century German reception of Alexander.[2] It is therefore important to remember that to his contemporaries Alexander was Alexander the Macedonian, or just Alexander, not Alexander the Great. That is a title first explicitly attested for him in Roman sources, though there is indirect evidence that it was current among hellenistic Greeks.[3]

The title 'Alexander the Great' perhaps carries, with its strong individualist emphasis, the further suggestion that Alexander was impelled chiefly by the power of his own personal motivation; in fact that he was, in psychological language, inner-directed rather than other-directed. As for Alexander's own psychology, the state and character of the literary tradition means that we are almost wholly in the dark, apart from obvious points such as, that he imitated the heroes of Homeric epic. But this theme may have been exaggerated by ancient writers who were themselves imitating Homer. So it is not safe to impute to him even this rather special brand of 'other-directedness'.

This Epilogue will attempt, briefly and speculatively, to go a little further into the motives for Alexander's expedition. Why did he act as he did? Why did Macedon invade Asia?

If we leave aside the unanswerable question of Alexander's personal psychology, there are three ways of looking at the problem. Each takes us progressively further back in time from Alexander himself, and they

[1] For Lysander see Badian 1981 (D 141) 37–8; honours perhaps only posthumous. For Spartan kings see the discussion between Parker 1988 (H 92) and Cartledge 1988 (H 11). For Dion of Syracuse see Habicht 1970 (A 26) 8–10. There are other interesting honours to individuals, see Lintott 1982 (C 43) 353, cf. 233f. and de Ste Croix 1981 (C 70) 297 for Euphron of Sicyon (posthumous heroic honours). For Philip, Diod. XVI.92 and now *SEG* XXVIII 658 (possibly posthumous). For the fifth century note Pouilloux 1954 (C 376) 63ff: Theagenes of Thasos, and see Thuc. V.11 (Hagnon at Amphipolis). For Mausolus see *CR* 1982, 110. For Alexander's difficulties with his entourage on this issue see above all Plut. *Alex.* 47 and above, p.873. [2] Wailes-Fairbairn 1990 (D 241A).

[3] Pfister 1964 (D 222) 37–79. The so-called Heidelberg Epitome. *FGrHist* 155, calls Alexander 'the Great', and would be the first source to do so if we could be sure that it was early hellenistic (it cannot be *very* early hellenistic because it mentions events of 301 B.C.). However, Demetrius the Besieger is called 'the Great' on an inscription of about 303/2, perhaps with Alexander in mind (*ISE* no.7). The Seleucid king Antiochus III was called 'the Great' in his own lifetime, at the end of the third century B.C, see Robert 1983 (F 703) 164; and it is tempting to think that this was in direct imitation of Alexander. (Antiochus took the title after his Alexander-like expedition to the 'upper' or eastern satrapies.)

can thus be called the short-term, the medium-term and the long-term explanation. Taken together, they may help to place Alexander's achievements in their context within fourth-century (and earlier) Greek and Macedonian history.

First, Philip's inheritance. It was public knowledge that Philip had planned a Persian expedition; indeed the first steps had been taken by 336,[4] and for Alexander to have aborted the expedition at that point would itself have required a definite decision. (If he wanted to avoid the particular 'other-directedness' of completing the project of a father with whom his relations were equivocal, he could always have gone west against Italy, rather than east. About now, energetic Spartan and Epirote leaders did just that.) But Alexander went ahead with the Persian project. How far Philip himself was influenced by Greek theorists telling him that Persia was ripe for Greek takeover – my guess would be, not very far – or by the partial success of Xenophon and the Ten Thousand, we have no way of knowing. They surely counted even less with Alexander, by whose time the plan already had its own momentum.

What happened, in strategic detail, after the initial spear-throw by which Alexander claimed Asia as conquered territory (Diod. XVII.17) was with one important exception merely dictated by the moves of the Persian enemy. Alexander's campaigns up to Gaugamela resemble a game of chess, with the opposing king as the prize whose few and majestic movements dictate the lines of penetration and pursuit. The important exception, determined by basically economic considerations as far as we can see, was the gamble represented by Alexander's decision to swing temporarily west not east after the Battle of Issus. His aim (religious hankerings apart) was presumably to annex the resources of Egypt, so economically valuable to Persia and individual Persians. After Gaugamela and the capture of the king, phases like the guerrilla warfare against Spitamenes were simply imposed on Alexander, the new Great King of Persia. By the Indian phase, it might seem that he was free to do what he liked, but by that time the army was already getting mutinous and he was ultimately 'directed' by external reverse propulsion. Nevertheless, however far Alexander's territorial ambitions and his self-image developed in the decade since that first Homeric spear-throw, it must not be forgotten that Philip's precedent and planning had given the original impulse. This, then, is the short-term explanation for Alexander's invasion of the Persian empire.

The second or medium-term explanation is in terms of revenge for Persian aggression and impiety in 480 B.C. Dismissed as a mere pretext by Polybius (III.6.13), this motif is certainly all but invisible in the pre-350 writings of Isocrates where we would expect it. Modern historians have

[4] Ruzicka 1985 (D 116A).

therefore been tempted to wonder[5] whether it was the amphictyonic precedent, i.e. the Sacred War brought to an end in 346, which first put the idea of another, bigger Sacred War into the mind of Philip, or of his historian Callisthenes. This is an attractive idea, and may be right – up to a point. But on the other hand, the Persian Wars were never out of Greek thoughts at any time from 479 B.C. to the Roman period. Plataea is the paradigm case. The Plataeans, said an early hellenistic traveller, have nothing to say for themselves except that they are colonists of the Athenians (wrong, as it happens) and that the battle between the Greeks and Persians took place on their territory: Austin no. 83. Thucydides plays down this general theme, as he plays down so much else that is backward-looking or sentimental, but even he attests a cult of Zeus the Liberator at Plataea (II.71.2) and some kind of hostel for pilgrims, also at Plataea (III.68.3). Philip's offer to rebuild Plataea, destroyed by Thebes in 373, and Alexander's actual rebuilding of it (Paus. IV.27 etc.; Arr. *Anab.* I 9.10) thus acquire special point, on the eve of the new crusade.

So too, Philip's choice of Corinth as the seat of his new league in 337 can be explained not merely by the city's central position and obvious strategic importance, or even by the precedent of the 'Council in Corinth' which masterminded the Corinthian War in 395 B.C. (Diod. XIV.82.2), but by Corinth's role in the most recent and spectacular Greek repulse of a barbarian power: Timoleon's defeat of Carthage at the river Crimisus (above, p.713). It is true that there is no direct ancient evidence for this aspect to the League of Corinth, but the suggestion is ingenious and plausible.[6] So what we have here is the motif of a crusade against the barbarian. And we should perhaps place in this category such texts as the Themistocles decree (M–L no.23 = Fornara 55), which rallies Greeks against barbarians and was probably conceived in the age of Philip, whatever view one takes of the authenticity of its precise contents. There are other such texts,[7] all tending to show that the tradition about the Persian Wars still mattered to fourth-century Greeks, whether that tradition was real, invented, or (the best view perhaps) a real tradition subject to accretions and embellishment: there is after all Thucydides' evidence for Plataean cult of some sort.

We noticed above the (false) Plataean claim to be colonists, i.e. kin, of the Athenians. Kinship of this sort was a powerful concept in the fourth-century world, and is related to, though distinct from, the Greek–barbarian opposition. Alexander, says Arrian, sought to rival Perseus and Heracles, because he was descended from both (*Anab.* III.3.2). Now one Greek view held that Perseus was the founder of Persia as well as of

[5] Momigliano 1934 (D 106) 165. [6] Lane Fox 1973 (D 208) 93.

[7] Habicht 1961 (B 52). Note also Grafton 1991 (B 46A) for the fourth century as the beginning of the heyday of literary forgery.

Argos from whose royal line Alexander claimed descent (Hdt. VII.150, actually attributing this view to the Persians!). So one reason for Alexander's stress on Perseus is the idea of kinship between Persia and Macedon, kinship which would legitimate his rule over Persia.[8] Kinship as a justification for empire was hardly a new idea (see Thuc.I.95.1), but kinship or *syngeneia* becomes a leading theme in Hellenistic history and epigraphy. (The classic text is now *SEG* XXXVIII 1476: Cytenians and Lycian Xanthus.) Colonial ties, especially with Macedon's ultimate 'metropolis' Argos, were exaggerated or invented in profusion: see for instance Tod no. 194 where Nicocreon of Cyprus claims Argive origins, or *SEG* XXXIV 282, making the same claim for Pamphylian Aspendus. Archaic Argos was not a colonizing power, and these claims are frankly usurped, or at best derived from vague traditions about prehistoric migrations from the Argolid. But the fourth-century (and later) Greek fondness for exploiting real or fictitious genealogies and colonial relationships[9] helps us to understand certain aspects of Alexander's expedition: above all, the tenderness with which he treated Ionian cities, especially those which had been prominent in the Ionian Revolt of 499. The war was, in fact, a war to liberate Greek kinsmen in Persian bondage.

We can conclude that Polybius may have dismissed the revenge-against-the-barbarian motif a touch too easily.

A third, even more long-term approach is possible, but it needs a word of general introduction, because it involves the abandonment of the notion of the city state or polis as the essential up-to-date unit of organization. An earlier chapter of the present volume (ch.11) examined the alternatives to the polis. We saw there that one of those alternatives was the tribe or *ethnos*; work on early Greek ethnicity has tended to challenge the assumption that there was anything intrinsically backward about the *ethnos*.[10] Certainly the great hellenistic groupings with which the Romans would later have to deal, the Achaeans, Aetolians and so forth, emerged from *ethnos* not polis structures. It might then be argued that if there was actually more potential energy in the *ethnos* than the polis, it is not surprising that Alexander's background was closer to the former than to the latter. This is not to advocate a return to the position of J.G. Droysen, for whom the polis was obsolete[11] and Alexander did the world a favour by superseding Athens at the level of power politics (nor should we follow Droysen in his fantastic idea that Alexander's 'mission' was to be a kind of fully militarized John the Baptist, preparing the way for Christianity).

[8] Bosworth 1980 (B 14) 270.

[9] Bickerman 1952 (A 8); Robert 1983 (F 703) 162–3; 1987 (F 712) 477–90.

[10] Morgan 1991 (A 44) 131–63, mostly about Achaea; cf. also Runciman 1990 (C 62) at 353.

[11] Wailes-Fairbairn 1990 (D241A). The polis not 'dead': see above, pp. 563, 589.

So, having accustomed ourselves to the idea that Macedon may have possessed greater vigour precisely because it was organized on a non-polis footing, we may turn to our third line of explanation, which runs like this. The war against Persia was (it could be held by an ethnologist impatient with literary themes like revenge and kinship or inherited wars) nothing more than a repetition of the response of the inhabitants of Macedon, in about 800 B.C, to a sudden surge in human resources comparable to that experienced by fourth-century Macedon. The *ethnos* constituted by the Phrygian occupants of Macedonia had spilled over into Anatolia at an earlier phase of Balkan history – half a millennium, in fact, before Philip and Alexander. These groups of migrants founded the Phrygian kingdom of Asia Minor centred on Gordium[12] (Bryges is the Macedonian equivalent of Phryges).

Perhaps these migrants, the approximate contemporaries of Homer, claimed Asia and its riches as 'spear-won territory' – and spear-won booty. Alexander's campaigns have been called 'two things rolled into one, a booty raid on an epic scale and the permanent conquest of vast tracts of territory'.[13] The booty aspect is an enduring feature of ancient warfare (it is candidly given by Thucydides, VI.24, as one major motive for the Sicilian expedition) and reminds us that there were more prosaic and ordinary aspects of Alexander's motivation.

So we might wish to minimize the global significance of the individual Alexander. His contemporaries did not agree: Ptolemy of Egypt hijacked Alexander's body and its tremendous funeral-carriage (one of the wonders of the hellenistic age. It was described in a famous passage by Hieronymus of Cardia, the Thucydides of the early hellenistic age.[14] Diod. XVIII.26–8.) The body itself was placed in a glass[15] coffin (Strabo XVII.1.8), providing a kind of permanent photo-opportunity for the young man who had so skilfully silenced the grumblings of his army by his theatrical disappearances and reappearances. Like many other of Alexander's successors Ptolemy put the effigy of his head on his coins.[16] History and historiography recovered swiftly from the end of the Athenian empire, the event which closed our volume v[2]; the effect of Alexander's equally dramatic demise[17] would be less easy for the world to digest.

[12] For all this see Hammond 1972 (D 46) 410–14.

[13] Austin 1986 (I 4) 454; see also 464 on the special bellicosity of *young* kings, who needed to prove themselves; Alexander himself is an obvious case in point.

[14] J. Hornblower 1981 (B 60).

[15] Unless the word ὑαλίνη here means (translucent?) alabaster; Fraser 1972 (A 21) 15 and n.79.

[16] Smith 1988 (J 46) 17, and (for portrait coins) 58ff.

[17] O'Brien 1992 (D 217A) now argues that alcohol abuse was the key to Alexander's premature death, and to much of his behaviour in his lifetime.

CHRONOLOGICAL TABLE

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
405–4 Death of Darius II; accession of Artaxerxes II	
c. 404–3 Revolt of Egypt under Amyrtaeus II	404 (spring) Fall of Athens (summer) Lysander captures Samos Establishment of Thirty at Athens Death of Alcibiades
	403 (spring) Fall of Thirty (summer) Agis intervenes in Athens (September) Athenian exiles return; democracy restored at Athens Ephors abolish Lysander's decarchies
	402–400 Spartan war against Elis
401 (spring) Cyrus collects his army at Sardis (summer) Battle of Cunaxa	401 Independent state at Eleusis suppressed
400 Sparta declares war on Tissaphernes	400 (early summer) Death of Agis Succession of Agesilaus
c. 398–7 Nepherites king of Egypt	399 Thibron's campaign in Asia Conspiracy of Cinadon
	399–7 Dercyllidas' campaigns in Asia
	397 Conon appointed to command Persian fleet
396 First campaign of Agesilaus in Phrygia etc. Nepherites assists Sparta	396 (autumn) Mission of Timocrates to Greece
395 Agesilaus attacks Sardis and Phrygia	395 (summer) War between Phocis and Locris, Theban invasion of Phocis, outbreak of Corinthian war, Battle of Haliartus Work begun on Long Walls
	395/4 (winter) Recall of Agesilaus from Asia
394 Agesilaus recalled to Greece	394 (spring) Battle of Nemea (Corinth) (August) Battle of Cnidus; Battle of Coronea (summer) Conon and Pharnabazus operate in the Aegean
393 (winter) Embassy of Antalcidas to Tiribazus	393 (spring) Conon and Pharnabazus to Greece (summer) Conon in Athens, assists in the rebuilding of the Long Walls
	392 (spring) Revolution at Corinth; union of Corinth and Argos (summer) negotiations between Antalcidas and Tiribazus Spartan capture of Lechaeum Arrest of Conon
c. 392–1 Achoris king of Egypt	392/1 (winter) Peace conference at Sparta Allied recovery of Lechaeum

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
	c. 425–395 Zeuxis painter
409 Carthage invades Sicily; fall of Selinus and Himera	
407 Hermocrates returns to Sicily	
406 Second Carthaginian invasion; fall of Acragas	
405 Dionysius elected *strategos autokrator* Fall of Gela Treaty between Carthage and Syracuse Dionysius tyrant	405 Aristophanes, *Frogs*
	401 Posthumous production of Sophocles, *Oedipus at Colonus*
	400 Andocides, *De Mysteriis*
	399 Death of Socrates
397 War declared on Carthage Siege of Motya	
396 Himilco attacks Syracuse Plague in Carthaginian army Suicide of Himilco	*c.* 396 Antisthenes opens school
	394–3 Dexileos gravestone, Athens
393 Dionysius honoured at Athens	
c. 392 Mago's campaign Renewal of peace	392 Aristophanes, *Ecclesiazusae*

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
391 Evagoras of Cyprus revolts from Persia in alliance with Athens and Achoris	391 (spring) Spartan invasion of the Argolid and recapture of Lechaeum (summer) Tiribazus replaced by Struthas, expedition of Thibron (autumn) Expedition of Ecdicus
	390 (spring) Expedition of Teleutias to Rhodes (summer) Spartan capture of Piraeum; defeat of Spartan *mora* by Iphicrates Thrasybulus active in Thrace, Hellespont
	389 (summer) Spartan invasion of Acarnania Death of Thrasybulus; fighting between Iphicrates and Anaxibius Fighting on Aegina
	388 (spring) Spartan invasion of the Argolid Reappointment of Tiribazus (summer) Mission of Chabrias to Cyprus Second mission of Antalcidas to Persia
	387 (spring) Teleutias' raid on the Piraeus (summer) Antalcidas operating in the Hellespont (autumn) Peace negotiations at Sardis
386 The King's Peace	386 (spring) King's Peace concluded at Sparta
	?386 (summer) Refoundation of Plataea Alliance between Sparta and Thebes
c. 385 Evagoras in Tyre	385 (summer) Spartan attack on Mantinea
385–3 Artaxerxes at war with Egypt	385/4 (winter) Dioecism of Mantinea
	384 Return of exiles to Phlius Alliance between Athens and Chios
c. 382 Unsuccessful attack on Cyprus by Tiribazus	382 (summer) First Spartan expedition to Olynthus Seizure of Cadmea (autumn) Teleutias to Olynthus
c. 381 Evagoras' fleet defeated by Persians	381 (spring) Death of Teleutias; Agesipolis to Olynthus (summer) Death of Agesipolis Siege of Phlius begins (?autumn) Polybiades to Olynthus
c. 380 Peace made between Evagoras and Persians	?380 Spartan alliance with Glos
	379 (summer) Surrender of Phlius Surrender of Olynthus
379–8 Death of Achoris. Accession of Nectanebo I	379/8 (winter) Liberation of Cadmea Cleombrotus invades Boeotia
	378 (spring) Foundation of Second Athenian League Raid of Sphodrias Athens declares war on Sparta Admission of Thebes to league (summer) Agesilaus invades Boeotia
	377 (spring) Decree of Aristoteles Agesilaus invades Boeotia, falls ill (summer) Chabrias in Euboea and Cyclades

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
391 Dionysius invades Italy Alliance between Dionysius and Lucanians	
390 Lucanians attack Thurii Peace between Italiotes and Lucanians Dismissal of Leptines Battle of the Eleporus Destruction of Caulonia	*c.* 390 Isocrates opens school (*Against the Sophists*) Temple of Apollo, Bassae 'Nereid Monument', Xanthus
388/7 Siege of Rhegium	388 Aristophanes, *Plutus* Lysias, *Olympiacus* (but see p. 139 n.82) Plato's first visit to Sicily
387 Dionysius sends help to Sparta	*c.* 387 Plato starts Academy
?386 Crisis at Syracusan court	386 'Old tragedy' introduced at Dionysia
?385 Dionysius' Adriatic ventures	
?383 Renewal of war with Carthage	384 Birth of Aristotle and Demosthenes
	380 Isocrates, *Panegyricus* 380–60 Temple of Asclepius, Epidaurus after 377 Plato, *Republic*
?378 Peace with Carthage	

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	376 (spring) Cleombrotus fails to invade Boeotia
	(September) Battle of Naxos
	375 (summer) Battle of Tegyra
	Chabrias in Thrace and Hellespont
	periplous of Timotheus; Battle of Alyzia
	Theban invasion of Phocis; Cleombrotus to Phocis
	King's Peace renewed at Sparta
	375–4 (autumn-summer) Spartan expeditions to Zakynthos and Corcyra
374–3 Iphicrates helps Pharnabazus in unsuccessful expedition in Egypt	?374 (winter) Ctesicles to Zakynthos
Death of Evagoras	373 (summer) Timotheus fails to assist Corcyra
	Thebes recovers Tanagra, Thespiae, destroys Plataea
	(autumn) Trial of Timotheus
	Mnasippus in control of Corcyra
	Ctesicles to Corcyra
	372 (spring) Death of Mnasippus
	Iphicrates to Corcyra
	?372 or 371 Destruction of Thespiae
	371 (spring) Theban invasion of Phocis, Cleombrotus to Phocis
	(summer) King's Peace renewed at Sparta
	Battle of Leuctra
	King's Peace renewed at Athens
	370 Jason of Pherae murdered
	Mantinea refounded
	Formation of Arcadian League
	Alliance of Arcadia, Argos, Elis and Boeotia
	370–369 (winter) Epaminondas' first Peloponnesian campaign, invasion of Laconia, liberation of Messenia and foundation of Messene
	369 Alliance of Athens and Sparta
	Epaminondas' second Peloponnesian campaign
	Pelopidas' first campaign in Thessaly and Macedon
	368 Arcadia and Argos help Euphron to power in Sicyon
	Pelopidas in Thessaly and Macedon: Pelopidas imprisoned by Alexander of Pherae
	Spartan victory over Arcadia, Argos and Messenia at the Tearless Battle
	Foundation of Megalopolis
	367 (spring) Liberation of Pelopidas
	Embassies of Pelopidas and others to the Persian King

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
	375–60 Cephisodotus sculptor, *Eirene and Ploutos*
	373 Isocrates, *Plataicus*
369 Dionysius sends help to Sparta	
368 Further help to Sparta Renewal of war with Carthage Dionysius sends embassy to Athens	
367 (spring) Death of Dionysius I Dionysius II succeeds	367 Aristotle joins the Academy 367–6 Plato in Sicily; Eudoxus temporary scholarch of Academy

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	366 (spring) Congress at Thebes rejects peace terms proposed by Thebes and approved by the Persian King Epaminondas' second Peloponnesian campaign, alliance Thebes–Achaea, overthrow and restoration of Achaean oligarchies Timotheus sent by Athens to help Ariobarzanes, siege of Samos (366–5) Deposition, return, and murder of Euphron of Sicyon (summer) Oropus lost by Athens to Thebes Alliance Arcadia–Athens
c. 365 Ariobarzanes, followed by other satraps (Asia Minor, Cilicia, Phoenicia), revolts from Persia	365 (spring) Thebes, Corinth and other states make peace Elis–Arcadia war begins
	364 (or 365) Alliance of Elis, Achaea and Sparta
	364 Epaminondas' naval expedition in Aegean Pelopidas' campaign in Thessaly and death, Theban defeat of Alexander of Pherae, alliance of Thebes and Alexander of Pherae
	364 (or 363) Beginning of dissension in Arcadian League over use of Olympic funds
	(?)363 (autumn) Peace Arcadia–Elis
	362 Epaminondas' fourth Peloponnesian campaign, Battle of Mantinea and death of Epaminondas
	362/1 Common peace among states of mainland Greece, except Sparta Alliance of Athens, Arcadia (Mantinea and associated states), Achaea, Elis and Phlius
361–0 Death of Nectanebo I. Accession of Tachos	361 Expedition of Pammenes to Megalopolis
	361/70 Alliance of Athens and the Thessalian League (opposed to Alexander of Pherae)
c. 360 Death of Ariobarzanes and Datames Persian authority restored in Asia Minor	360 Death of Agesilaus Death of Perdiccas III of Macedon; accession of Philip II Philip's first diplomacy with northern powers
359–8 Accession of Nectanebo II in Egypt Death of Artaxerxes II; accession of Artaxerxes III	359 Philip defeats Argaeus Athenian–Macedonian alliance Philip defeats Paeonians
	358 Philip defeats Bardylis Final annexation of Upper Macedonia begins ? Philip aids Aleuadae of Larissa against Pherae

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
366 Plato visits Syracuse Peace between Syracuse and Carthage Exile of Dion	366 Isocrates, *Archidamus*
365 Dionysius II assists Sparta	
	c. 364 Lysippus sculptor, statues of Thebans
361–0 Plato revisits Syracuse	361–60 Plato in Sicily; Heraclides temporary scholarch of Academy
	358–30 Theatre of Epidaurus built

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	357 Athens expels Thebans from Euboea Macedonian–Epirote alliance; Philip marries Olympias Outbreak of Social War Philip takes Amphipolis; Athens declares war
c. 356 Revolt of Artabazus	356 Philip takes Pydna First Phocian events leading to Sacred War Thracian kings and Athens in coalition against Macedonia (*c.* July 20) Birth of Alexander Philip takes Potidaea; Parmenion defeats Grabus Athens defeated in battle off Embata
	355 Social War ends Amphictyony declares sacred war on Phocis Philip invests Methone
?354 ?First invasion of Egypt by Artaxerxes	354 Methone falls to Philip Battle of Neon; Philomelus killed and succeeded by Onomarchus
353 Artabazus helped by Thebes	353 ? Macedonian–Boeotian alliance Philip in Thrace Military successes of Onomarchus Philip returns from Thrace, evading Chares off Neapolis Chares captures Sestus Athens sends cleruchs to Chersonese Olynthus declares friendship for Athens and requests alliance
	352 Philip defeats Onomarchus at Crocus Field Philip elected archon of Thessalian League Philip advances to Thermopylae, finds it guarded and retires (November) Philip at Heraeum in Thrace, in alliance with Byzantium, Perinthus and Amadocus against Cersobleptes
c. 351 Second invasion of Egypt by Artaxerxes	351 Philip successful in Thrace despite illness Philip's warning to Olynthians
	351/0 (winter) Demosthenes *First Philippic* (Dem. IV)
	350 Philip in Epirus

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
357 Return of Dion to Syracuse	
356 Dion besieges Ortygia Arrival of Nypsius at Syracuse	
355 Fall of Ortygia	355 Isocrates, *On the Peace* Xenophon, *Revenues* 355–35 'Kerch style' of Athenian red-figure
354 Dion murdered Callippus tyrant at Syracuse	354 Isocrates, *Areopagiticus* Isocrates, *Antidosis*
352 Hipparinus succeeds Callippus	352–1 Mausoleum, Halicarnassus
351 Nysaeus tyrant at Syracuse	
	350–30 'Darius painter', Apulian red-figure 350–20 Apelles painter *c.* 350 Praxiteles sculptor, *Aphrodite* at Cnidus, *Apollo Sauroctonus* *Demeter* at Cnidus

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	349 (late summer) Macedonian campaign in Chalcidice begins
	Demosthenes *Olynthiacs* (Dem. I–III)
	? Return of tyrant family to Pherae
	First Athenian aid to Olynthus, under Chares
	Philip re-expels tyrants of Pherae
	348 Rising in Euboea against Plutarch; Athenian intervention
	(?September) Olynthus falls to Philip
	Eubulus' decree seeking general alliance against Macedon
	347 Phalaecus removed from command in Phocis
	Demosthenes and Philocrates enter Council of Five Hundred
	Athens co-operates with Cersebloptes in setting up Thracian fortresses
	Small Macedonian force in central Greece
	Phocis offers Thermopylae to Athens and Sparta
	346 (January) Athenian decree inviting Hellenes to join in war or peace
	Phalaecus recovers Phocian command
	(February) First Athenian embassy travels to Pella
	(March) First embassy returns to Athens
	Philip's Thracian campaign begins
	(April) Athenian Assembly votes for peace and alliance with Philip (18–19 Elaphebolion)
	Surrender of Cersobleptes to Philip (23 Elaphebolion)
	Athens and allies swear to alliance (24 Elaphebolion)
	(May) Second Athenian embassy leaves for Macedonia (3 Munychion)
	(June) Philip returns from Thrace to Pella (*c.* 22 Thargelion)
	(July) Philip at Thermopylae
	Second embassy returns to Athens (13 Scirophorion)
	Athenian Assembly confirms treaty (16 Scirophorion)
	Third embassy leaves for Thermopylae (*c.* 17 Scirophorion)
	Timarchus and Demosthenes impeach Aeschines
	Philip's request for Athenian hoplites rejected

The fullness in detail in the 340s is a function of the abnormal character of the evidence.

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
	347 Death of Plato; Speusippus head of the Academy
346 Dionysius expels Nysaeus and recovers Syracuse	346 Isocrates, *Philippus* 346–25 Rebuilding of Temple of Apollo, Delphi

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	Phocians surrender to Philip (23 Scirophorion)
	Special Amphictyonic meeting
	(September) Philip presides over Pythian festival
	Amphictyons demand Athenian assent; Demosthenes *On the Peace* (Dem. v)
	Autumn *pylaia* at Delphi
	Aeschines counter-prosecutes Timarchus (Aesch. i)
345 Revolt of Tennes of Sidon	345 Philip moves population-groups in Macedonia
	Philip campaigns in Illyria against Pleuratus
	Messene and Megalopolis refused Amphictyonic membership
344 Capture of Sidon	344 Philip puts down revolts in Thessaly, garrisons Pherae, and reconstructs tetrarchic national government
Persian appeal to Greece for help	Demosthenes travels in Peloponnese
	Python's embassy to Athens
	Demosthenes *Second Philippic* (Dem. vi)
	Athens rebuffs Persian embassy
343–2 Persian reconquest of Egypt	343 Thebes presses for Phocian repayments to begin
	Philocrates impeached and flees from Athens
	Stasis in Elis and Megara
	Pro-Macedonians dominant in Eretria and Oreus
	Trial of Aeschines (Dem. xix, Aesch. ii)
	Philip makes final offer to Athens (including Halonnesus) and leaves for Epirus
342 (winter) Mentor captures Hermias	342 Arybbas of Epirus exiled; Alexander becomes king
	Hegesippus *On Halonnesus* ([Dem.] vii)
	Athens sends troops to Acarnania and seeks alliances
	(*c.* June) Philip's final Thracian campaign begins
	Macedonian interventions in Euboea
	Violence between Cardians and Athenian cleruchs
	341 Philip sends troops to Cardia
	Diopeithes takes two towns in Thrace, and tortures Philip's envoy
	Alliance of Athens and Chalcis
	Demosthenes *On the Chersonese* (Dem. viii)

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
345 Syracusan appeal to Corinth Hicetas intrigues with Carthaginians	345–30 Scopas sculptor Temple of Athena Alea, Tegea
344 Timoleon sails for Sicily Battle of Adranum Surrender of Dionysius II to Timoleon	
343 Mago in Sicily Timoleon settles affairs at Syracuse	343 Aristotle becomes tutor to Alexander
342 Timoleon's raid on the Carthaginian province Archidamus of Sparta helps Tarentines against Lucanians and Messapians	342 Isocrates, *First Letter to Philip* 342–1 Birth of Menander and Epicurus
341 Arrival of Carthaginian force in Sicily Battle of the Crimisus	

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	Demosthenes *Third* and *Fourth Philippics* (Dem. IX–X)
	Philip defeats and deposes Teres and Cersobleptes
	Athens captures Oreus and Eretria
	Philip campaigns on Black Sea coast
	Demosthenes and Callias canvass support in west Greece and Peloponnese
	340 Demosthenes and Callias report massive support; Athens approves Euboean League under hegemony of Chalcis
	Philip attacks Perinthus, which is supported by Persia
	Philip's letter to Athens ([Dem.] XII)
	Philip invests Selymbria and attacks Byzantium
	(autumn) Philip captures corn fleet
	(October) Athens declares war
	Alexander defeats Maedi and founds Alexandropolis
	Chares drives Macedonian fleet into Black Sea
	Phocion arrives at Hellespont
	? Philip's troops rebuffed by Ateas the Scythian
	339 Philip retires from Byzantium and extricates fleet from Black Sea
	Philip's Scythian campaign
	Dispute over Amphissa begins at Delphi
	(*c.* June) Amphictyonic meeting at Thermopylae
	After Triballian defeat Philip returns home wounded
	(autumn) Amphictyons appoint Philip *hegemon* for sacred war against Amphissa
	(November) Philip takes Cytinium and Elatea
	Macedonian and Athenian envoys at Thebes
	Theban–Athenian alliance
	Philip fails in skirmishes on River Cephisus
338 (August) Artaxerxes III murdered; Artaxerxes IV becomes King	338 Philip and Parmenion trick Chares and Proxenus in Gravia Pass
	Parmenion captures Amphissa and Naupactus
	Coalition troops fall back to Chaeronea

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
339 Execution of Hicetas	339 'Old comedy' introduced at Dionysia Xenocrates succeeds Speusippus as head of the Academy Isocrates, *Panathenaicus*
338 Peace between Timoleon and Carthage Battle of Mandonium; Archidamus killed	338 Isocrates, *Second Letter to Philip* Death of Isocrates

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
	(*c.* 22 August) Battle of Chaeronea Philip reaches settlements with Athens and Thebes Philip in the Peloponnese; further settlements
	337 Common Peace proposed in Corinth First meeting of Hellenic League declares war on Persia Philip returns to Macedonia (autumn) Philip marries Cleopatra
	336 ? Philip's campaign against Pleurias Pixodarus seeks alliance with Philip (?October) Philip assassinated at Aegae; accession of Alexander Alexander elected general of the Greeks
336 (spring) Parmenion in Asia Minor Artaxerxes IV murdered; Darius III becomes King	336–26 Lycurgus in control of Athenian finance
	335 Alexander in Thrace and Illyria Destruction of Thebes
334 Battle of Granicus Democracies set up in Ionia Sieges of Miletus and Halicarnassus	334 Alexander embarks on Persian campaign
334–3 Conquest of Lycia, Pamphylia and western Pisidia	
333 Conquest of Cilicia Battle of Issus	
332 Siege and capture of Tyre Siege and capture of Gaza	
332–1 Alexander's conquest of Egypt	
331 Submission of Cyrene	331 Revolt of Agis
(April) Foundation of Alexandria	Battle of Megalopolis; death of Agis
(1 October) Battle of Gaugamela	
(20 October) Alexander occupies Babylon Alexander occupies Susa	
330–29 Alexander winters in Persepolis	
330 Alexander at Ecbatana	330 The *Crown* trial at Athens
Death of Darius	330–26 Corn shortage in Greece
Murders of Philotas and Parmenion	
329 Conquest of Bactria	
328 Conquest of Sogdiana Murder of Cleitus The Pages' conspiracy; death of Callisthenes	
327 Alexander invades India	
326 Alexander crosses the Indus Battle of the Hydaspes Mutiny at the Beas Voyage of Nearchus down the Hydaspes Conquest of the Malli	326 Death of Lycurgus

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
c. 337 Retirement of Timoleon	
	336 Tomb of Philip II, Vergina
	335 Aristotle settles at Athens
334–1 Alexander of Epirus in South Italy	334 Monument of Lysicrates, Athens
	c. 330 Lysippus sculptor, *Heracles*, *Kairos* Leochares sculptor, *Ganymede*, '*Apollo Belvedere*'
	327 Philemon's first victory

Persian empire	Greece and the Aegean
325 (July) Nearchus reaches Patala	325–4 Harpalus admitted at Athens and escapes
Alexander in Gedrosia	
(October) Nearchus in the Persian Gulf	
324 Alexander in Carmania	324 Athens founds colony on Adriatic
Satraps ordered to dismiss mercenaries	Exile of Demosthenes
(March) Alexander reaches Susa	
Restoration of Greek exiles	
Mutiny at Opis	
Death of Hephaestion	
323 Alexander at Babylon	323 Outbreak of Lamian War
(June) Death of Alexander	Alliance of Athens and Aetolia
	Demosthenes returns to Athens
	Antipater besieged in Lamia
	Death of Leosthenes
	322 Athenian fleet defeated at Amorgos
	(August) Battle of Crannon
	Change of constitution at Athens

Sicily and South Italy	Art, philosophy, literature
c. 325 Exile of Agathocles	
	?324 First production of Menander
c. 322 Agathocles returns to Syracuse	322 Hyperides, *Funeral Oration* Death of Aristotle, Demosthenes and Hyperides
	321 Menander's first victory
	c. 320 Lysippus sculptor, *Apoxyomenus* End of Athenian red-figure
	317 Sculptured tombs banned at Athens
	c. 300 End of South Italian red-figure

BIBLIOGRAPHY

Abbreviations

AAA	*Athens Annals of Archaeology*
Abh. Ak. Mainz	Abhandlungen der geistes- und sozialwissenschaftlichen Klasse, Akademie der Wissenschaften und der Literatur, Mainz
Abh. Sächs.	Abhandlungen der sächsischen Akademie der Wissenschaften zu Leipzig
Act. Ant. Hung.	*Acta antiqua Academiae scientiarum Hungaricae*
ADFU	Ausgrabungen der Deutschen Forschungsgemeinschaft in Uruk-Warka
AfO	*Archiv für Orientforschung*
Agora	*The Athenian Agora: Results of Excavations*
AHR	*American Historical Review*
AIIN	*Annali: Istituto Italiano di Numismatica*
AION	*Annali dell'Istituto Universitario Orientale di Napoli: archaeologia e storia antica*
AION (Ling)	*Annali dell'Istituto Universitario Orientale di Napoli (sezione linguistica)*
AJA	*American Journal of Archaeology*
AJAH	*American Journal of Ancient History*
AJP	*American Journal of Philology*
AMI	*Archäologische Mitteilungen aus Iran*
Anc. Mac.	*Ancient Macedonia*
AncSoc	*Ancient Society*
AncW	*Ancient World*
ANET	J. B. Pritchard, ed., *Ancient Near Eastern Texts relating to the Old Testament*. 3rd edn. Princeton, 1974
Annales ESC	*Annales, Economies, Sociétés, Civilisations*
Ann. Serv.	*Annales du Service des antiquités de l'Égypte*
ANSMN	*American Numismatic Society: Museum Notes*
ANRW	*Aufstieg und Niedergang der römischen Welt*
Ant. Class.	*Antiquité classique*
Ant. Kunst	*Antike Kunst*
AOR	*Archeologicheskige Otkritya i Razkopki* (Archaeological Discoveries and Excavations)

ARCE	*American Research Center in Egypt*
Arch. Anz.	*Archäologischer Anzeiger*
ArchDelt	*Ἀρχαιολογικὸν Δελτίον*
ArchEph	*Ἀρχαιολογικὴ Ἐφημερίς*
Arch. Rep.	*Archaeological Reports*
AS	*Assyriological Studies*
ASAA	*Annuario della Scuola Archaeologica di Atene*
ASNP	*Annali della Scuola Normale Superiore di Pisa, Classe di Lettere e Filosofia*
ATL	B. D. Meritt *et al.*, *The Athenian Tribute Lists* I–IV. Cambridge, MA – Princeton, 1939–53
Atti MSMG	*Atti e Memorie della Società Magna Grecia*
Austin	M. M. Austin, *The Hellenistic World from Alexander to the Roman Conquest: A Selection of Ancient Sources in Translation.* Cambridge, 1981
Bagh. Mitt.	*Baghdader Mitteilungen*
BAR	British Archaeological Reports
BASOR	*Bulletin of the American Schools of Oriental Research*
BCH	*Bulletin de correspondance hellénique*
BE	Babylonian Expedition of the University of Pennsylvania, Series A: Cuneiform Texts
BEFAR	*Bibliothèque des écoles françaises d'Athènes et Rome*
BEFEO	*Bulletin de l'Ecole française de l'extrême orient*
Bi.Ar.	*The Biblical Archaeologist*
BICS	*Bulletin of the Institute of Classical Studies, University of London*
Bi. Or.	*Bibliotheca Orientalis*
BJ	*Bonner Jahrbücher*
BRGK	*Bericht der Römisch-Germanischen Kommission des Deutschen Archäeologischen Instituts, Berlin*
BS	*Balkan Studies*
BSA	*Annual of the British School at Athens*
BSOAS	*Bulletin of the School of Oriental and African Studies*
BT	Babylonian Talmud
Bull. Epigr.	*Bulletin Epigraphique*
Bull. Inst. fr. Caire	*Bulletin de l'institut français d'archéologie orientale, Le Caire*
CAH	*The Cambridge Ancient History*
CEG	P. A. Hansen (ed.) *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca* I. II. Berlin, 1983, 1989
CHIran	*The Cambridge History of Iran*
Chron. d'Eg.	*Chronique d'Egypte*
CIRB	Struve, V. V. *et al. Corpus Inscriptionum Regni Bosporani.* Moscow–Leningrad, 1965
CIS	*Corpus Inscriptionum Semiticarum*
CJ	*Classical Journal*

ClAnt	*Classical Antiquity* (formerly *California Studies in Classical Antiquity*)
Class. et Med.	*Classica et Mediaevalia*
Cl. Phil.	*Classical Philology*
Cowley, *AP*	A. Cowley, *Aramaic Papyri of the Fifth Century* B.C. Oxford, 1923
CQ	*Classical Quarterly*
CR	*Classical Review*
CRAI	*Comptes-rendus de l'Académie des inscriptions et belles lettres*
CSCA	*California Studies in Classical Antiquity*
CW	*Classical Weekly*
DAIR	Deutsches Archäologisches Institut, Rom
DGE	E. Schwyzer (ed.), *Dialectorum Graecorum Exempla Epigraphica Potiora*. Leipzig, 1923
DHA	*Dialogues d'histoire ancienne*
Dial. di Arch.	*Dialoghi di Archeologia*
D–K	H. Diels and W. Kranz, *Die Fragmente der Vorsokratiker*. 6th edn. Berlin, 1951–4
EMC/CV	*Echos du Monde Classique/Classical Views*
Ep. Chron.	Ἠπειρωτικὰ Χρονικά
FGrH	F. Jacoby (ed.), *Fragmente der griechischen Historiker*. Berlin and Leiden, 1923–58
FHG	C. Müller (ed.), *Fragmenta Historicorum Graecorum*, Paris, 1841–70
Fornara	C. W. Fornara (ed.), *Translated Documents, Archaic Times to the End of the Peloponnesian War*. 2nd edn. Cambridge, 1983
GGM	*Geographi Graeci Minores*
GM	*Göttinger Miszellen, Beiträge zur ägyptischen Diskussion,* Göttingen
GNAMP	*Godnišnik Narodnija arheologičeski musej,* Plovdiv
Gött.Nachr.	*Göttinger Gelehrte Nachrichten*
G&R	*Greece & Rome*
GRBS	*Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies*
GSU	*Godišnik na Sofiyskija Universitet*
Gymn.	*Gymnasium*
Harding	P. Harding, *From the Peloponnesian War to the Battle of Ipsus* (Translated Documents of Greece and Rome 2), Cambridge, 1985
Hesp.	*Hesperia*
Hicks and Hill	E.L. Hicks and G.F. Hill (eds.), *A Manual of Greek Historical Inscriptions*. Oxford, 1901
Hist. Fil. Medd. Dan. Vid. Selsk.	*Historisk-filologiske Meddelelser udgivnet af det Kongelige Danske Videnskabernes Selskab*

Hist. Zeitschr.	*Historische Zeitschrift*
HSCP	*Harvard Studies in Classical Philology*
IBAI	*Izvestya na Bulgarskiya Archeologicheski Instituta*
ICS	O. Masson, *Les inscriptions chypriotes syllabiques*. Paris, 1961; 2nd edn. 1983
IEJ	*Israel Exploration Journal*
IG	*Inscriptiones Graecae*, Berlin, 1873–
IGCH	M. Thompson, O. Mørkholm and C. M. Kraay, *Inventory of Greek Coin Hoards*. New York, 1973
IMYB	*Izvestya na Muzeite v Yozhna Bulgariya*
INMV	*Izvestija na Narodnija muzej Burgas*
Inscr. Délos	F. Durrbach (ed.), *Inscriptions de Délos*. Paris, 1926–37
IOS	*Israel Oriental Studies*
IOSPE	V. V. Latyshev, *Inscriptiones Orae Septentrionalis Ponti Euxini*. Petropoli, 1885–1916
Ir. Ant.	*Iranica Antiqua*
ISE	L. Moretti, *Iscrizioni storiche ellenistiche*. 2 vols. Florence, 1967–75
Ist. Mitt.	*Istanbuler Mitteilungen, Mitteilungen des Deutschen Archäologischen Instituts, Abteilung Istanbul*
IVAD	*Izvestija na Varnenskoto archeologicesko drazestvo*
JBL	*Journal of Biblical Literature*
JCS	*Journal of Cuneiform Studies*
JDAI	*Jahrbuch des deutschen archäologischen Instituts*
JEA	*Journal of Egyptian Archaeology*
JHS	*Journal of Hellenic Studies*
JNES	*Journal of Near Eastern Studies*
JNG	*Jahrbuch für Numismatik und Geldgeschichte*
JÖAI	*Jahreshefte des Österreichischen archäologischen Instituts, Wien*
JRGZM	*Jahrbuch des Römisch-germanischen Zentralmuseums, Mainz*
JRS	*Journal of Roman Studies*
JSOT	*Journal for the Study of the Old Testament*
JTS	*Journal of Theological Studies*
JWI	*Journal of the Warburg Institute*
KAI	H. Donner and W. Röllig, *Kanaanische und aramäische Inschriften*. 2nd edn. Wiesbaden, 1966–9
KSIA	*Kratkie Soobshcheniya Instituta Arkheologii*
KSIAK	*Kratkie Soobshcheniya Instituta Arkheologii, Kiev*
KSIIMK	*Kratkie Soobshcheniya o Dokladakh i Polevikh Issledovaniakh Instityta Istorii materialnoi Kulturi*
Kuml	Kuml: Årbog for Jysk Arkaeologisk Selskab (Århus)
Kupr. Spoudai	*Κυπριακαὶ Σπουδαί*
LCM	*Liverpool Classical Monthly*
LEC	*Les Etudes Classiques*

MDAIK	*Mitteilungen des deutschen archäologischen Instituts, Abteilung Kairo*
MEFRA	*Mélanges de l'Ecole française de Rome, Antiquité*
Mem. Ac. Inscr. B. L.	*Mémoires de l'Académie des Inscriptions et Belles Lettres*
Mem. Linc.	*Memorie dell'Academia nazionale dei Lincei*
MIA	Materialy i Issledovaniya po Arkheologii SSSR
Michel	C. Michel (ed.), *Recueil d'inscriptions grecques*. Brussels, 1900–27
MIFAO	Mémoires de l'Institut français d'archéologie orientale
M–L	R. Meiggs and D. M. Lewis, *Greek Historical Inscriptions*. Oxford, 1969 rev. edn 1988
Mus. Helv.	*Museum Helveticum*
NABU	*Nouvelles assyriologiques brèves et utilitaires*
NNM	Numismatic Notes and Monographs
Noe, *BGCH*	S. P. Noe, *A Bibliography of Greek Coin Hoards*. 2nd edn. New York, 1937
Num. Chron.	*Numismatic Chronicle*
OCD	*Oxford Classical Dictionary*
OGIS	W. Dittenberger (ed.), *Orientis Graecae Inscriptions Selectae*. 2 vols. Leipzig, 1903–5
OIP	Oriental Institute Publications
OJA	*Oxford Journal of Archaeology*
OMRO	*Oudheidkundige mededelingen uit het Rijksmuseum von Oudheden te Leiden*
Opusc. Archaeol.	*Opuscula Archaeologica*
Opusc. Athen.	*Opuscula Atheniensia*
PAE	*Πρακτικὰ τῆς ἐν Ἀθήναις Ἀρχαιολογικῆς Ἑταιρείας*
PBA	*Proceedings of the British Academy*
PBF	Prähistorische Bronzefunde
PCPhS	*Proceedings of the Cambridge Philological Society*
PP	*Parola del Passato*
Proc. Mass. Hist. Soc.	*Proceedings of the Massachusetts Historical Society*
PSBA	*Proceedings of the Society of Biblical Archaeology*
RA	*Revue d'Assyrioligie et d'archéologie orientale*
RB	*Revue biblique*
RC	C. B. Welles (ed.), *Royal Correspondence in the Hellenistic Period*. New Haven, 1934
RDAC	*Report of the Department of Antiquities, Cyprus*
RE	A. Pauly and G. Wissowa, *Real-Encyclopädie der classischen Altertumswissenschaft*, 83 vols. Stuttgart, 1894–1980
REA	*Revue des études anciennes*
Rec. Soc. Bodin	*Recueil de la Société Bodin*
REG	*Revue des études grecques*

REL	*Revue des études latines*
Rend. Linc.	*Rendiconti dell'Accademia nazionale dei Lincei*
Rev. Arch.	*Revue archéologique*
Rev. Arch. l'Est et C-Est	*Revue archéologique de l'Est et du Centre-Est*
Rev. d'égyptol.	*Revue d'égyptologie*
Rev. Hist.	*Revue historique*
Rev. Phil.	*Revue de philologie, de littérature et d'histoire anciennes*
Rh.Mus.	*Rheinisches Museum*
RIDA	*Revue internationale des droits de l'antiquité*
Riv. di Filol.	*Rivista di filologia e d'istruzione classica*
Riv. stor. ant.	*Rivista storica dell'antichità*
Röm. Mitt.	*Römische Mitteilungen*
R. Stud. Fen.	*Rivista di Studi Fenici*
SAK	*Studien zur altägyptischen Kultur*
SBAk. Berlin	*Sitzungsberichte der Akademie der Wissenschaften zu Berlin*
SBAk. Wien	*Sitzungsberichte der Österreichischen Akademie der Wissenschaften*
Schweiz. Num. Rundschau	*Schweizerische numismatische Rundschau*
SCI	*Scripta Classica Israelica*
SdA	*Die Staatsverträge des Altertums* II², *Die Verträge der griechisch-römischen Welt von 700 bis 338 v. Chr.*, ed. H. Bengtson, Munich, 1975; *Die Verträge der griechisch-römischen Welt von 338 bis 200 v. Chr.* ed. H. H. Schmitt. Munich, 1969
SEG	*Supplementum Epigraphicum Graecum*. Leiden, 1923–
SGDI	H. Collitz and F. Bechtel, *Sammlung der Griechischen Dialekt-Inschriften I-IV*. Göttingen, 1885–1910
Sic. Gymn.	*Siculorum Gymnasium*
SIG	W. Dittenberger (ed.), *Sylloge Inscriptionum Graecarum*. 3rd edn. Leipzig, 1915–24
SIMA	*Studies in Mediterranean Archaeology*
SO	*Symbolae Osloenses*
Sov. Arch.	*Sovetskaya Archeologiya*
Stud. Clas.	*Studii clasice*
Stud. Etr.	*Studi Etruschi*
TAM	*Tituli Asiae Minoris*. Vienna, 1901–
TAPA	*Transactions and Proceedings of the American Philological Association*
TAVO	*Beihefte zum Tübinger Atlas des Vorderen Orients*
TGF	A. Nauck (ed.), *Tragicorum Graecorum Fragmenta*, 1889
TLS	*Times Literary Supplement*
Tod	M. N. Tod, *A Selection of Greek Historical Inscriptions* II. Oxford, 1948
UCP	University of California Publications in Semitic Philology
Urk.	K. Sethe, *Hieroglyphische Urkunden der Griechisch-Römischen Zeit.*

	Heft 1: historisch-biographische Urkunden aus den Zeiten der makedonischen Könige und der beiden ersten Ptolemäer (Urkunden des ägyptischen Altertums), Leipzig, 1904
VDI	*Vestnik drevnei istorii*
VT	*Vetus Testamentum*
We. Or.	*Die Welt des Orients*
Wien. Stud.	*Wiener Studien*
WVDOG	Wissenschaftliche Veröffentlichungen der Deutschen Orient-Gesellschaft
WZKM	*Wiener Zeitschrift für die Kunde des Morgenlandes*
YCS	*Yale Classical Studies*
ZA	*Zeitschrift für Assyriologie*
ZÄS	*Zeitschrift für ägyptische Sprache und Altertumskunde*
ZAW	*Zeitschrift für die Alttestamentliche Wissenschaft*
ZDMG	*Zeitschrift der deutschen morgenländischen Gesellschaft*
ZDPV	*Zeitschrift des deutschen Palästina Vereins*
Zeitschr. für die österr. Gymn.	*Zeitschrift für die österreichischen Gymnasien*
ZKM	*Zeitschrift für die Kunde des Morgenlandes*
ZOAO	*Zapski Odesskogo Arkheologischeskogo Obschestva*
ZPE	*Zeitschrift für Papyrologie und Epigraphik*

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